CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.1 - The Vexed Story of Capitalism Told by American Historians

Joyce Oldham Appleby

ARTICLE	The Vexed Story of Capitalism Told by American Historians
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 21, no. 1 (2001)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1-2
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THE VEXED STORY OF CAPITALISM TOLD BY AMERICAN HISTORIANS

Joyce Oldham Appleby

In this the most capitalistic country in the world, scholars have a difficult time making precise just what social relations the word, capitalism, refers to, not to mention how to characterize its development across the four centuries of American history. Once such taglines as "America was born free, rich and modern," "capitalism came in the first boats," and "only the energetic and ambitious migrated" expressed the shared assumptions undergirding the metahistory of capitalism in the United States. That story has almost been reversed recently with scenarios about colonists' traditionalism that could fit under the rubic, "how the new world has become old and the old world new." Either version is inadequate. More to the point for members of SHEAR, this inadequacy leaves us bereft of a full understanding of the early republic. I believe that the insights of cultural history with its emphasis upon recovering meanings in the past and exploring how men and women communicated those meanings offers a promising way to reassess the career of capitalism and its conceptual cousins, trade, commerce, and enterprise.

I am approaching "the vexed story of capitalism" as an intellectual and historical phenomenon, involving the myriad of convictions of those who wrote on the subject at various times, as well as the theories then available for analyzing the economy and the motives that may have prompted the historians' work. Throughout I shall use the term capitalism to designate a system that depends upon private property and the relatively free use of it in economic endeavors. My definition points to the scope of action given individuals for turning their property into capital by investing in production, an activity usually aimed at returning a profit and involving legal protection

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Joyce Oldham Appleby was president of SHEAR in 2000. She is a professor of history at UCLA and has been president of the American Historical Association (1997) and the Organization of American Historians (1991). Her most recent book, *Inheriting the Revolution: The First Generation of Americans,* was published in 2000 by Harvard University Press.

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 21 (Spring 2001). © 2001 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

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for hiring labor and selling goods and services in public and private. All of this takes place within a culture that rewards enterprise and rationalizes any untoward social consequences as the price to be paid for material advance.

Neither the term nor the system of capitalism figured in nineteenth-century historical writings. That silence came to an end with the publication in 1913 of Charles Beard's *An Economic Interpretation of the Constitution of the United States*. A bombshell of a book, this path-breaking study irradiated a whole new landscape for researchers to dig into.[1] In it Beard charged that the Constitution was neither a compact of states nor an organic product of American nation-building, but rather the work of the Revolution's moneyed leaders who had grown fearful of democracy. The limited suffrage in 1787, Beard said, had made it possible to rob the people of their political voice. What the Declaration of Independence had bestowed, the Constitution took away. The Federalists' frame of government frustrated future reform too through a byzantine amendment process. Beard further asserted that holdings in cash, loans, and bonds, not the real property in homes, shops, and farms of most American voters, had united the men who pushed for the Constitution's "more perfect union." He thus separated the economy of commercial agriculture—the capitalism of the many—from the investments of bankers and merchants—the capitalism of the few—choreographing capitalism's entrance into American history through the fancy footwork of an elite attentive to its vested interests.

In the compass of a very few pages Beard razed the temple of Constitution worship and erected in its place a peep show through which one could see the hidden forces at play at the Philadelphia convention. Newly energized by this tantalizing thesis, researchers in the following decades ferreted out scores of groups in colonial and post-independence America quarrelling with each over taxation, debt relief, land banks, paper money, stay laws, price controls, and bankruptcy statutes. Beard had been correct: common economic interests had created political coalitions. The difficulty came when one tried to connect these groups causally to the major political decisions about declaring independence, ratifying the Constitution, or joining the Jeffersonian opposition. Even more discomfiting to the Beardians, the postwar scholarship of Robert and Katherine Brown revealed that a substantial majority of white men in 1787 had enjoyed the vote. The electorate that chose the delegates to the ratifying conventions had not been drastically restricted.

Still Beard's *Economic Interpretation of the Constitution* made the Founding Fathers accessible to twentieth-century readers. In fact, his

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[1] Charles Beard, *An Economic Interpretation of the United States* (New York, 1913).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.2 - American Banking and the Transportation Revolution before the Civil War

Jeremy Atack, Matthew Jaremski, and Peter L. Rousseau

ARTICLE	American Banking and the Transportation Revolution before the Civil War
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 74, no. 4 (2014)
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THE JOURNAL OF ECONOMIC HISTORY

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American Banking and the Transportation Revolution before the Civil War

JEREMY ATACK, MATTHEW JAREMSKI, AND PETER L. ROUSSEAU

Studies have shown a connection between finance and growth, but most do not consider how financial and real factors interact to put a virtuous cycle of economic development into motion. As the main transportation advance of the nineteenth century, railroads connected established commercial centers and made unsettled areas along their routes better candidates for development. We measure the strength of links between railroads and banks in seven Midwest states using an annual transportation geographic information system (GIS) database linked to a census of banking. These data indicate that those counties that already had a bank were more likely to see their first railroad go through over the next decade, while new banks tended to enter a county a year or two after a railroad was built. The initial banking system thus helped establish the rail system, while the rapid expansion of railroads helped fill in the banking map of the American Midwest.

The study of financial factors in economic growth and development is an area of increasing interest, and a well-developed literature indicates that finance plays a first-order and enduring role (Levine 1997, 2005). And though economic historians are typically more circumspect in attributing too much to financial factors, a growing body of evidence suggests that improvements in finance served to transform the U.S. economy from a state of disarray, confusion, and stagnation in the 1780s into a more

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We acknowledge the helpful comments from the editor of this JOURNAL Paul Rhode, and its anonymous referees as well as those by participants at the 7th World Congress of Cliometrics, the 2013 Economic History Association meetings (especially our discussant Peter Temin), and Williams College.

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modern and growing economy in subsequent decades (Rousseau and Sylla 2005). Similar experiences in England, the Netherlands, and Japan add weight to these arguments.

Nevertheless, to infer from this evidence that finance was an exogenous driver of growth is as simple as it is incorrect, and begs the question of what put these virtuous cycles of finance and development into motion? In the United States, it took rising state debts, the risk of potential defaults, and the inefficiencies of multiple currency systems to bring about a sea change in financial policy under Treasury Secretary Alexander Hamilton. But beneath these issues, the new financial structures arose in response to the nation's seemingly unlimited potential for generating real economic returns.

A half-century after the Federal Constitution, with the nation's sovereignty secure and its financial institutions already at work in the Eastern population centers, a network of banks rapidly formed in the Midwest. The network effectively filled in gaps in the geographic distribution of financial services as Midwestern customers no longer needed to travel to the region's largest city to bank. What caused the expansion? Hugh Rockoff (1974) and Arthur Rolnick and Warren Weber (1984) argue that lowered barriers to entry from the free banking movement were central. These undoubtedly contributed to the expansion, but the choice of where to locate a new bank was likely determined by the expected profitability of different sites. Specifically, we argue that the burgeoning rail system provided the real-sector catalyst that directed and accelerated the expansion of banking into specific locations of the Midwest. While we do not mean to suggest that banking networks would not have eventually formed without the rails, we argue that the banking map and the implied distribution of capital would have looked quite different without the railroad.

While Robert Fogel (1964) disputed and ultimately rejected the proposition that railroads were indispensable for national economic development, railroads were the key transportation development of the nineteenth century and, from the very first, linked established markets. And though banks and financial services were already available in these markets, unsettled areas along the new rail routes immediately became more attractive prospects for development, and increasingly so as railroads pushed further westward towards the frontier. More nimble and dense than canals, railroads opened trading networks between the frontier and major population centers. Indeed, this is central to recent work by David Donaldson and Richard Hornbeck (2012). Here, we ask a more specific question: Did the economic potential created by the rails determine where banks would set up shop to finance a wave of new economic activity? We

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.3 - On the Use of Geographic Information Systems in Economic History: The American Transportation Revolution Revisited

Jeremy Atack

ARTICLE	On the Use of Geographic Information Systems in Economic History: The American Transportation Revolution Revisited
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On the Use of Geographic Information Systems in Economic History: The American Transportation Revolution Revisited

JEREMY ATACK

Transportation improvements in the nineteenth century loom large in the historiography of the profession during the twentieth century. This article describes the ongoing construction of a historical geographic information systems (GIS) transportation database designed to provide new insights into the impact of the transportation and communications revolution in the continental United States by providing evidence on the spatial dimensions of those changes over time. It also reviews some preliminary findings and reinterpretations based upon these data.

I am taking advantage of the opportunity afforded me by my presidency of the EHA to write what amounts to a personal memoir. It is something of an homage to data for data have been good to me. During my career, I have collected many different data sets; some as a research assistant, others as a principal investigator.[1] All have been

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[1] As a graduate student at Indiana University, I started out working with Fred Bateman (recently deceased, 1/10/2012) and James D. Foust to collect the "Bateman-Foust samples" of 21,118 rural households selected from the 1860 censuses which links census of population data for 1860 to census of agriculture data in 102 townships in the northern United States (Bateman and Foust 1984, 1989). I subsequently went on to work with Bateman, Foust, and Thomas J. Weiss on their samples from the censuses of manufacturing from the 1850–1870 census manuscripts (Atack, Bateman, and Weiss 2006; Bateman, Weiss, and Atack 2006). Independently, I also collected information on 46 steamboats whose details were mistakenly recorded among the 1850 census of manufacturing records for Kentucky (Atack *et al.* 1975; Haites, Mak, and Walton 1975) and, with Bateman, extended the Bateman-Foust sample to 140 townships from 1850 through 1880, modified the Bateman-Weiss manufacturing samples to

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"hands on" and all have figured in my own research. All have also been public goods.[2] None, however, has attracted quite the interest with as much speed of uptake as my ongoing work to develop a historical transportation database for the United States.[3] Consequently, I think it important and useful to describe in detail how these data have been assembled and what their virtues and pitfalls might be. In doing so, it is my intent that this description serve as a reference for users. It might also serve as a blueprint for others desiring to do similar work or who wish to extend what I have done.

Widespread interest in transportation is hardly surprising given the importance of transportation improvements in economic growth and development and their role in the historiography of our field. For example, Thomas Jefferson's Secretary of the Treasury, Albert Gallatin, could confidently assert in his report to the U.S. Senate that "the general utility of artificial roads and canals is at this time so universally admitted as hardly to require any additional proofs" in making his case for more and better means of communication within the United States despite the lapse of more than two thousand years since Appius Claudius Caecus began construction of the road that would bear his name (U.S. Congress. Senate and U.S. Department of the Treasury 1808; Della Portella 2004). The case that Gallatin made was a familiar one to contemporaries then, as now. It emphasized the general gains arising from the changes in the cost of transportation which are central to calculations of social savings by Robert Fogel, Albert Fishlow and others (Fogel 1962, 1964; Fishlow 1965). It also emphasized the trade creation and trade diversion effects arising from the removal of trade barriers that, for example, play a central role in Douglass North's model of regional trade and economic growth (North 1955, 1961, 1966).

In the years preceding Gallatin's report, a multitude of transportation infrastructure improvements had been concluded. These included the Charles River Bridge between Cambridge and Boston in 1786; the Philadelphia to Lancaster turnpike which opened to traffic in 1792, and

generate nationally representative samples of manufacturing and added completely new samples from the 1880 census of manufacturing (Atack and Bateman 2004a, 2004b).

[2] Via public distribution through deposit with ICPSR although some data samples (where deposit with ICPSR or in some other publication is not noted above) are still in process.

[3] Similar projects are ongoing elsewhere. The most extensive is the mapping of European railways and inland waterways by HGISe (Historical GIS of Europe) at the University of Lleida (http://www.europa.udl.cat/) under the direction of Professor Jordi Marti Henneberg. Another important European GIS venture is the Historical GIS Research Network (http://www.hgis.org.uk/) set up by Ian Gregory and Paul Ell at Lancaster University which has much broader historical GIS goals than simply mapping the transportation network. See also the work by Donaldson (2010) on India.

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Atack, "On the Use," 313–314.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.4 - The Decline of Artisan Republicanism in Portland, Maine, 1825-1850

Robert H. Babcock

ARTICLE	The Decline of Artisan Republicanism in Portland, Maine, 1825-1850
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 63, no. 1 (1990)
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The Decline of Artisan Republicanism in Portland, Maine, 1825–1850

ROBERT H. BABCOCK

ON a crisp autumn day in 1841, hundreds of craftsmen paraded through the streets of Portland, Maine, in a fervent display of solidarity. Marching were housewrights, masons, plasterers, and stonecutters from the building trades, and blacksmiths, machinists, coppersmiths, brass founders, and tinplate workers from among the sons of Vulcan. Shipbuilders, joiners, caulkers, pump and block makers, mast and rope makers, riggers, and sailmakers left their waterfront workshops to join the procession. Printers, hatters, tailors, tanners, curriers, and shoemakers rounded out the ranks of Portland's sizable and self-confident artisan class. As they moved along their route, master craftsmen, journeymen, and apprentices proudly held aloft colorfully decorated silk banners, each measuring roughly 3 by 3½ feet and all emblazoned with ancient craft symbols, mottoes, and slogans, many painted by William Capen, one of the city's best-known sign makers.[1]

In 1983 seventeen banners, carefully wrapped in newspaper, were discovered in a closet of the Maine Charitable Mechanic Association, sponsor of the event.[2] Few such regalia have survived the vicissitudes of the time, but today these extraordinary relics, hanging in the association's antique,

I am indebted to my colleagues Professors Richard Judd and Jacques Ferland for their helpful comments on earlier versions of this paper.

[1] *Portland Daily Advertiser*, 9 October 1841; *Eastern Argus*, 9 October 1841.

[2] William David Barry and Earle G. Shettleworth, Jr., "Portland, Maine, Trade Banners of 1841," *Antiques* 126 (September 1984): 577–81. I am grateful to Thomas Gaffney for bringing this article to my attention.

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wood-paneled library, offer passers-by a tantalizing glimpse into the world of American artisanry and scholars an occasion to speculate on the progress of artisan republicanism in a secondary seaport.

Exhibiting a pride of craft and faith in democracy characteristic of artisan republicanism, Portland's hatters boasted on their banner, "We Crown the Sovereign People." "When History's page / no date can give / Of Empires overthrown," masons, plasterers, and stonecutters declared, "Our Country's deeds / and ours shall live / In monumental stone." The printers identified themselves to bystanders as "The Tyrant's Foe, the People's Friend." Lest anyone think that merchant capitalists had alone built Portland's prosperity, shipyard craftsmen proclaimed, "We lay the foundations of commercial enterprise." Artisans engaged in construction trades announced that their "Labour and Skill are indispensable for the advancement of civilization." The ancient symbol of a bared and upraised arm on the blacksmiths' banner was prepared to "strike while the iron is hot."

Such slogans reflected an ideology shared by masters and craftsmen in the larger American cities during the Revolution and early national period, an ideology that blended the traditional craft ideals of virtue, independence, and equality with a core of patriotic values associated with the founding of the new republic. The manner in which that ideology was publicly proclaimed had its roots in ancient craft traditions. For instance, the arm-and-hammer sign on the Portland blacksmiths' banner had been adopted by several London artisans in the fifteenth century. In medieval England, guild craftsmen displaying banners, tools, or models in public procession sought to assert their distinctiveness and value to the wider community.[3] Likewise, as Sean Wilentz has

[3]On English banners, see R. A. Leeson, *United We Stand: An Illustrated Account of Trade Union Emblems* (Bath, England: Adams & Dart, 1971), and John Gorman, *Banner Bright: An Illustrated History of the Banners of the British Trade Union Movement* (London: Allen Lane, 1973). After noting the tradition's medieval roots, Gorman dates the origin of "contemporary" English banners to the same decade of the 1840s. Of some 10,000 banners estimated to have been produced in England between 1832 and 1939, "relatively few" still survive (p. 18).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.5 - The Washington National Road Bill and the Struggle to Adopt a Federal System of Internal Improvement

Pamela L. Baker

ARTICLE	The Washington National Road Bill and the Struggle to Adopt a Federal System of Internal Improvement
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THE WASHINGTON NATIONAL ROAD BILL AND THE STRUGGLE TO ADOPT A FEDERAL SYSTEM OF INTERNAL IMPROVEMENT

Pamela L. Baker

Tocqueville: "How are roads made and repaired in America?"
Poinsett: "It's a great constitutional question . . ."

In March 1830, the House of Representatives considered a bill for the construction of a road 1,500 miles in length. When completed, this national highway would have extended from Buffalo to New Orleans through the nation's capital, and would have been one of the most ambitious transportation improvements contemplated by Congress in the nineteenth century. For nearly a month, this legislation (hereafter referred to as the Washington National Road bill) dominated the congressional agenda. Several scholars have given passing mention to this hotly contested road bill, though no one has tried to place it within the larger context of the struggle to adopt a federal system of internal improvement. Two weeks after its defeat, supporters of a federal program of roads and canals introduced compromise legislation—the Maysville Road bill. Most scholars agree that Andrew Jackson's veto of the bill was a critical blow to a federal transportation system, but this is only part of the story. The

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Pamela L. Baker is a Ph.D. candidate at the University of Illinois at Chicago and is currently working on her dissertation "The National Road and the Promise of Improvement, 1802-1841." She would like to thank especially her advisor Daniel Smith and also the editors and anonymous *JER* readers in addition to Lee Baker, Raymond Brod, George Huppert's Writing for Publication Seminar, Paul Rutgers, and a special thanks to Richard R. John.

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history of the Washington National Road bill provides a more complete picture of the struggle to achieve a federal system of internal improvement than previously demonstrated by showing that the Maysville legislation was only one of two possible paths.[1]

The story of the Washington National Road bill also provides a window into the political culture of the early national period. What were the limits of federal authority? What was the role of the central government within the states? How does the issue of federalism connect to the emerging sectional crisis and the developing party system of this period?

The United States has witnessed three periods of federal expansion: the period following the Civil War, during the New Deal, and, perhaps less well known, the period between the War of 1812 and Andrew Jackson's presidency. Following the Treaty of Ghent in 1814, Congress pursued a number of economic policies that extended federal authority: the charter of the second bank of the United States, the passage of a higher protective tariff, as well as several attempts to secure a federal transportation program. By the late 1820s, the shifting sectional coalitions and party alliances had begun to harden over issues that could have extended the federal role within the states.

Scholars recognize the centrality of the transportation issue in shaping American political culture during the first half of the nineteenth century. There is, however, disagreement about why a federal transportation system failed to materialize. At the turn of the century, Frederick Jackson Turner called attention to this issue when he blamed the failure of coherent federal action on sectional bickering. In the1960s, Carter Goodrich also dismissed constitutional arguments and stressed regional or sectional conflicts. More recently, however, scholars have emphasized that a number of factors influenced the outcome. Daniel Feller has argued that the shifting sectional coalitions over internal improvements, federal lands, and the tariff gave way, by the late 1820s, to an alliance between the Southeast and the

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[1] Wilson Pierson, *Tocqueville and Beaumont in America* (New York, 1938), 414. Over the years, contemporaries had referred to the project as The Buffalo and New Orleans Road, The Great North and South Road, The National Road, and The Mammoth Road. For discussion of the Washington National Road bill see Daniel Feller, *The Public Lands in Jacksonian Politics* (Madison, 1984), 136-37; Richard Ellis, *The Union at Risk: Jacksonian Democracy, States' Rights and the Nullification Crisis* (New York, 1987), 22; Richard R. John, *Spreading the News: The American Postal System from Franklin to Morse* (Cambridge, MA, 1995), 207-08; Charles Sellers, *The Market Revolution: Jacksonian American, 1815-1846* (New York, 1991), 316; and D. W. Meinig, *The Shaping of America: A Geographical Perspective on 500 Years of History* (1986; rep., 2 vols., New Haven, 1993), 2:339-441.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.6 - Natives and Immigrants, Free Men and Slaves: Urban Workingmen in the Antebellum American South

Ira Berlin and Herbert G. Gutman

ARTICLE	Natives and Immigrants, Free Men and Slaves: Urban Workingmen in the Antebellum American South
JOURNAL	The American Historical Review 88, no. 5 (1983)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 1175-1176
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Natives and Immigrants, Free Men and Slaves: Urban Workingmen in the Antebellum American South

IRA BERLIN
and
HERBERT G. GUTMAN

OF NECESSITY, HISTORICAL RESEARCH IS PIECEMEAL. But the growth of historical understanding is not simply an additive process. Instead, new discoveries transform older conceptions and necessitate reconsiderations at the highest interpretive level. A re-evaluation of the place of immigrant workers in antebellum Southern cities suggests how the process works, for it forces a reformulation of ideas about the entire structure of the urban work force and raises questions about the nature of Southern society, urban and rural, and the beliefs of Southerners, native and immigrant, free and slave.

FEW OF THE BULWARKS OF SOUTHERN DISTINCTIVENESS have withstood the battering ram of historiographic iconoclasm better than the overwhelmingly native origins of the Southern people. While scholars of all persuasions have challenged the unique character of the South's economy, its social structure, its politics, and its institutions, the weight of historical evidence has left this mark of Southern difference undisturbed.[1] Even a passing acquaintaince with transatlantic migratory patterns

An early version of this paper was prepared in 1975–76 while its authors were fellows at the Shelby Cullom Davis Center for Historical Study at Princeton University. They remain indebted to the center's director, Lawrence Stone, for encouragement and support. Rebecca Scott ably assisted with the initial research and analysis. Judith Rowe and Nita Roberts of the Princeton University Computer Center and Bertha Butler of the Computer Science Center at the University of Maryland guided the statistical aspects of this study. Another version of this paper was thoughtfully criticized at the 1981 Annual Meeting of the Organization of American Historians by Harold Woodman. Research grants from the Ford Foundation and the Rockefeller Foundation facilitated additional research, and we thank Robert Schrank and Joel Colton, respectively, for making this work possible. We also want to acknowledge the thoughtful criticisms offered by W. Elliot Brownlee, George Callcott, Eric Foner, Ronald Hoffman, Michael P. Johnson, Bruce C. Levine, Sidney Mintz, Joseph P. Reidy, and Leslie S. Rowland.

[1] For a recent attempt to deny the distinctive nature of Southern society, see Edward Pessen, "How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South," *AHR*, 85 (1980): 1119–49; also see the comments that follow in "*AHR Forum*—Antebellum North and South in Comparative Perspective: A Discussion," by Thomas Alexander, Stanley L. Engerman, Forrest McDonald and Grady McWhiney, and Edward Pessen, *ibid.*, 1150–66.

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affirms that few of the thousands of Europeans who journeyed to the United States in the years before the Civil War settled in the slave states. At mid-century, when fully one Northerner in seven had been born outside the United States, only 5 percent of the Southern free population was foreign born, and a disproportionate number of these resided in the border states. Ten years later, the margin had widened as European migrants surged into the North, while they continued to dribble into the South. On the eve of the Civil War, when fewer than one free Southerner in fifteen had been born outside the United States, immigrants composed nearly a fifth of the population of the free states.[2]

Historians have found this massive imbalance reason enough to ignore immigrants in antebellum Southern society and to argue that slavery repelled foreign settlers. While lavishing attention on the role of foreign-born people in the transformation of pre–Civil War Northern society, scholars have neglected their place in the development of the antebellum South. This is particularly true in accounts of the immigrants' part in the making of the urban working class. Although the portrait of antebellum class formation in the cities of the North has been constructed as a rich ethnic mosaic, in the urban South the process has been etched in black and white.

The conventional treatment of Southern urban workers leaves little room for immigrants—indeed, for white labor generally. Drawing on the antislavery argument, particularly that of political abolitionists, historians have emphasized that the presence of slave labor degraded free white workers. With William Seward, they have maintained that slavery denied the white workingman employment and expelled him "from the community because it cannot enslave and convert him into merchandise." The rules of the free market economy simply did not apply to labor in a slave society. As Charles Nordhoff, another opponent of slavery, observed, it mattered nothing to the slaveholder "how low others can produce the article; he can produce it lower still, so long as it is the best use he can make of his [slaves'] labor, and as long as that labor is worth keeping. A free white mechanic is at the mercy of his neighbor, the capitalist, in a slave state, because, if the capitalist does not like the price, he can go and buy a carpenter and sell him again when the work is done." Conceding that slaves worked at lower rates than free laborers, historians have concurred in the abolitionist argument that, "when the two are brought into competition, white labor is crowded out."[3]

[2] U.S. Bureau of the Census, *The Seventh Census of the United States, 1850* (Washington, 1853), xxxvi–xxxviii, and *Population of the United States in 1860* (Washington, 1864), 620–23. If slaves are included in the analysis, the proportion of immigrants in the Southern population shrinks (to about 3 percent in 1850, 5 percent in 1860), and the differences between the proportion of immigrants in the North and that in the South grows. For a survey of recent scholarship about immigrants in the Old South, see Randall M. Miller, "Immigrants in the Old South," *Immigration History Newsletter*, 10 (1978): 8–14. Also see the discussions in Clement Eaton, *The Growth of Southern Civilization* (New York, 1971), 150–76, 221–70; Ella Lonn, *Foreigners in the Confederacy* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 1940), 1–32; Herbert J. Weaver, "Foreigners in the Ante-Bellum Towns in the Lower South," *Journal of Southern History*, 13 (1947): 62–73, and "Foreigners in Antebellum Mississippi," *Journal of Mississippi History*, 16 (1954): 151–63; William L. Barney, *The Secessionist Impulse: Alabama and Mississippi in 1860* (Princeton, 1974), 26–43; and Edward L. Ayers, *Vengeance and Justice: Crime and Punishment in the Nineteenth Century* (New York, 1984), chap. 3.

[3] Nordhoff, *America for Free Working Men* (New York, 1865), 1–39; and David Bertelson, *The Lazy South* (New York, 1967), 201. For an important exception to this conventional wisdom, see Carville Earle and Ronald Hoffman, "The Foundation of the Modern Economy: Agriculture and the Costs of Labor in the United States and England, 1800–60," *AHR*, 85 (1980): 1055–94.

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Berlin and Gutman, "Natives and Immigrants, Free," 1175–1176.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.7 - The Woman Who Wasn't There: Women's Market Labor and the Transition to Capitalism in the United States

Jeanne Boydston

ARTICLE	The Woman Who Wasn't There: Women's Market Labor and the Transition to Capitalism in the United States
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 16, no. 2 (1996)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 183-184
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THE WOMAN WHO WASN'T THERE: WOMEN'S MARKET LABOR AND THE TRANSITION TO CAPITALISM IN THE UNITED STATES

Jeanne Boydston

Female wage-earners occupy an anomalous position in the story of the transition to capitalism in the United States. On the one hand, historians have documented the presence of large numbers of women in paid labor by the 1830s, specifically in key sectors of the new northeastern industrial labor force: textiles, shoe-making, and the early garment industry.[1] On the other hand, women and their paid work are virtually absent from narratives of the late eighteenth-century economic transformations that preceded and laid the foundations for early industrialization. That transition—from ''market-places'' to

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Jeanne Boydston, Associate Professor of History at the University of Wisconsin-Madison, is the author of *Home and Work: Housework, Wages, and the Ideology of Labor in the Early Republic*. She is currently working on gender, labor, and political culture in the early republic.

[1] See, for example, Thomas Dublin, *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826-1860* (New York, 1979); Joan M. Jensen, ''Cloth, Butter and Boarders: Women's Household Production for the Market,'' *The Review of Radical Political Economy*, 12 (Summer 1980), 14-24; Jensen, ''Butter Making and Economic Development in Mid-Atlantic America from 1750 to 1850,'' *Signs*, 13 (Summer 1988), 813-29; Jensen, *Loosening the Bonds: Mid-Atlantic Farm Women, 1750-1850* (New Haven, 1986); Alice Kessler-Harris, *Out to Work: A History of Wage-Earning Women in the United States* (New York, 1982); Christine Stansell, *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789-1860* (New York, 1986); Mary H. Blewett, *Men, Women, and Work: Class, Gender, and Protest in the New England Shoe Industry, 1780-1910* (Urbana, 1988); and Thomas Dublin, *Transforming Women's Work: New England Lives in the Industrial Revolution* (Ithaca, 1994).

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a ''market economy,'' as Winifred Barr Rothenberg has framed it[2]—is represented as a story of the labor and economic decisions of men: male farmers reorienting their crops, male field workers entering into new labor contracts, male merchants venturing into new relations of credit and debt, and male artisans struggling against the demise of the craft shop. Only relatively late in the process, with the coming of the mills themselves, do women's market activities figure in any important way in accounts of the transition to capitalism.[3]

The absence of women and of women's market relations from this story reflects the ways in which we have approached both the history of women in the eighteenth century and the history of the market transition. Although the field of American women's history began with the question of the transition to capitalism, studies of the late eighteenth century (influenced by Mary Beth Norton's and Linda Kerber's fine early work on ''Republican motherhood'') remain preoccupied with prescription and ideology.[4] This accent has been

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[2] Winifred Barr Rothenberg, *From Market-Places to a Market Economy: The Transformation of Rural Massachusetts, 1750-1850* (Chicago, 1992).

[3] Women are of course treated in studies of the Lowell mills; see Dublin, *Women at Work*. With the exception of Mary Blewett's work, however, they have not be treated extensively in studies of New England shoemaking in the transition; see Blewett, *Men, Women, and Work*. They are almost entirely absent from general works on the transition. For full citations on the literature of the transition to capitalism see note 4 in Paul A. Gilje, ''The Rise of Capitalism,'' in this volume. Although women appear in economic history during the early years of the factory system, they disappear again once the factory system was established, and men had made their peace with wage labor, males poured into the jobs previously held by women. Having acted their brief hour upon the economic stage, female wage-earners then were heard no more for half a century.

[4] See, for example, Linda K. Kerber, *Women of the Republic: Intellect and Ideology in Revolutionary America* (Chapel Hill, 1980); and Mary Beth Norton, *Liberty's Daughters: The Revolutionary Experience of American Women, 1750-1800* (Boston, 1980). For a critique of the paradigm of ''republican motherhood,'' see Margaret A. Nash, ''Rethinking Republican Motherhood: Benjamin Rush and the Young Ladies' Academy of Philadelphia,'' *Journal of the Early Republic* (forthcoming). The field of United States women's history originated in questions about the transition to capitalism. Indeed, so prominently did the transition to capitalism figure in the first decade of work that women's historians were soon debating their own tendency to romanticize life before capitalism, the so-called ''golden age'' controversy. As they reopened questions of household production, early factory work, and the changing relation of women to property, meanwhile, women's historians helped to revitalize interest in the transition to capitalism among American historians generally. From the beginning, however, this work was primarily focused, not on questions of labor or the economy, but

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.8 - Markets and Composite Farms in Early America

Richard Lyman Bushman

ARTICLE	Markets and Composite Farms in Early America
JOURNAL	The William and Mary Quarterly 55, no. 3 (1998)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 351-352
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Markets and Composite Farms in Early America

Richard Lyman Bushman

THE market revolution, the interpretive construct that figures so prominently in current historiography of the nineteenth-century, may be distorting our understanding of eighteenth century farm life. The idea of a market revolution requires a "before" to contrast with an "after," and the eighteenth-century "before" of the market revolution clashes with important aspects of colonial farming. On the opening page of a recent collection of essays on the subject, a single sentence sums up what the revolution supposedly wrought. In early nineteenth-century America, the editors say, "a largely subsistence economy of small farms and tiny workshops, satisfying mostly local needs through barter and exchange, gave place to an economy in which farmers and manufacturers produced food and goods for the cash rewards of an often distant marketplace."[1] That statement conceives of colonial farmers producing mainly for themselves, bartering with neighbors to augment their own production, and trading tiny surpluses for store goods. The proponents of a market revolution associate these household producers with the *longue durée* of traditional agriculture and the older moral economy that preceded modernization. Self-contained and entrenched, this eighteenth-century rural economy resisted the invasion of market forces that threatened local production systems.[2]

This picture of eighteenth-century farming is at best only partially true. Beyond doubt many farmers did produce largely for themselves and relied on

Richard Bushman is Gouverneur Morris Professor of History at Columbia University. He wishes to thank Alan Taylor, Claudia Bushman, William Shade, Richard Brown, Edwin Perkins, James Henretta, and Winifred Rothenberg for their criticism and help.

[1] Melvyn Stokes and Stephen Conway, eds., *The Market Revolution in America: Social, Political, and Religious Expressions, 1800–1880* (Charlottesville, 1996), 1.

[2] The synthetic study of 19th-century social and political change is Charles G. Sellers, *The Market Revolution: Jacksonian America, 1815–1846* (New York, 1991). For a recent statement of the conventional view see Daniel P. Jones, *The Economic and Social Transformation of Rural Rhode Island, 1780–1850* (Boston, 1992). For examples of the notion of resistance to the market see David P. Szatmary, *Shays' Rebellion: The Making of an Agrarian Insurrection* (Amherst, Mass., 1980), 16–17, and Paul Boyer and Stephen Nissenbaum, *Salem Possessed: The Social Origins of Witchcraft* (Cambridge, Mass., 1974), 86–109. The standard historiographical essay on 18th-century agriculture is Allan Kulikoff, "The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 3d Ser., 46 (1989), 120–44. Two highly influential essays are Michael Merrill, "Cash is Good to Eat: Self-Sufficiency and Exchange in the Rural Economy of the United States," *Radical History Review,* No. 3 (1977), 42–71, and James A. Henretta, "Families and Farms: *Mentalité* in Pre-Industrial America," *WMQ,* 3d Ser., 35 (1978), 3–32.

William and Mary Quarterly, 3d Series, Volume LV, Number 3, July 1998

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barter to augment the deficiencies in their household production. They did refer to products sent to market as a surplus, implying that they aimed to feed their families first. Still, other farmers, large and small, grew crops for town consumption and the Atlantic trade. They benefited from extensive marketing systems radiating from the port towns and from Britain. They purchased labor at considerable expense to enlarge production. Many—not just an insignificant minority—prospered. Colonial market farmers figured in their societies as prominently as nineteenth-century cotton planters figured in the South. Eighteenth-century commercial farming cannot be dismissed as incidental while household producers are considered typical.[3] Yet the idea of a market revolution leaves market farmers out of the picture. To claim that the market revolution transformed American society as a whole implies that commercial agriculture amounted to little before the early nineteenth century. How are we to reconcile the reality of colonial market farming with the idea of a market revolution?

The concept of a market revolution hinges on the division of farms into two types, once termed "subsistence" and "commercial" and now more commonly called "household producers" and "market producers." As well as representing individual farms, the types stand for periods, one dominant before the market revolution and the other after. The division goes back to the first serious agricultural histories of the early twentieth century and Percy Wells Bidwell's "Rural Economy in New England at the Beginning of the Nineteenth Century." In Bidwell's narrative, farmers cast off their retrograde habits in the early nineteenth century and entered the modern world. Bidwell's work came out of the agricultural college tradition and the ethos of the United States Department of Agriculture, whose social scientists idealized efficient production for the market and the advanced farmers who maximized production and profits. Under the influence of Frederick Jackson Turner's stages of civilization, Bidwell and John I. Falconer, his co-worker in writing the *History of Agriculture in the Northern United States,* believed that as one journeyed away from urban centers and the orbit of the market, the quality of agriculture declined. Frontier subsistence farmers mercilessly depleted the soil to reap the greatest fruits with minimum effort, while commercial farmers adopted the best fertilizing techniques in the interest of profit. "Farming appeared at its worst on the frontier, where the scarcity of labor and capital favored predatory methods, and at its best in the neighborhood of the commercial towns, where ready markets stimulated intensive use

[3] For a comprehensive statement on commercial agriculture in the colonies see Jack P. Greene, *Pursuits of Happiness: The Social Development of Early Modern British Colonies and the Formation of American Culture* (Chapel Hill, 1988). For a similar discussion and an attempt to distinguish colonial marketing from market society see Stephen Innes, ed., *Work and Labor in Early America* (Chapel Hill, 1988), 34–39, and Fred Block and Margaret R. Somers, "Beyond the Economistic Fallacy: The Holistic Social Science of Karl Polanyi," in Theda Skocpol, ed., *Vision and Method in Historical Sociology* (Cambridge, 1984), 47–84. Edwin J. Perkins, "The Entrepreneurial Spirit in Colonial America: The Foundations of Modern Business History," *Business History Review,* 43 (Spring 1989), 160–86, makes the case for an entrepreneurial attitude in most segments of the colonial economy.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.9 - The Limits of Reform: Labor and Discipline on the Erie Canal

Roger E. Carp

ARTICLE	The Limits of Reform: Labor and Discipline on the Erie Canal
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 10, no. 2 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 191-192
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THE LIMITS OF REFORM: LABOR AND DISCIPLINE ON THE ERIE CANAL

Roger E. Carp

Significant increases in consumption and productivity, changes that involved both technology and culture, underlay the market revolution that occurred in the northern United States after 1815. Consumption increased as expanding transportation networks enabled more people to exchange goods and services in larger markets. Productivity rose as entrepreneurs invested in machinery and experimented with new techniques and as skilled laborers abandoned less efficient ways and adopted methods allowing them to make more in less time and at lower costs. On a personal level, the expansion of trade promised rewards for those who would work hard and accept some degree of change while living frugally and saving rather than spending on frivolities. As a liberal individualistic ethos took hold, people recognized that commercial and industrial development required modifications in human behavior as well as the adoption of innovations in transportation, farming, and manufacturing.[1]

Although greater security and higher status ought to have inspired individuals to change their habits of working and spending, nineteenth-century Americans recognized that not everyone was capable of enhancing his best interests in the marketplace. Responses to what was as much a social problem as an economic one came from two key groups whose membership occasionally overlapped. First,

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Mr. Carp received his Ph.D. degree from the University of North Carolina at Chapel Hill, where he worked with John F. Kasson. He has taught at the University of Wisconsin at Milwaukee. Mr. Carp wishes to thank Gail Fowler Mohanty and Ronald E. Shaw for their criticism and assistance.

[1] William L. Barney, *The Passage of the Republic: An Interdisciplinary History of Nineteenth-Century America* (Lexington, Mass. 1987), 31-45; W. Elliot Brownlee, *Dynamics of Ascent: A History of the American Economy* (2d ed., New York 1979), 123-128, 150-158, 193-204; Stanley Lebergott, *The Americans: An Economic Record* (New York 1984), 59-72, 124-136, 162-176; Thomas C. Cochran, *Frontiers of Change: Early Industrialism in America* (New York 1981), 3-16, 38-65.

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manufacturers sought to enforce discipline and curb unproductive tendencies on the part of their employees in hopes of raising output. They used rewards and penalties to coerce factory hands into internalizing values of diligence, sobriety, and punctuality, in the belief that ''industrial morality'' would benefit themselves and their employees. Second, religious and civic-minded reformers tried to uplift individuals not involved in labor and trade, such as the physically and mentally handicapped, widows and orphans, and criminals. Campaigns led by Protestant clergymen and lay people aimed to teach the less fortunate the importance of honesty, thrift, industry, and obedience to authority. Although distinctions between entrepreneurs and reformers might blur in the 1830s and 1840s, together they were promoting a ''middle-class mentality'' emphasizing personal independence and advancement.[2]

Historians have investigated efforts to influence the beliefs and conduct of laborers, immigrants, the poor, and the uneducated. Several have looked at mill villages and seaports in New England and the mid-Atlantic region to learn how businessmen altered routines in response to heightened competition and rising demands of customers. The exercise of greater authority by capitalists has been associated with America's industrial revolution and contrasted with the irregular work habits and more relaxed pace that characterized craft production and ''pre-industrial'' workshops.[3] Other historians have

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[2] Barney, *The Passage of the Republic*, 76-82, 87-113; Robert H. Wiebe, *The Opening of American Society: From the Adoption of the Constitution to the Eve of Disunion* (New York 1984), 143-167, 255-290; Paul Boyer, *Urban Masses and Moral Order in America, 1820-1920* (Cambridge, Mass. 1978), 6-21, 54-64; Stuart M. Blumin, ''The Hypothesis of Middle-Class Formation in Nineteenth-Century America: A Critique and Some Proposals,'' *American Historical Review*, 90 (April 1985), 312-318, 330-334. Two examples of businessmen whose motives defy simple categorization are the factory owners striving to make profits while caring for their young female charges at Lowell, Massachusetts, and the mill owners in Rochester, New York, whose relations with their hands were influenced as much by business acumen as evangelical fervor. In these two communities as elsewhere, self-interest and concern for the souls of their employees mixed and competed for the attention of entrepreneurs. For Lowell see Thomas Dublin, *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826-1860* (New York 1979); for Rochester see Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (New York 1978).

[3] Among the most valuable of recent labor studies are Paul G. Faler, *Mechanics and Manufacturers in the Early Industrial Revolution: Lynn, Massachusetts, 1780-1860* (Albany, N.Y. 1981); Susan E. Hirsch, *Roots of the American Working Class: The Industrialization of Crafts in Newark, 1800-1860* (Philadelphia 1978); Bruce Laurie,

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.10 - Native Americans, the Market Revolution, and Culture Change: The Choctaw Cattle Economy, 1690-1830

James Taylor Carson

ARTICLE	Native Americans, the Market Revolution, and Culture Change: The Choctaw Cattle Economy, 1690-1830
JOURNAL	Agricultural History 71, no. 1 (1997)
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Native Americans, the Market Revolution, and Culture Change:

The Choctaw Cattle Economy, 1690–1830

JAMES TAYLOR CARSON

The market revolution has emerged as an important interpretive paradigm for the study of cultural, economic, and social change among societies around the world. However, Charles Sellers, the preeminent historian of the American market revolution, excluded Native Americans from his study.[1] The early nineteenth-century cattle economy of the Choctaw Indi-

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1. Charles Grier Sellers, *The Market Revolution: Jacksonian America, 1815–1846* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1991). The Indians in Sellers' study vanish from the scene before the market economy emerges. Among other studies of the market's impact, Nancy Cott's *The Bonds of Womanhood: "Woman's Sphere" in New England, 1780–1835* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1977) was the first to argue that women's "separate spheres" and a "cult of domesticity" emerged to segregate women from the market revolution in New England. In contrast to Cott, Catherine Clinton's *The Plantation Mistress: Women's World in the Old South* (New York: Pantheon Books, 1982) argues that southern women did not necessarily experience the same changes that had occurred in the North. Nancy Hewitt's *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822–1872* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984) has broadened further the debate in American historiography on the market economy's impact on gender by examining women from different social classes and their responses to social and economic change.

Anthropologists Henrietta L. Moore, *Space, Text, and Gender: An Anthropological Study of the Marakwet of Kenya* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1986); and Regina Smith Oboler, *Women, Power, and Economic Change: The Nandi of Kenya* (Stanford: Stanford University Press, 1985) have argued that in Kenya the patriarchal structure of the Marakwet and Nandi peoples structured their responses to colonialism and the market revolution in ways that perpetuated men's dominance and weakened the position of women. Their work and that of Cott, Clinton, and Hewitt suggest that far from exerting a uniform influence, the market revolution caused disparate, culturally conditioned changes in economic production and gender segmentation.

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ans offers a striking example of how Native Americans responded to the revolution. Generally speaking, students of the cattle economy of the Old Southwest have either overlooked the involvement of Native Americans, or, as Richard White and Daniel Usner have done, considered it solely as an economic innovation without examining its cultural ramifications. Contrary to Sellers' argument that land was the most conservative force opposed to the American market revolution, culture proved to be an even more conservative force because it structured the Choctaws' adaptation to and participation within the market economy. Men adapted by incorporating cattle herding into their warfare and hunting traditions, and women exploited cattle and expanded their economic roles too without transgressing the cultural conventions that had patterned their lives well before the first cattle ambled into the Lower Mississippi Valley.[2]

Cattle and the cattle trade first became important in the Lower Mississippi Valley when the French settled the region at the end of the seventeenth century. Tribes like the Houmas, Tunicas, Chitimachas, Pascagoulas, Natchez, Avoyelles, and Attakapas valued European trade goods, and they incorporated the French into what historian Daniel Usner has termed a

2. Lewis Cecil Gray, *History of Agriculture in the Southeastern United States to 1860*, 2 vols. (Washington, D.C.: Carnegie Institution of Washington, 1933); Jack D. L. Holmes, "Joseph Piernas and the Nascent Cattle Industry of Southwest Louisiana," *McNeese Review* 17 (1966): 13–26; Jack D. L. Holmes, "Livestock in Spanish Natchez," *Journal of Mississippi History* 23 (October 1961): 15–37; John Hebron Moore, *Agriculture in Antebellum Mississippi* (New York: Octagon Books, 1971); John Hebron Moore, *The Emergence of the Cotton Kingdom in the Old Southwest: Mississippi 1770–1860* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1988); Kenneth D. Israel, "A Geographical Analysis of the Cattle Industry in Southeastern Mississippi from its Beginnings to 1860" (Ph.D. diss., University of Southern Mississippi, 1970); John D. W. Guice, "Cattle Raisers of the Old Southwest: A Reinterpretation," *Western Historical Quarterly* 8 (April 1977): 167–87; Terry Jordan, "The Origins of Anglo-American Cattle Ranching in Texas: A Documentation of Diffusion from the Lower South," *Economic Geography* 45 (January 1969): 63–87; Terry Jordan, *North American Cattle-Ranching Frontiers: Origins, Diffusion, and Differentiation* (Albuquerque: University of New Mexico Press, 1993); Lauren C. Post, "The Old Cattle Industry of Southwest Louisiana," *McNeese Review* 9 (1957): 43–55; Richard White, *The Roots of Dependency: Subsistence, Environment, and Social Change among the Choctaws, Pawnees, and Navajos* (Lincoln: University of Nebraska Press, 1983).

See also Michael F. Doran, "Antebellum Cattle Herding in the Indian Territory," *Geographical Review* 66 (January 1976): 48–58, for a discussion of cattle raising among the Choctaws in Indian territory; and Louise Spindler, *Culture Change and Modernization* (New York: Holt, Rinehart and Winston, 1977) for an overview of cultural change and adaptation.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.11 - Household Economy, Market Exchange and the Rise of Capitalism in the Connecticut Valley, 1800-1860

Christopher Clark

ARTICLE	Household Economy, Market Exchange and the Rise of Capitalism in the Connecticut Valley, 1800-1860
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HOUSEHOLD ECONOMY, MARKET EXCHANGE AND THE RISE OF CAPITALISM IN THE CONNECTICUT VALLEY, 1800-1860.

The rise of capitalism in the rural North involved two distinct but interrelated economic and social transformations. There was, on the one hand, a shift from local self-sufficiency in food and clothing toward increased dependence on outside markets for the sale and purchase of produce. On the other, control of manufacturing activity was removed from independent household producers into the hands of entrepreneurs, and the process begun of concentrating industry in workshops and factories. Each of these changes took a long time to complete, but, at least in the settled regions of the Northeast, the six decades from 1800 to the start of the Civil War witnessed the crucial phase of the process. It was then that the magnitude of the transformation became apparent, and then that contemporaries began to speculate on its effects — to talk, as Horace Bushnell did in 1851, of the "complete revolution of domestic life and manners" that was under way.[1]

When we seek the explanation for these changes, however, we are faced with a curious problem in the historical literature. While the economic history of ante-bellum New England has been adequately described, and while we now know a great deal about colonial society, there has up to now been relatively little written on the complex social processes involved in the development of early 19th century capitalism, particularly insofar as these affected the countryside. This is not to say that there is lack of explanations as to how the transformation came about. The most common of these integrates interpretations both of late colonial history and of early national economic development. It posits the existence of a predominantly profit-oriented rural culture in the 18th century, rooted in independent landholding and a significant degree of production for market, and based on individualistic values engendered particularly by the Great Awakening. While the level of economic development and available technology remained low, the entrepreneurial character of the rural population was not fully realized, but with the upheavals of the Revolutionary period, the growth of international and domestic trade in the ensuing fifty years, and in particular with the transportation revolution of the first half of the 19th century, the potential for capitalist enterprise was at last released, and the changes that we have noted given full force.[2] Recently, however, there has been an upsurge of work that in various ways criticizes this view. Two recent articles in particular, viewing rural society in its own terms rather than in those of the capitalist society that later grew out of it, and drawing on the agricultural histories of Bidwell, Shumacher and Danhof, have highlighted the need for a reinterpretation of early 19th century social history. Michael Merrill, describing the household mode of production in the late colonial period, has argued that

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most rural output was for family or local consumption, that involvement in the market was usually limited, but that a complex network of exchange relations existed within each rural community. Production was geared not to profit but to needs. This in turn generated a rural culture as much concerned with co-operation as with individual advancement and therefore less ripe for entrepreneurial development than the earlier interpretation had suggested. James Henretta, expanding the critique of the significance of the profit motive, has further argued that the single most important feature of rural culture was the strength of family values — the desire to transmit accumulated property and beliefs from one generation to another and the conservation of family interests. Moreover, this set of values remained significant far into the 19th century.[3]

The merit of Merrill's and Henretta's arguments lies in part in their ability to explain many of the features of rural life and culture in the 18th and early 19th centuries, but also in the fact that they accord due weight to the role of forces *within* local society in bringing about economic and social change. Theirs is a more convincing picture than that of latent entrepreneurship simply waiting for the "rise of the national market" and the "transportation revolution" to link it up with the outside world. They have not assumed the inevitability of the changes which were brought about, but have presented them as a product of conscious action, of struggle and uncertainty. But a major problem remains — if local society was not profit-oriented at first, and if the household and family interests were at the core of economic existence, then how did the rise of capitalist production come about? What processes *did* produce the result? This essays seeks to suggest an answer to this problem by examining the role of household production and family interests in the transformation of a particular region — the Connecticut Valley section of Hampshire County in Massachusetts, an area containing Northampton, the county seat, and the towns surrounding it.[4]

I

The extension of market relations was already under way in the Connecticut Valley by 1800, but it was more rapid after that date than at any time before. The improvement of existing roads, the building of turnpikes and the introduction of stage routes had begun in the last decade of the 18th century, together with the improvement of the Connecticut River by the building of canals at South Hadley and at Turner's Falls. During the 19th century the construction of the New Haven - Northampton canal and the building of the first railroads in the 1840s and 1850s would complete a revolution in the region's communications with outside markets. But changes were occurring within the region also. From the 1780s onwards a small number of local individuals began to peddle surplus produce and other goods to neighboring communities and as time went on there were an increasing number of references to itinerant traders in the area.[5] But beyond this, long-term changes were beginning which would set both agriculture and manufacturing in the region on a market-oriented basis to an extent that they had never been before.

Although it had long been known as an exporter of wheat, beef and timber products, by 1800 the proportion of the Valley's total agricultural output that was shipped elsewhere was still small. Indeed, Clarence Danhof has suggested

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.12 - Rural America and the Transition to Capitalism

Christopher Clark

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RURAL AMERICA AND THE TRANSITION TO CAPITALISM

Christopher Clark

It is no accident that studies of rural history have been central to the recent debate over the emergence of commercial, industrial, and agrarian capitalism in America from the seventeenth to the nineteenth centuries. For one thing, rural people made up a majority of the population throughout the period, and until the 1880s agriculture employed a majority of the U.S. workforce. Through the Civil War, too, agricultural goods provided both a preponderance of U.S. export earnings and the raw materials for the largest American industries. Historians have long recognized these facts, but a set of conceptual changes over the last two decades has led to a reevaluation of the rural contribution to American history. On one hand there has been a recognition that economic activities were profoundly influenced by social and cultural factors; on the other, the view that rural societies were not simply passive victims of change imposed from outside but could have a significant influence on the patterns of change themselves. Processes such as industrialization and urbanization did not just spread from towns into the countryside but also found their roots there, in the variety of rural societies that early America produced.[1]

Christopher Clark is the author of *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780-1860* (1990) and *The Communitarian Moment: The Radical Challenge of the Northampton Association* (1995), both published by Cornell University Press. He teaches history at the University of York, England.

[1] On recent debates in rural history, see Allan Kulikoff, ''The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America,'' *William and Mary Quarterly*, 46 (Jan. 1989), 120-44; Kulikoff, ''Households and Markets: Towards a New Synthesis of American Agrarian History,'' *William and Mary Quarterly*, 50 (Apr. 1993), 342-55; Christopher Clark, ''Economics and Culture: Opening Up the Rural History of the Early American Northeast,'' *American Quarterly*, 43 (June 1991), 279-301; Michael Merrill, ''Putting 'Capitalism' in its Place: A Review of Recent Literature,'' *William and Mary Quarterly,* 52 (Apr. 1995), 315-26; Charles Post, ''The Agrarian Origins of U.S. Capital-

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I have argued elsewhere that capitalism is defined, not by the existence of any one set of practices or institutions, but by the accretion over time of a whole range of them. These may briefly be summarized under three headings: first, what Max Weber called the ''spirit'' of capitalism, including the aspiration to accumulate and use material goods for investment in future activities for profit, and the institution of rational means for calculating to that end; second, a prominent role for markets in regulating major economic activity, especially the exchange of goods; and third, the emergence of ''free'' wage labor based on the creation of markets in labor power. An evolved capitalist economy may be said to be one in which all three of these aspects coincide and in which the pursuit of profit and the use of markets and wage labor characterize most economic relationships most of the time. Historians continue to debate when the U.S. economy acquired these characteristics, but there is increasing acceptance that they did not together become dominant until the nineteenth century. In what follows I shall identify aspects of American rural society that were critical to their emergence.[2]

The connections between rural societies and the evolution of commercial and industrial capitalism were not straightforward. Early America had clear capitalist roots in the trading companies of early modern Europe and the growing Atlantic commercial world. But the actual processes of settlement introduced pressures that placed rural Americans in ambiguous relationships with that world. The conquest and occupation of Native American territory and the consequent high land-to-labor ratio confronting white settlers drew many of them, with their practices and aspirations, away from the commercial milieu and towards the hope of more independent livelihoods of their own. Though only a minority were completely disconnected from the need to calculate, accumulate, and participate to some degree in market

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ism: The Transformation of the Northern Countryside Before the Civil War,'' *Journal of Peasant Studies*, 22 (1995), 389-445. For full citations on the literature of the transition to capitalism see note 4 in Paul A. Gilje, ''The Rise of Capitalism,'' in this volume.

[2] Christopher Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts, 1780-1860* (Ithaca, 1990), 15; see also Merrill, ''Putting 'Capitalism' in its Place.'' On the emergence of wage labor, see Robert J. Steinfeld, *The Invention of Free Labor: The Employment Relation in English and American Law and Culture, 1350-1870* (Chapel Hill, 1991).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.13 - Passing the Torch: Boston Firemen, 'Tea Party' Patriots, and the Burning of the Charlestown Convent

Daniel A. Cohen

ARTICLE	Passing the Torch: Boston Firemen, 'Tea Party' Patriots, and the Burning of the Charlestown Convent
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Passing the Torch

Boston Firemen, "Tea Party" Patriots, and the Burning of the Charlestown Convent

DANIEL A. COHEN

A small boy came to light a torch,
the boy could nt [*sic*] reach
& Mr Roulstone said here little boy,
I'll light it for you, & did, & the boy took it away.[1]
—Testimony of John P. Clark, Clerk of the Melvill Fire Association

Daniel A. Cohen is an associate professor of history at Case Western Reserve University. His publications include *Pillars of Salt, Monuments of Grace: New England Crime Literature and the Origins of American Popular Culture, 1674–1860* and *"The Female Marine" and Related Works: Narratives of Cross-Dressing and Urban Vice in America's Early Republic*. He is currently working on a book about the destruction of the Charlestown convent. Earlier versions of this essay were presented at the Annual Meeting of the American Studies Association (ASA), Hartford, CT, October 17, 2003, and at the Annual Meeting of the Organization of American Historians (OAH), Boston, MA, March 26, 2004. The author is grateful to the American Antiquarian Society, the Center for the Humanities at Wesleyan University, Florida International University, the John Simon Guggenheim Memorial Foundation, the National Endowment for the Humanities, and the Massachusetts Historical Society for their past support of this project, to the Boston Public Library/Rare Books Department, the City of Boston Archives & Records Management Division, and the Proprietors of the Social Law Library for permission to quote from unpublished materials in their collections, and to the Bostonian Society/Old State House for providing several of the illustrations for this article. He is particularly indebted to Rainey Tisdale of the Bostonian Society for her skill and tenacity in tracking down elusive artifacts. Professor Cohen would also like to thank Elizabeth Bussiere, Morris L. Cohen, Amy S. Greenberg, John Lauritz Larson, Michael A. Morrison, and all of the participants in the ASA and OAH sessions for their advice, criticism, and encouragement.

1. *Commonwealth* v. *Prescott P. Pond, Marvin Marcy Jr., Isaac Parker, Alvah Kelley*, Minutes of the Massachusetts Supreme Judicial Court (SJC), Middlesex

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On the afternoon of June 21, 1832, the men of Boston Engine Company No. 13, previously known as the "Rapid Fire Association," gathered proudly at their station house on Leverett Street, in the northwestern section of the city. That day they would finally receive a new, modern suction engine to replace their old apparatus. In anticipation, the firemen had made other changes as well: they adopted a new constitution, took a new motto ("The Enemy We Conquer"), named their new engine the *Melvill*, and renamed themselves the "Melvill Fire Association." Those last two changes were made in honor of Major Thomas Melvill, longtime firefighter, veteran of the American Revolution, and, as of 1832, one of the last surviving participants in the Boston Tea Party. Melvill, who still wore eighteenth-century fashions into the 1830s, was widely known as "the last of the cocked hats" and had been condescendingly sketched as a tottering relic of the revolutionary era in one of Oliver Wendell Holmes's most popular poems. The tribute now paid him by the firemen of No. 13 was, no doubt, much more to Melvill's liking.[2]

After assembling at their engine house, the members of the company marched together to Melvill's home, where they formed a circle outside his door. There the company's young treasurer, George S. F. Roulstone (a comb dealer by trade), addressed the old warrior. "As a just tribute of proper respect to an aged veteran in the fire of battle" and "as children of your patriotism in older time," Roulstone proclaimed, the men of No. 13 would be proud to present him with their new engine: the *Melvill*. That evening, the members of No. 13 escorted Melvill and several other honored guests, including Boston's chief engineer, Thomas Amory, back

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County, Dec. 1834 Term, Lemuel Shaw Papers (25 vols., Boston, 1970), XI: 261, microfilm reel 36, Massachusetts Historical Society, Boston [the originals of these SJC Minutes are part of the Lemuel Shaw Collection at the Social Law Library, Boston, and are quoted throughout this essay courtesy of the Social Law Library].

2. Record Book, Boston Engine Company Number 13, May 2, 1832–June 21, 1832, unpaginated, Boston Public Library/Rare Books Department; quoted throughout this essay courtesy of the Boston Public Library/Rare Books Department. On Thomas Melvill and Holmes's poem about him, see Richard A. Harrison, *Princetonians: A Biographical Dictionary* (3 vols., Princeton, NJ, 1976–1981), II: 32–36; Merton M. Sealts, Jr., *The Early Lives of Melville: Nineteenth-Century Biographical Sketches and Their Authors* (Madison, WI, 1974), 91–92, 103, 122, 155, 226 note 5, 247 notes 24–25; Walter K. Watkins, "The Melvill House in Green Street," *Proceedings of the Bostonian Society* (1917), 26–37. The novelist Herman Melville was Thomas Melvill's grandson.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.14 - 'Oh Dear! How the Factory Girls Do Rig Up!': Lowell's Self-Fashioning Workingwomen

Sylvia Jenkins Cook

ARTICLE	'Oh Dear! How the Factory Girls Do Rig Up!': Lowell's Self-Fashioning Workingwomen
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"Oh Dear! How the Factory Girls Do Rig Up!": Lowell's Self-Fashioning Workingwomen

SYLVIA JENKINS COOK

> What expansion of mind!—what awakening of dormant powers! Wellington was not prouder, when he gained the field of Waterloo, than I was with that gown.
>
> —*Lowell Offering*, 1845

IN 1846, the militant newspaper the *Voice of Industry* accused New England mill recruiters of luring young women with promises that they would "dress in silks and spend half their time in reading."[1] During the previous two centuries, fashionable dress and literary pursuits, compelling metonyms of desire, had been central to wide-ranging debates about the changing aspirations of the elite and, later, middle-class women of both Europe and North America. Now, the intrusion of working-class women dramatically altered those earlier controversies about female development and identity. If an affluent woman had come to define herself "by what she read . . . at least as much as by how she dressed, what she ate, or how she furnished her house,"[2] what was wholly new in the 1840s was that factory workers—women who lived in crowded boardinghouses, labored long hours over dangerous and deafening machines, and paid for their new acquisitions

[1] Editorial, "Recruitment of Female Operatives," *Voice of Industry*, 2 January 1846.

[2] Mary Ellen Lamb, "Inventing the Early Modern Woman Reader through the World of Goods: Lyly's Gentlewoman Reader and Katherine Stubbes," in *Reading Women: Literacy, Authorship, and Culture in the Atlantic World, 1500–1800*, ed. Heidi Brayman Hackel and Catherine E. Kelly (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2008), p. 17.

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and accomplishments with their own hard-earned wages—were articulating those same enthusiasms for the adornments of body and mind.[3] Not only were they reading books, wearing gold watches, and purchasing sweetmeats, they were also beginning to write and publish their own literary magazine, the *Lowell Offering* (1840–45), soon to be skillfully shaped by editor Harriet Farley. Emboldened by their newfound capacity to signify, workingwomen examined—but did not necessarily emulate—middle-class forms of conduct and self-expression. In the process, they created a body of literature about their own lives that proposed—sometimes playfully, sometimes very seriously—that they, and not the ladies, were the real heralds of the modern American woman.

Dress has been eloquently described as "the frontier between the self and the not-self," a phrase equally applicable to works of the literary imagination, which are similarly situated at the boundary between the solitary individual and the encompassing world, between the mind and its material embodiment.[4]

[3]Contemporaries frequently commented on female factory workers' penchant for fashionable dress, as have modern researchers. See *Catharine Williams, Fall River: An Authentic Narrative* (1833), ed. Patricia Caldwell (New York: Oxford University Press, 1993), pp. 68–69; Charles Dickens, *American Notes* (1842; New York: Modern Library, 1996), pp. 86–87; Henry Adolphus Miles, *Lowell, As It Was, and As It Is* (1846; New York: Arno Press, 1972), p. 125; William Scoresby, *American Factories and Their Female Operatives* (1845; New York: Burt Franklin, 1968), pp. 16, 28, 62; Stephen A. Mrozowski, Grace H. Ziesing, and Mary C. Beaudry, eds., *Living on the Boott: Historical Archeology at the Boott Mills Boardinghouses, Lowell, Massachusetts* (Amherst: University of Massachusetts Press, 1996), pp. 75–80; and Joan Severa, *Dressed for the Photographer: Ordinary Americans and Fashion, 1840–1900* (Kent: Kent State University Press, 1995), pp. 4–6. The female factory workers of Lowell and other New England towns have been scrutinized by scholars of nineteenth-century romanticism, class, gender, and literacy. On workers' dress, see esp. Elizabeth Freeman, "'What Factory Girls Had Power to Do': The Techno-logic of Working-Class Feminine Publicity in *The Lowell Offering*," *Arizona Quarterly* 50.2 (Spring 1994): 113, and Tom Allen, "Melville's 'Factory Girls': Feminizing the Future," *Studies in American Fiction* 31.1 (Spring 2003): 50. For an important historical study of the intersection of fashion, fiction, and factory workers later in the nineteenth century, see Nan Enstad, *Ladies of Labor, Girls of Adventure: Working Women, Popular Culture, and Labor Politics at the Turn of the Twentieth Century* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1999).

[4]Elizabeth Wilson, *Adorned in Dreams: Fashion and Modernity* (London: Virago Press, 1985), p. 3.

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Cook, "'Oh Dear!'" 219–220.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.15 - Too Big to Fail? Families, Internal Improvement, and State Government in Antebellum North Carolina

Mandy L. Cooper

ARTICLE	Too Big to Fail? Families, Internal Improvement, and State Government in Antebellum North Carolina
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 41, no. 3 (2021)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 349-350
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Too Big to Fail? Families, Internal Improvement, and State Government in Antebellum North Carolina

MANDY L. COOPER

Men and women in the antebellum United States were in debt. That was particularly true of those in elite families, who relied on familial relationships to create business networks that spread over vast geographic areas and brought every member together in an intricate web of credit and debt. These families had far-flung economic interests, including agriculture, land speculation, various business ventures, and internal improvements—particularly railroads. All these ventures depended on familial relationships, the importance of which meant that the economic fortunes of elite families were incredibly precarious, and a single individual's problems with debt threatened the stability of everyone's financial well-being. White elites in the antebellum period harnessed the power of state government to stabilize their economic networks by casting their families' interests as the embodiment of the public good.

The Cameron family of North Carolina and their involvement with the Raleigh and Gaston Rail Road is a particularly dramatic example of the relationship between government and elites' familial business and political networks. The men in the Cameron family network were all advocates

Mandy L. Cooper is a lecturer of women's and gender history at the University of North Carolina at Greensboro. Her book manuscript examines how enduring practices, focused on family ties, informed conceptions of business and government among the nation's political leaders from the Revolution to Reconstruction. The author wishes to thank Laura Edwards, Phil Stern, the participants in the Law in the History of Capitalism conference, Cathy Kelly, Andy Shankman, and the three anonymous reviewers for their valuable feedback on drafts of this article.

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in state government for internal improvements to advance the state's economic prospects. Their advocacy, however, leveraged the state's considerable economic resources to stabilize their own familial networks, which could not manage individual members' problems with debt. In the process, these men implicated state government in the vagaries of their family's economic fortunes. Because of these dynamics, corporations like the Raleigh and Gaston became, in essence, too big to fail. State leaders had to back it. When they did, they were also backing the Cameron family.

North Carolina was hardly unique in this regard. The construction of railroads in other states followed similar pathways. As recent literature suggests, elite Americans relied on intimate family bonds, much as they had in the early modern period, to further their social, economic, and political interests. These direct ties between family networks and governing institutions were an extension of the dynamics that characterized the early modern Atlantic world. That literature emphasizes the personal relationships behind early modern trade networks and their connections to the growth and expansion of governing institutions, firmly connecting the private, domestic world with the public world of governance. Such literature shows that the success of both an individual's economic interests and the interests of the state relied on trust and credit based on familial relationships. Work that emphasizes these connections tends to focus broadly on the early modern period, encompassing the seventeenth and eighteenth centuries. I argue that these kinds of dynamics, which linked the relations within families to public endeavors, continued into the nineteenth century, where they had wide-reaching public implications.[1]

1. For example, in *Atlantic Families: Lives and Letters in the Later Eighteenth Century* (Oxford, UK, 2008), Sarah M. S. Pearsall highlights the importance of personal relationships for credit in the eighteenth-century Atlantic world, arguing that the domestic household could not be separated from the society, nation, and empire of which it was a part. Likewise, the market and the family were intertwined, a relationship exemplified by the language of credit, which slid from business to personal matters without any transition. That conflation signified an underlying truth: the credit or ruin of a family could multiply outward to reinforce or destabilize the wider market economy. Similarly, Marta Vicente argues that Spanish families in the calico trade were central to the Spanish empire's advancement and wealth in the early modern Atlantic. Families sent relatives throughout the Iberian peninsula and Spain's American colonies, establishing networks for shipping calicoes. These family networks were central to the growth of the Spanish empire—and its prosperity. See Vicente, *Clothing the Spanish*

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.16 - The Transatlantic Roots of Irish American Anti-Abolitionism, 1843-1859

Ian Delahanty

ARTICLE	The Transatlantic Roots of Irish American Anti-Abolitionism, 1843-1859
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IAN DELAHANTY

The Transatlantic Roots of Irish American Anti-Abolitionism, 1843–1859

That most Irish immigrants opposed both abolitionist reformers and antislavery politicians in the antebellum era was beyond dispute to contemporaries in all three camps. As early as 1842, the abolitionist editor William Lloyd Garrison perceived and made it his mission to disrupt "a stupendous conspiracy . . . between the leading Irish Demagogues, the leading pseudo democrats, and the southern slaveholders." More than a decade later, a Know Nothing Party–affiliated newspaper in Concord, New Hampshire, blamed "the ignorance and superstition of a half a million semi-civilized Irish voters" for the electoral successes of proslavery politicians. Irish American newspaper editors disputed the tenor if not the specific complaint in these accusations. In 1856, the *New York Irish-American* cheerfully acknowledged that "Irish emigrants join the Democratic Party and take sides against abolitionists" before defending its readers against abolitionists' accusations that immigrants frequently and wantonly assaulted African Americans.[1] Scholarship on the antislavery movement, the antebellum sectional crisis, and Irish immigration in the Civil War era echoes the contemporary consensus that Irish Americans were foes to abolitionist reform and antislavery politics.[2]

Historians are far from unanimous, however, in explaining why Irish Americans were so singularly hostile to all shades of antislavery. Immigrants' fears of labor competition from freed slaves, their purported need to establish a white racial identity, their attachment to the proslavery Democratic Party, and their receptiveness to the influence of a proslavery American Catholic hierarchy have all weighed heavily in the discussion.[3] Cumulatively, these explanations interpret Irish American opposition to antislavery as a product of the social, political, and cultural influences in America that shaped the contours of Irish immigrants' lives. Such an interpretation is useful in highlighting the forces that acted on Irish Americans as they encountered the sectional politics and nascent industrial capitalist economy of antebellum America. But it can also convey the impression

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that immigrants arrived in the United States as blank slates, whose views on the major social and political questions of the day would be etched out by priests and ward bosses. Yet studies of Irish Americans' involvement in Jacksonian-era politics, participation in the Civil War, and resistance to exploitative labor conditions have shown that immigrants brought certain ideas and practices with them from Ireland. Under the right circumstances, immigrants' backgrounds in Ireland or the connections they maintained with their native land informed the ways they adjusted to life in the United States.[4]

While Irish history has featured prominently in more recent works on Irish immigrants and antislavery, the pre-famine era dominates the scholarship. In the years just prior to the Great Irish Potato Famine (1845–54), the revered Irish politician Daniel O'Connell insisted that the Irish on both sides of the Atlantic—but especially Irish Americans who supported his efforts to win Irish political autonomy from Great Britain—make common cause with abolitionists. The historian Angela Murphy explains that Irish Americans rejected O'Connell's antislavery pleas in order to demonstrate their bona fides as respectable American citizens who would not be beholden to foreign influences. On the eve of the famine migration, then, the demands of loyalty to their adopted country led Irish immigrants to spurn antislavery appeals from Ireland. Other works on the pre-famine period similarly emphasize a contrast between the popularity of antislavery in O'Connell's Ireland and an anti-abolitionist consensus among the American Irish.[5]

While most Irish immigrants remained steadfastly opposed to antislavery throughout the antebellum era, the argument here is that the basis of Irish American anti-abolitionism shifted in the late 1840s and early 1850s. Unlike in the pre-famine period, during and after the famine Irish Americans articulated their criticisms of antislavery not only with reference to their circumstances in the United States but also with reference to their Irish backgrounds and the interests of Irish people on both sides of the Atlantic. In other words, Irish American anti-abolitionism became as much Irish as it was American, a marked change from the pre-famine era when O'Connell had emphasized opposition to all forms of oppression as a pillar of Irish identity.[6] Within years of O'Connell's death in 1847, Irish Americans were making the case that their interests as Irishmen impelled them to stand firm against antislavery and to uphold southerners' right to own slaves. Understanding this perspective requires a transatlantic scope that can account for how events in famine-era Ireland and related changes in the relationship between Ireland and the United States influenced Irish American views on antislavery.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.17 - Rural Putting-Out Work in Early Nineteenth-Century New England: Women and the Transition to Capitalism in the Countryside

Thomas Dublin

ARTICLE	Rural Putting-Out Work in Early Nineteenth-Century New England: Women and the Transition to Capitalism in the Countryside
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 531-532
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Rural Putting-Out Work in Early Nineteenth-Century New England: Women and the Transition to Capitalism in the Countryside

THOMAS DUBLIN

AS one reads analyses by economic and social historians, surprisingly different processes seem to be at work in European and American industrialization. Those who study European industrialization trace the phenomenon over several centuries and stress the complexity and variety of routes from the agricultural economy of the early modern period to the capitalist industry of the nineteenth century.[1] American historians, on the other hand, tend to focus much more narrowly on the nineteenth century and to examine the rise of factory production and the transformation of artisan crafts as the two major elements in American industrialization.[2]

Research for this article was supported by grants from the University of California, San Diego, the State University of New York at Binghamton, the Charles Warren Center for Studies in American History of Harvard University, the Henry A. Murray Center of Radcliffe College, the National Endowment for the Humanities, and the Museum of American Textile History. I also want to thank Deborah Bruns, Seth Kreisberg, Jean Sherlock, Deborah Simmons, and Patrizia Sione for able research assistance. I gave earlier versions of this work at seminars at the University of Pennsylvania and Syracuse University and benefited from the criticism offered in those forums. Mary Blewett, Richard Brown, Anna Davin, James Henretta, Steven Hahn, Gary Kulik, Gail Fowler Mohanty, Kathryn Kish Sklar, Laurel Thatcher Ulrich, and Helena Wright commented on various drafts of this paper and helped sharpen the argument presented here. Needless to say, I did not take all their advice and I alone am responsible for the arguments offered here.

[1]Jean Quataert, "A New View of Industrialization: 'Protoindustry' or the Role of Small-Scale, Labor-Intensive Manufacture in the Capitalist Environment," *International Labor and Working-Class History*, no. 33 (Spring 1988): 3–22; Maxine Berg, Pat Hudson, and Michael Sonenscher, eds., *Manufacture in Town and Country before the Factory* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1983), esp. chap. 1.

[2]See, e.g., Alan Dawley, *Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn* (Cambridge: Harvard University Press, 1976); Bruce Laurie, *Working People of Philadelphia, 1800–1850* (Philadelphia: Temple University Press, 1980); and my

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Change in the countryside is remarkably absent from their accounts.

The debate on European industrialization in the past twenty years has concentrated on the role rural cottage industry, or outwork, played in the transformation of the European economy. In 1972 Franklin Mendels coined the term "proto-industrialization" to define this organization of production and argued that it constituted a distinct phase in the evolution of modern industry.[3] Many historians are skeptical of the linear progress implied by Mendels's formulation, yet however they characterize the larger process, all agree on the importance of decentralized rural outwork in the economic development of the European countryside.[4]

There is less agreement among American historians; indeed, there has been a spirited debate on the character of the rural economy in the United States at the turn of the nineteenth century. James Henretta and Michael Merrill have emphasized familial and community concerns as motivating and shaping farmers' participation in a growing market economy, while Winifred Rothenberg has argued for a more strictly capitalist interpretation of farmers' behavior in this period.[5] The debate is an important one which is stimulating new archival research and deepening our understanding of the transition to industrial capitalism in the United States.[6]

Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860 (New York: Columbia University Press, 1979).

[3]Franklin Mendels, "Proto-industrialization: The First Phase of the Industrialization Process," *Journal of Economic History* 32 (1972): 241–61.

[4]For a sampling of this literature, see D. C. Coleman, "Proto-industrialization: A Concept Too Many," *Economic History Review*, 2d ser. 36 (1983): 435–48; Myron P. Gutmann and René Leboutte, "Rethinking Protoindustrialization and the Family," *Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 14 (Winter 1984): 587–607; Gay L. Gullickson, "Agriculture and Cottage Industry: Redefining the Causes of Proto-Industrialization," *Journal of Economic History* 43 (December 1983): 831–50.

[5]Michael Merrill, "Cash Is Good to Eat: Self-Sufficiency and Exchange in the Rural Economy of the United States," *Radical History Review* 3 (Winter 1977): 42–61; James Henretta, "Farms and Families: Mentalité in Pre-Industrial America," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 3d ser. 35 (1978): 3–32; Winifred B. Rothenberg, "The Market and Massachusetts Farmers, 1750–1855," *Journal of Economic History* 41 (1981): 283–314.

[6]For examples of work in this new vein, see essays in the collection edited by

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.18 - Women Workers and the Study of Social Mobility

Thomas Dublin

ARTICLE	Women Workers and the Study of Social Mobility
JOURNAL	The Journal of Interdisciplinary History 9, no. 4 (1979)
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Journal of Interdisciplinary History, IX:4 (Spring 1979), 647–665.

Thomas Dublin

Women Workers and the Study of Social Mobility

The study of social mobility has blossomed in the past decade until it has become an important element in the field of social history. Since the publication of Thernstrom's pathbreaking study, *Progress and Poverty,* there has been a proliferation of mobility studies of individual urban communities in the second half of the nineteenth century. This research has contributed to a renewed interest in the everyday lives of working men and in their place within a network of social relations. Although this work has expanded the boundaries of social history, the narrow conceptual framework which it has employed has seriously limited its broader analytical significance.[1]

One difficulty with social mobility studies has been the almost total exclusion of women from consideration. Working within a conceptual framework drawn uncritically from contemporary sociology, historians have sought to measure occupational and social mobility in the nineteenth century in a manner comparable to contemporary survey research. In a recent study of Waltham, Massachusetts, Gitelman justified his exclusively male focus:

> Most females were neither lifetime labor force participants nor primary status carriers. For these reasons their occupa-

Thomas Dublin is Assistant Professor of History at the University of California, San Diego. He is author of *Women at Work: The Transformation of Work and Community in Lowell, Massachusetts, 1826–1860,* forthcoming.

The author would like to thank Sue Benson, Penny Dublin, James Henretta, Gary Kornblith, John Modell, and Molly Nolan for helpful comments and criticisms of earlier drafts of this article. Research was supported in part by a grant-in-aid from the Center for Research on Women, Wellesley College.

1 Stephan Thernstrom, *Poverty and Progress: Social Mobility in a Nineteenth-Century City* (Cambridge, Mass., 1964); *idem, The Other Bostonians: Poverty and Progress in the American Metropolis, 1880–1970* (Cambridge, Mass., 1973); Peter Knights, *The Plain People of Boston, 1830–1860: A Study of City Growth* (New York, 1971); Howard Gitelman, *Workingmen of Waltham: Mobility in American Urban Industrial Development, 1850–1890* (Baltimore, 1974); Howard Chudacoff, *Mobile Americans: Residential and Social Mobility in Omaha, 1880–1920* (New York, 1972); Michael B. Katz, *The People of Hamilton, Canada West: Family and Class in a Mid-Nineteenth-Century City* (Cambridge, 1975); Stuart Blumin, *The Urban Threshold: Growth and Change in a Nineteenth-Century American Community* (Chicago, 1976). In addition to these monographs there are numerous shorter articles, many of which are cited by Thernstrom in the final chapter of *Other Bostonians.*

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tional and social mobility experiences were likely to have been too few or too insignificant to merit attention.[2]

Gitelman has dismissed consideration of women too lightly. That they were not lifetime labor force participants does not mean that they did not experience occupational mobility. In the mid-nineteenth century women comprised a majority of the labor force of the early textile mills and entered the shoe and garment industries in increasing numbers. Certainly any effort to judge the extent of opportunity opened up by industrialization in these years which neglects the experience of women will be partial and distorted.

The question of female social mobility is somewhat less clear-cut. Although it is true that women were not primary status carriers, and that marriage and family life were the expected norm for women in the nineteenth century, expanding employment opportunities did enable more single women and widows to be self-supporting than had been the case earlier. To the extent that most women derived their social status from their husbands, expanding urban job opportunities facilitated social mobility through marriage. McBride, in a recent study of domestic service in England and France, suggests that for rural women employed as domestics, marriage proved to be an avenue of upward social mobility. For a sample of 175 New Hampshire women who worked in Lowell, Massachusetts, between 1830 and 1850, I found that about a third, whose marriages could be traced, married urban men and settled permanently in cities. This kind of evidence is useful in expanding our knowledge of social and geographical mobility in nineteenth-century America. If we assume that the mobility experiences of women were "too few or too insignificant" to merit investigation, we answer the question before it has even been posed.[3]

2 Gitelman, *Waltham,* xiv. For a similar line of reasoning see Thernstrom, *Other Bostonians,* 6–7.

3 Theresa McBride, *The Domestic Revolution: The Modernization of Household Service in England and France, 1820–1920* (New York, 1976). Dublin, "The Social Origins of Early Factory Workers: Women Operatives in the Lowell Mills, 1830–1850," unpub. paper presented at the American Historical Association meeting, 1977, 8. For this study, I traced 175 women workers from the towns of Boscawen, Canterbury, and Sutton, N.H., who worked at the Hamilton Manufacturing Company in Lowell, Massachusetts, between 1830 and 1850. Women were traced back to their births and families of origin and to their marriages after completing their work at Hamilton. About two-thirds were successfully

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.19 - Women, Work, and the Family: Female Operatives in the Lowell Mills, 1830-1860

Thomas Dublin

ARTICLE	Women, Work, and the Family: Female Operatives in the Lowell Mills, 1830-1860
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WOMEN, WORK, AND THE FAMILY: FEMALE OPERATIVES IN THE LOWELL MILLS, 1830-1860

Thomas Dublin

In the United States between 1830 and 1860 increasing numbers of women found employment outside the home. In New England, the rise of textile manufacturing along the major rivers of Massachusetts, New Hampshire, and Maine created work for a predominantly female labor force. By taking these new jobs women chose not only to work outside their homes, but also to leave their families and to live in a radically different environment. While in the mill towns they became part of an urban working-class community.

I shall examine the nature and the transformation of the mill operative community in Lowell, Massachusetts, the leading textile center in the nation during this period. In the 1830s, the mill workforce consisted almost exclusively of young, single, native-born women. These female operatives came to form a close-knit community and the growth of community contributed, in turn, to the rise of collective labor protest. After 1845 the growth of an immigrant family workforce undermined the Yankee community and the labor movement it had nurtured. The transformation of the operative community in Lowell and the simultaneous decline in labor unrest offer important evidence of the impact of women's changing family roles on labor organization and protest under early industrial capitalism.

The female operatives in Lowell in the mid-1830s formed a community based on bonds of mutual dependence. Their experiences in Lowell were not simply similar or parallel to one another; they were inextricably intertwined. Women worked together in the mills with experienced operatives teaching newcomers work skills; in addition they lived together in company-owned boarding houses adjacent to the mills. Furthermore, the women were conscious of the existence of community and articulated this consciousness in their writings.[1] Community was both an objective and a subjective reality in the lives of female operatives.

Young women recruited from northern New England predominated in the work force of the early Lowell mills. In July 1836, for example, 74 percent of the work force of the Hamilton Manufacturing Company in Lowell was female and 96 percent native-born.[2] More than four-fifths of these women were between the ages of fifteen and thirty.[3] Almost three-fourths of female operatives at Hamilton resided in company boarding houses while in the mills.[4]

Although a quarter of the female operatives resided in private housing, the proportion living with their families was considerably smaller. Only one-ninth of female employed

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at Hamilton in July 1836 lived at home with their families.[5] The absence of significant numbers of workers living in families contributed to the importance of the operative peer group. Sharing work in the mills 72 hours a week and living in close quarters in company boarding houses, female operatives came to form a close-knit community.

Women were not only separated from their families while working in the mills, but were relatively isolated from men as well. The female-male division of labor insured that women and men had little contact within the mills. Men held all supervisory positions and worked in a number of skilled departments; women were confined principally to machine-tending jobs.[6] A typical workroom had two male supervisors, eighty female operatives, and a couple of children assisting the others. Women and men had little contact outside the formal overseer-operative relation. Patterns of residence further reinforced this separation. Married men lived in company tenements; single men, in all-male boarding houses; and single women, in all-female boarding houses. Even in institutions and activities open to both sexes—for instance, churches and lyceum lectures—women comprised the vast majority. In 1830, women comprised 63 percent of the population in Lowell. They made up more than 70 percent of those in the primary working population between 15 and 29 years of age.[7] Segregation at work and in housing, coupled with the predominance of women in early Lowell, contributed to the growth of a distinct female operative community.

The central institution in the female community was the corporation boarding house. There operatives escaped from the noise, cotton dust, and relentless pace of work in the mills. Relationships among women which arose within the mills were reinforced in a more relaxed setting. The boarding house, with an average of twenty-five female boarders sleeping four to six in a bedroom, was above all a collective living situation.[8]

The boarding house was also the center for the social life of operatives. After more than twelve hours a day in the mills, women spent most of their remaining hours in their boarding houses. In this setting they ate meals, rested, talked, sewed, wrote letters, and read books and magazines. From within this circle, they found friends who accompanied them to shops, to evening lectures, or to church events. On Sundays or holidays they often went out together for walks along the canals or into the nearby countryside. The community of operatives, in sum, developed in a setting in which women worked and lived together twenty-four hours a day.[9]

The boarding house provided the social context in which newcomers to Lowell made their first adjustment to urban, industrial life. Women generally did not come to Lowell entirely on their own. Usually they came because they knew someone—an older sister, cousin, or friend—who worked in Lowell. A newcomer was usually directed to a specific address, and her first contact with fellow operatives generally came in the boarding house, not in the mill.

From her arrival at the company boarding house, a newcomer felt the influence of the community of operatives. Harriet Robinson, an operative and the daughter of a boarding house keeper, described the socialization process in her autobiography, *Loom and Spindle*:

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.20 - Markets without a Market Revolution: Southern Planters and Capitalism

Douglas R. Egerton

ARTICLE	Markets without a Market Revolution: Southern Planters and Capitalism
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 16, no. 2 (1996)
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MARKETS WITHOUT A MARKET REVOLUTION: SOUTHERN PLANTERS AND CAPITALISM

Douglas R. Egerton

Historians, like Southern orators of other days, never tire of dueling over that historical perennial: the economic nature of the Old South. In recent decades, however, increased interest in market transformations has brought new attention to this enduring debate. Were the planters, as it is currently fashionable to suggest, calculating agrarian capitalists who operated their ''factories in the field'' according to commercial demand? Or were they, as the embattled minority continues to insist, unique and fundamentally prebourgeois seigneurial lords who participated in the capitalist Atlantic economy even as they resisted its values and ideology? Folly though it is to hope that scholars of the early republic will cease their often intemperate sparring over this issue, it may be possible to narrow the historiographical gulf by exposing as erroneous the current tendency to confuse capitalism and the market revolution. Few would dispute that large slaveholders participated in the Atlantic markets of the early nineteenth century and represented the agrarian wing of western capital. But unwaged labor blunted the influence of capitalism by advancing both a form of social relations and a premodern ideology that clashed with the competitive individualism and acquisitiveness that increasingly marked

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Douglas R. Egerton is Professor of History at Le Moyne College in Syracuse, New York, and a member of the editorial board of the *JER*. He is the author of *Charles Fenton Mercer and the Trial of National Conservatism* and *Gabriel's Rebellion: The Virginia Slave Conspiracies of 1800 and 1802*, which won the 1994 SHEAR Book Prize. He is currently writing a biography of Denmark Vesey for Madison House Publishers. He thanks Alan Gallay, Graham R. Hodges, Clarence Taylor, and Paul A. Gilje for their comments and support.

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the capitalist North.[1]

There were some planters, it is true, for whom the notion of the slaveholder as businessman is most appropriate. If a ''businessman'' is interested in efficiency and maximum production in response to market demands, then virtually every master who produced for export could have fit the description. Production of all important staple crops rose and fell throughout the early national period in direct response to prices and orders. Tobacco planters in South Carolina, for example, who had adopted that staple during the mid-1780s, abandoned it with equal speed in favor of cotton when British factories posed lucrative new opportunities following the War of 1812, dramatic evidence of southern responsiveness to market signals.[2]

So, too, it is evident that market considerations helped to erode the harsh, hierarchical attitudes of the colonial seaboard South in the years after the Revolution, just as they did in the northern states. According to one popular interpretation, English patriarchalism metamorphosed not into planter seigneurialism but democratic entrepreneurship. Scots Irish immigrants in particular embraced the precepts of free enterprise and white egalitarianism. These petty slaveholders, unlike the less numerous great planters, regarded slavery as they did any other economic venture: the swiftest path to wealth and political power. Typical of their number was Abner Lawson Duncan of New Orleans, who dreamed of building an ''elegant'' estate, but instead

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[1] I have been especially influenced on this point by Michael Merrill, ''Putting 'Capitalism' In Its Place: A Review of Recent Literature,'' *William and Mary Quarterly*, 52 (Apr. 1995), 315-26, who reminds us that if ''capitalism is little more than a synonym for the market economy, then any opposition to capitalism necessarily becomes an opposition to markets'' (317). The plantation South obviously did not exhibit such opposition. Peter Kolchin, *American Slavery, 1619-1877* (New York, 1993), 170, contains a succinct description of the nature of the current debate.

[2] This view has been most systematically advanced by Robert Fogel and Stanley Engerman, *Time on the Cross: The Economics of American Negro Slavery* (2 vols., Boston, 1974), and, with some modification, again by Robert Fogel, *Without Consent or Contract: The Rise and Fall of American Slavery* (New York, 1989), 64-65, who calls slavery ''a flexible, highly developed form of capitalism.'' Edward Pessen, ''How Different from Each Other Were the Antebellum North and South?'' *American Historical Review*, 85 (Oct. 1980), 1119-49, also disparaged the theory of southern distinctiveness by suggesting that whatever their economic interests, southern whites lived much as did northern whites, in a stratified society marked by inequalities in status, material condition, and opportunity. The same could be said, of course, for any society at any time and at any place on the globe.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.21 - Politics and Society: Toward a Jacksonian Synthesis

Daniel Feller

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POLITICS AND SOCIETY: TOWARD A JACKSONIAN SYNTHESIS

Daniel Feller

Thirty years have now passed since the appearance of the last narrative synthesis of the Jacksonian period. In 1959 Harper & Row published Glyndon G. Van Deusen's *The Jacksonian Era*, a volume in the New American Nation Series designed "to present, fairly and impartially, the history of the twenty years, 1828-1848, in American life . . . years full of color and movement, years full of significance for the American future." Van Deusen treated many subjects outside politics, but the centerpiece of his survey was a narrative of national political history, centering on issues and policies, campaigns and elections, politicians and parties.[1]

In 1959 a decision to structure a comprehensive history of two decades in American history around a conventional political narrative required neither explanation nor apology. But the last three decades have witnessed a revolution in our understanding of all aspects of American life—political, economic, social, cultural. So it is not surprising that portions of Van Deusen's book have been superseded. What is surprising—indeed, astonishing—is that no new narrative synthesis has appeared to replace it. While several distinctive portraits of Jacksonian society have since appeared, none has attempted to incorporate the recent discoveries and new interpretations under the traditional umbrella of a political narrative.[2]

Daniel Feller is a member of the Department of History at the University of New Mexico. Formerly associated with the Andrew Jackson Papers Project, Mr. Feller is the author of *The Public Lands in Jacksonian Politics* (1984). He would like to thank Daniel Walker Howe, Thomas E. Jeffrey, Richard John, Richard P. McCormick, Gregory H. Nobles, Howard N. Rabinowitz, and Johanna Shields for their helpful comments on an earlier version of this article.

[1] Glyndon G. Van Deusen, *The Jacksonian Era, 1828-1848* (New York 1959), xi.

[2] These statements were penned before the appearance of Harry L. Watson's *Liberty and Power* (New York 1990), which synthesizes much of the recent work discussed below within a chronological narrative.

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This extraordinary lacuna can hardly be attributed to the decline of narrative (a genre which continues to flourish in other periods of American history, notably the American Revolution and Civil War), nor to a general loss of interest in politics. Political narrative once dominated Jacksonian historiography because historians assumed that social change and cultural evolution gave impetus to, and were in turn encompassed within, political events. But that assumption has cracked under the impact of new knowledge and new interpretations. Historians of the last generation could no longer assume that in writing political history, they were also writing the history of society. No new synthesis appeared because one no longer seemed possible. Humpty Dumpty had fallen off the wall, and historians could not reassemble him.

By 1959, two comprehensive narrative frameworks for Jacksonian history had already been propounded and debated. In two books, *The Rise of the New West* and *The United States, 1830-1850*, Frederick Jackson Turner had codified his argument for the primacy of sectionalism in American history. In Turner's view, the sectional maneuvering that drove Jacksonian politics grew out of contrasts embracing all aspects of American life: ''Inevitable in such a changing country were sectional interests, sectional antagonisms, and sectional combinations. Each great area was evolving in its own way. Each had its own type of people, its own geographic and economic basis, its own particular economic and social interests.'' National politics was the stage on which these contrasts and rivalries were played out. Logically Turner began both books with descriptions of each section and then, having identified the players, went on to narrate the plot.[3]

In 1945 Arthur Schlesinger, Jr., countered that Jacksonian democracy was ''a problem not of sections but of classes.'' Schlesinger presented a new formulation of the Jacksonian dialectic: a struggle for power between a Hamiltonian ''business community'' and ''the working classes,'' the latter supported (as in the 1930s) by the Democratic party and a sympathetic executive. Our unfortunate habit of lumping together all the so-called ''progressive'' historians has obscured the sharpness of Schlesinger's dissent from Turner, and the extent to which his *Age of Jackson* was itself a work of calculated revisionism. On many issues, including what they both saw as the

[3] Frederick Jackson Turner, *The United States, 1830-1850: The Nation and Its Sections* (New York 1935), 11; *Rise of the New West* (New York 1906).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.22 - Nativism and the Creation of a Republican Majority in the North before the Civil War

William E. Gienapp

ARTICLE	Nativism and the Creation of a Republican Majority in the North before the Civil War
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Nativism and the Creation of a Republican Majority in the North before the Civil War

William E. Gienapp

Historians have long recognized that the rise of the sectional Republican party was an essential link in the chain of events that led to the Civil War. The latest in a series of attempts since 1840 to form a northern antislavery party, it was the first such party to garner substantial electoral support, and following its national triumph in 1860 and the inauguration of Abraham Lincoln as the country's first Republican president, war broke out between the North and the South. The history of the early Republican party poses the question not simply why the party formed, but more important, why it succeeded; why by the 1856 presidential election it had become the principal adversary of the Democratic party in the country; and why by the end of the decade it had won the allegiance of a majority of northern voters and was the strongest party in the nation.

As is well known, in the decade before the Civil War the nation's party system realigned. In accounting for the onset of that realignment and the ultimate triumph of the Republican party, historians have traditionally stressed the Kansas-Nebraska Act (1854) and the slavery-extension issue. In recent years, however, a number of scholars, including Michael F. Holt, Joel H. Silbey, Ronald P. Formisano, Paul Kleppner, and Robert Kelley, have challenged that explanation and emphasized instead the centrality of ethnic and religious antagonisms in the antebellum upheaval. "Far from being . . . directly related to slavery and the sectional crisis," Silbey declares in a sympathetic summary, "mass political conflicts in the . . . 1850s were primarily rooted in a complex interaction of social and political perceptions and religious, national, and racial prejudices and divisions, all brought together under the heading of ethnocultural conflict."[1] According to those historians, the Republican party's

William E. Gienapp is associate professor of history at the University of Wyoming. Research for this article was supported by the Mabelle McLeod Lewis Memorial Fund, Stanford, California. The University of California, Berkeley, and the University of Wyoming provided computer funds.

[1] Michael Fitzgibbon Holt, *Forging a Majority: The Formation of the Republican Party in Pittsburgh, 1848–1860* (New Haven, 1969); Michael F. Holt, *The Political Crisis of the 1850s* (New York, 1978); Michael F. Holt, "The Politics of Impatience: The Origins of Know Nothingism,"

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ideology and the reasons men voted for it transcended the slavery issue; nativism was also important in explaining the party's startling growth.

Not all Civil War historians, however, have subscribed to that view. In reaffirming the primacy of the slavery issue in northern politics, Eric Foner and Richard H. Sewell have advanced the most forceful critique of the ethnocultural interpretation of the early Republican party. Foner and Sewell recognize the importance of nativism in the early stage of realignment, and they grant that the Republican party gained the support of many Know Nothings, but they maintain that it did so, in Sewell's words, "without having to embrace a particle of the nativists' platform." Adding weight to their argument is Dale Baum's analysis of Massachusetts voting patterns, the only study available that traces the voting behavior of Know Nothings in a state throughout the decade. Baum downgrades the importance of nativism in the initial Know Nothing coalition, and he goes beyond Foner and Sewell to argue that most Bay State Know Nothings did not join the Republican party, whatever its appeal. He concludes that the Know Nothings "played a very minor role in the transition from a Whig to a Republican majority in Massachusetts."[2]

The antebellum realignment, which began at the state and local levels before 1854, involved more than simply sectional issues. Indeed, the new antislavery Republican party made so little headway initially that seasoned political observers predicted it would soon disappear. Instead, the strongest organization opposing the Democratic party in the North and throughout the nation in 1854 and 1855 was the anti-Catholic, anti-immigrant American party. Dubbed the Know Nothings because members were instructed if questioned to say that they knew nothing about it, this secret political society underwent a phenomenal expansion beginning in 1853; in less than two years it had organized in every state and, claiming a national membership of one million voters, seemed destined to replace the rapidly disintegrating Whig party as the major opposition to the Democratic party in the country. The Know Nothing order's strength in the North was first manifested in the 1854 fall elections, when it completely dominated the People's party in Indiana, played a major role in the fusion victories in Maine, Ohio, and Illinois, swamped the once proud Whigs in Pennsylvania and Massachusetts in direct

Journal of American History, 60 (Sept. 1973), 309–31; Ronald P. Formisano, *The Birth of Mass Political Parties: Michigan, 1827–1861* (Princeton, 1971); Paul Kleppner, *The Cross of Culture: A Social Analysis of Midwestern Politics, 1850–1900* (New York, 1970); Paul Kleppner, *The Third Electoral System, 1853–1892: Parties, Voters, and Political Cultures* (Chapel Hill, 1979); Robert Kelley, *The Cultural Pattern in American Politics: The First Century* (New York, 1979); Joel H. Silbey, *The Transformation of American Politics, 1840–1860* (Englewood Cliffs, 1967); Joel H. Silbey, "The Surge of Republican Power: Partisan Antipathy, American Social Conflict, and the Coming of the Civil War," in *Essays on American Antebellum Politics, 1840–1860*, ed. Stephen E. Maizlish and John J. Kushma (College Station, 1982), 201–202.

[2] Eric Foner, *Free Soil, Free Labor, Free Men: The Ideology of the Republican Party before the Civil War* (New York, 1970), 226–60; Eric Foner, *Politics and Ideology in the Age of the Civil War* (New York, 1980), 15–53; Richard H. Sewell, *Ballots for Freedom: Antislavery Politics in the United States, 1837–1860* (New York, 1976), 254–365, esp. 265–77, 282, 292, 348–54; Dale Baum, "Know-Nothingism and the Republican Majority in Massachusetts: The Political Realignment of the 1850s," *Journal of American History*, 64 (March 1978), 959–86; Dale Baum, *The Civil War Party System: The Case of Massachusetts, 1848–1876* (Chapel Hill, 1984), 24–54.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.23 - The Rise of Capitalism in the Early Republic

Paul A. Gilje

ARTICLE	The Rise of Capitalism in the Early Republic
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(This special issue on the transition to capitalism in the early republic continues the efforts of the Journal of the Early Republic *to foster scholarly conversation about the leading issues that challenge our readers. The editors wish to express their deepest gratitude to special editor Paul A. Gilje, who solicited these essays and guided them through preparation for publication. We also wish to thank the seven other contributors whose new thoughts on the transition to capitalism give this collection its special force and timely importance.* JLL/MAM*)*

THE RISE OF CAPITALISM IN THE EARLY REPUBLIC

Paul A. Gilje

Why is the study of the rise of capitalism important in the early republic? Twenty-five years ago most historians of the early republic assumed capitalism as a constant and focused largely on political issues, the controversies between Hamilton and Jefferson, the origins of the War of 1812, and the nature of Jacksonian democracy dominated their scholarship. Since that time some scholars have argued that capitalism was not always a part of the American mentality, and there has been an upsurge of new studies examining society and the economy as well as politics. Focusing on the rise of capitalism allows us to see the intersection of these three areas.[1]

Paul A. Gilje is Professor of History at the University of Oklahoma. He is the author of *The Road to Mobocracy: Popular Disorder in New York City, 1763-1834* and *Rioting in America*.

[1] Three articles in the late 1970s served as the clarion for a reappraisal of the assumption that America was always capitalistic: Michael Merrill, "'Cash is Good to Eat': Self-Sufficiency and Exchange in the Rural Economy of the United States," *Radical History Review*, 4 (Winter 1977), 42-71; Robert E. Mutch, "Yeoman and merchant in pre-Industrial America: eighteenth-century Massachusetts as a case study," *Societas*, 7 (Autumn 1977), 279-302; and James A. Henretta, "Families and Farms: *Mentalité* in Pre-Industrial America," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 35 (Jan. 1978), 3-32.

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The early republic, it turns out, was *a* crucial, if not *the* crucial, period in the development of that trademark characteristic of American society and economy, modern capitalism. In some degree Carl Degler was right to declare that capitalism came in the first ships bringing Europeans to the New World.[2] Fernand Braudel, too, was correct when he traced the emergence of western capitalism to the development of city states at the end of the medieval period.[3] But here we are interested not with the origins of capitalism but with its rise to a point where it permeated and affected a large component of American society. We are concerned with how capitalism crept into the consciousness of men and women, be they from merchant, farming, artisan, or laboring families.

Capitalism, however, is a slippery concept widely debated by historians. Some scholars search for the emergence of a capitalist system that controls the economy. Others are concerned with the dominance of certain structures and power relations where the capitalists not only own the means of production, but also hold the reins of political power. Some scholars center their analysis around the triumph of commercial transactions over many paternalistic social connections and sentimental attachments. Still others look for capitalistic behaviors and the adoption of core values rooted in individualism, competition, and the arbitration of market mechanisms.[4] No introductory

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[2] Carl Degler, *Out of Our Past: The Forces that Shaped Modern America* (1959; 3d. ed., New York, 1984), 1-8. For an interesting discussion of the capitalism on those ships see Marcus Rediker, *Between the Devil and the Deep Blue Sea: Merchant Seamen, Pirates, and the Anglo-American Maritime World, 1700-1750* (New York, 1987).

[3] Fernand Braudel, *Civilization and Capitalism, 15th-18th Century,* Vol. I: *The Structures of Everyday Life*, trans. Sian Reynolds (3 vols., New York, 1981-1984), 479-558; Braudel, *Civilization and Capitalism,* II, 232-49; Braudel, *Capitalism and Material Life, 1400-1800*, trans. Miriam Kochan (New York, 1973), 373-440.

[4] For good summaries of the debate see Allan Kulikoff, "The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 46 (Jan. 1989), 120-44; Michael Merrill, "Putting 'Capitalism' in Its Place: A Review of Recent Literature," *ibid.*, 52 (Apr. 1995), 315-26; Christopher Clark, "Economics and Culture: Opening Up the Rural History of the Early American Northeast," *American Quarterly*, 43 (June 1991), 279-301; Paul E. Johnson, "The Market Revolution" in Mary Kupiec Cayton *et al.*, eds., *Encyclopedia of American Social History* (3 vols., New York, 1993), I, 545-60; Jack Larkin, "Massachusetts Enters the Marketplace, 1790-1860," in Martin Kaufman *et al.*, eds. *A Guide to the History of Massachusetts* (New York, 1988), 69-82; Robert E. Mutch, "Colonial America and the Debate About Transition to Capitalism," *Theory and Society*, 9 (Nov. 1980), 847-63; Winifred B.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.24 - Labor in a Massachusetts Cotton Mill, 1853-60

Ray Ginger

ARTICLE	Labor in a Massachusetts Cotton Mill, 1853-60
JOURNAL	The Business History Review 28, no. 1 (1954)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 67-68
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By Ray Ginger
ASSISTANT PROFESSOR OF BUSINESS HISTORY
AT HARVARD UNIVERSITY

Labor in a Massachusetts Cotton Mill, 1853-60[1]

¶ *Skilled textile workers migrated from Scotland to Massachusetts in the 1850's because of a large wage differential and low steerage rates for the transatlantic passage. For each one of 56 women weavers in the Lyman Mills, expenditures on current consumption took less than 75 per cent of income. But the circumstances were unusual, so this sample does not permit any conclusions about the role of wage-earners' savings in the accumulation of capital in New England. In this mill, two-thirds of the labor force in 1860 had been working there less than three years. The impact of this high degree of labor mobility on labor relations and on the technology of the industry is tentatively assessed.*

I

What was the condition of wage earners in the early textile mills of New England? Many positive answers to this question have been advanced, only to be contradicted by other answers, so the debate continues. Much of the confusion is caused by the reliance of students on contemporary newspapers and pamphlets. The testimony contained in these sources is vague and even contradictory, as a sampling will show.

New England resounded in the ante-bellum era with declarations that any man could get ahead, however humble his origin. An early student of New England industry contrasted the low mobility of labor in Europe with the situation in his native region, where sometimes a man would be found "in the profession of the law or of medicine, after commencing his career with the labours of the plane or anvil."[2] A contemporary agreed that New England held no dis-

[1] This article is based mainly on the records of the Lyman Mills, Holyoke, Massachusetts, which are on deposit at Baker Library, Harvard University. Hereafter the collection will be cited merely as Lyman Mills Papers. The company in question was known as the Hadley Falls Company until 1854, but for simplicity of exposition it will be called the Lyman Mills throughout the present article.

[2] Zachariah Allen, *The Science of Mechanics, as Applied to the Present Improvements in the Useful Arts in Europe, and in the United States of America . . .* (Providence, 1829), 350.

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tinctions of either wealth or learning "to which any working-man cannot attain. . . . The attainment of these depends mainly on our own efforts and good management." The rich and cultured had arisen from "all classes alike. Then, why complain?"[3] The same view was vigorously asserted by the owners and managers of the textile firms, not just as affirmative of an ideal, but as descriptive of existing reality. Nathan Appleton reported that a wage earner who saved his earnings could accumulate, in one year, "a very considerable capital," so that he could quickly become an investor and employer.[4] John Aiken, agent of the Lawrence Manufacturing Company, developed the same thesis. In the United States, said Aiken, "almost every free laborer has begun to be a capitalist as soon as he has begun to labor. . . . among our native population, laborers for hire do not exist as a class. Young people of both sexes often begin life in this way; but without an intention of following it permanently. Their object is to gain a capital, with which to establish themselves in business on their own account. And this purpose is carried out in the vast majority of cases."[5] Abraham Lincoln, when campaigning in Connecticut in 1860, appealed forcefully to this self-help ideology.[6]

But already in the 1830's, voices were raised in New England to denounce this ideal as a hollow sham, a dishonest apologetic. Seth Luther warned that "our rights are not only *endangered*, but some of them already wrested from us, by the powerful and inhuman grasp of monopolized wealth. . . . a spirit of monopoly exists in this country, as well as in Europe, which is sapping and mining the VERY FOUNDATIONS of our free institutions."[7] Another writer

[3] [Josiah Bigelow], *Review of "An Address to the Working-Men of New-England, . . . By Seth Luther. . . ." By a Factory Hand of Waltham* (Cambridge, 1832), 23.

[4] Nathan Appleton, *Labor, Its Relations in Europe and the United States Compared* (Boston, 1844), 12–14.

[5] John Aiken, *Labor and Wages, at Home and Abroad* (Lowell, 1849), 16.

[6] See his speech at New Haven, Conn., 6 March 1860, in John G. Nicolay and John Hay, editors, *Abraham Lincoln: Complete Works*, 2 vols. (New York, 1894), I, 625. In his Annual Address before the Wisconsin State Agricultural Society, at Milwaukee, 30 Sept. 1859, Lincoln declared: "The prudent, penniless beginner in the world labors for wages awhile, saves a surplus with which to buy tools or land for himself, then labors on his own account another while, and at length hires another new beginner to help him. . . . If any continue through life in the condition of the hired laborer, it is not the fault of the system, but because of either a dependent nature which prefers it, or improvidence, folly, or singular misfortune." *Ibid.*, pp. 581–82.

[7] Seth Luther, *An Address to the Working Men of New England, on the State of Education, and on the Condition of the Producing Classes in Europe and America . . .*, 2d ed. (New York, 1833), p. 6.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.25 - The Manual Labor Movement and the Origins of Abolitionism

Paul Goodman

ARTICLE	The Manual Labor Movement and the Origins of Abolitionism
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THE MANUAL LABOR MOVEMENT AND THE ORIGINS OF ABOLITIONISM

Paul Goodman

"My heart cleaves to the manual labor system; and, though I can no longer *publicly* advocate it as the agent of your society," Theodore Weld informed the Society for Promoting Manual Labor in Literary Institutions in January 1833, "I hope soon to plead its cause . . . while pursuing my professional studies, in a rising institution at the west, in which *manual labor is a* DAILY REQUISITION."[1] That institution, Lane Theological Seminary in Cincinnati, Ohio, headed by President Lyman Beecher and backed by Presbyterian cash and benevolence, quickly emerged as the country's largest school for training ministers. Dozens of young men like Weld, including comrades from Oneida Institute in Whitesboro, New York, the pioneer manual labor school, headed for this western metropolis and a turning point in their lives. During the year that Weld traveled over 4,500 miles, mostly in the Midwest and South lecturing on behalf of a manual labor system that wedded physical labor on farms and in workshops to an academic regimen, he thought about where a model school might best be established. Lane, already in existence but not well launched, occupied a strategic location in a large city bordering on the slave states, which also served as emporium to the trans-Appalachian West. From this spot Weld and others hoped to reclaim a vast spiritual wasteland which evangelicals identified as the decisive battleground in the struggle to forge a Christian republic.

After completing an extraordinary report for the Manual Labor Society in New York City, Weld enrolled at Lane where he organized

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Mr. Goodman, a member of the department of history at the University of California, Davis, is also the author of *Towards a Christian Republic: Antimasonry and the Great Transition in New England, 1826-1836* (1988).

[1] Theodore Weld, *First Annual Report of the Society for Promoting Manual Labor in Literary Institutions . . . January 28, 1831* (New York 1833), 99-100.

JOURNAL OF THE EARLY REPUBLIC, 13 (Fall 1993). © 1993 Society for Historians of the Early American Republic.

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the historic debate that pitted Garrisonian immediatism against the gradualist African colonization idea. After eighteen days, students overwhelmingly opted for immediatism and a corollary commitment to elevate free blacks. From Walnut Hill on which Lane perched, students descended to ''the bottoms'' where Cincinnati's African Americans lived. They taught secular and Sunday schools for children and adults, and preached the gospel and mingled in churches, homes, and on the streets with a pariah people whom Ohioans had recently sought to expel from the state but whom the Lane students had suddenly discovered to be kin. Lane's governing board, made up of businessmen, lawyers, and clergymen, outraged by student defiance of white supremacy, the board's African colonization preferences as well as their authority, swiftly suppressed abolitionism, and thereby precipitated a withdrawal by most of the students. The Lane Rebels continued to work in Cincinnati and elsewhere on behalf of abolition and free blacks. Many soon enrolled at Oberlin which embraced them as well as manual labor principles. Weld left Lane for his most important's life's work as a paid agent of the American Anti-Slavery Society and recruited more Americans to the cause than anyone except possibly William Lloyd Garrison.[2]

Weld's evolution as an abolitionist came slowly for when he started on his national tour for manual labor, he had not yet committed himself. Garrison was not widely known in 1831-1832, and while Weld alternated his lectures on manual labor with others on temperance and female education, he remained publicly silent on slavery. His older friend and fellow Oneida County evangelist, Charles Stuart, also converted in the Finney revival in western New York, had embraced immediatism in 1831 before sailing for Ireland to press the abolitionist cause in the United Kingdom. Stuart knew that his younger friend was pondering the problem of slavery and sent Weld a copy of his important early immediatist pamphlet published in Britain. Weld also discussed the slavery question on his southern manual labor tour with Alabama planters and colonizationists James G. Birney and the Reverend William T. Allan. A visit to Western Reserve

[2] For a description of manual labor at Lane, see *Lane Seminary and Walnut Hill School. Its Character, Advantages and Prospects* (Cincinnati 1832), 5-6; Lawrence Thomas Lesick, *The Lane Rebels: Evangelicalism and Antislavery in America* (Metuchen, N.J. 1980); Robert Abzug, *Passionate Liberator: Theodore Dwight Weld and the Dilemma of Reform* (New York 1980), 82-122; Benjamin P. Thomas, *Theodore Weld, Crusader for Freedom* (New Brunswick, N.J. 1950), 37-54; and Gilbert Hobbs Barnes, *The Antislavery Impulse, 1830-1844* (1933; rep., New York 1964), 65-77, 103-104.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.26 - Ante-Bellum Labor: Violence, Strike, and Communal Arbitration

David Grimsted

ARTICLE	Ante-Bellum Labor: Violence, Strike, and Communal Arbitration
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ANTE-BELLUM LABOR: VIOLENCE, STRIKE, AND COMMUNAL ARBITRATION

Ante-bellum United States labor history, the offspring of the concern about worker-capital relations that came to the fore at the turn of this century, corresponds to a pattern that occurs in almost all new intellectual fields where current interests encourage the development of fresh historical perspectives. The events, concerns, attitudes, and even terminology of the times not only stimulated new awareness, but also directed and limited its scope. In this sense, much American labor history has been written backwards, with the major clashes and developments around 1900 focusing what has been looked for, and found, concerning pre-Civil War American workers.

The stress of John Commons and his school on unions as the core of labor history most obviously grew from early twentieth-century events, but the intense and often bloody worker struggles around 1900 have ties with more recent attempts to find and define ante-bellum worker radicalism, class consciousness, or class culture. From this perspective, ante-bellum labor history involves a record of failure or at best a pale shadowing of later developments. The central explanatory work explores labor's limitations before the Civil War: why workers failed to establish permanent unions, or why one finds only glimpses of that class consciousness or radicalism seemingly etched in the outbursts of 1877 and the drawn-out struggles of the years 1885-1915 and immediately after World War I. Even the strongest stimulant to recent American labor history, Herbert Gutman's Americanization of E.P. Thompson's classic study of labor's traumatic movement from a pre-industrial to an industrial world, has reinforced this somewhat transtemporal view of ante-bellum labor history. For the process of industrial adjustment which Thompson presents as a single transition, Gutman sees as a reality repeating itself in all major American eras.[1]

The degree of looking backward has varied widely among labor historians. Helen Sumner, one of the four authors who wrote the history of ante-bellum labor in the Commons series, suggested positive accomplishments more than did her male co-authors or than Norman Ware who more intellectually shaped this tradition.[2] Several examples of the new labor history have been concerned primarily with description of the work, mobility, ethnic, and familial patterns of laborers. Yet where schematic interpretation has been strongest and most interesting, the emphasis on halting beginnings has remained largely intact.[3]

The tacit assumption that ante-bellum labor history formed a somewhat shaky first stage in a straight linear development toward what happened at the end of the nineteenth century has distracted attention from some of the distinguishing features of work life in the years of pre-Civil War industrialization. This essay explores some of the peculiarities of the era's capital-labor relations by considering three central areas where prevalent early patterns differed substantially from later ones: (1) the role of violence in disputes over workplace issues; (2) the form and structure of the period's strikes; and (3) the mechanisms of communal appeal through which worker grievances or disputes were commonly adjusted. If one considers these three crucial aspects of capital-labor dealings chronologically from the industrial "take off" stage in the 1830s, ante-bellum worker efforts become a somewhat successful and quite distinctive way of handling labor-management tensions and arguments. When the situation of the ante-bellum laborer is viewed through lenses less ground on later developments, American

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labor history takes on a different trajectory. Continuities, of course, remain, as they always do in history, but the labor-capital violence, the pragmatic unionism, and the forms of worker consciousness of the later era stand less as culmination of faint or failed ante-bellum beginnings than as new struggles, strategies, and orientations arising from management's discarding an earlier form of labor-capital accommodation in the United States.

The essay's structure involves first establishing the contours of violence related to specific work demands, to explore why this method of responding to or handling labor problems was so seldom employed, especially compared to the later period when the United States "had the bloodiest and most violent labor history of any nation in the world."[4] Some crucial incidents of the mid-1830s will be examined which suggest the rough ground rules worked out, regarding labor organization and tactics, between labor, capital, courts, and community in these years. A descriptive look will follow at the common non-violent protest or pressure tactic of both craft and industrial workers before the Civil War, the strike or, as it was more commonly and accurately called, the "turn-out," which essentially involved an appeal to the community about the fairness of particular actions. Finally some suggestions will be made about the sources of this "system" of labor-capital adjustment and its connections with the labor-management violence and battle for pragmatic power around 1900, which slowly led to the type of industrial-union organizations and attitudes that have prevailed in the twentieth century.

There are, of course, limitations in this general description. The ante-bellum pattern of capital-labor adjustment had little that was formal about it, although legal decisions after the mid-1830s fell in line with the communally accepted principles that upheld the system. And it operated loosely, without predictable results in specific cases, much like its twentieth-century successor. Success, failure or compromise depended on a multitude of local and personal variables: specific conditions, worker options, general economic realities, and the degree of worker-manager trust and flexibility. An additional variable seemingly mattered much more in ante-bellum conflicts than in later ones: the degree of communal sympathy or support for worker demands.

This discussion of broad ante-bellum labor patterns, of course, does not deny variations related to different types of employment, employers, employees and communities. Presumably distinctions might be drawn among craft, skilled factory and unskilled industrial work, as well as subtler ones based on the innumerable variations within and between each craft or type of workplace. Worker tactics may have changed somewhat with the religion, sex or ethnicity of groups as well as their skills or familial situation. Managers probably crafted responses partly in relation to the size or diversity of their operation, their faith or ancestry, their situations as owners or hired agents, and their personal ties to the locale of conflict. Community response was possibly influenced by size, diversity, region and socio-religious composition. Yet workers Catholic and Protestant, foreign and native, craft and industrial, skilled and unskilled, in homes, small shops and factories, in cities, towns and rural mill settings all took part in some general practices of protection. And clearer understanding of this general pattern is necessary for more precise eventual delineation of what caused variations in it.[5]

This commonality of situation is perhaps best illustrated by an example drawn from the division where broadest variation in pattern might be expected: between unskilled labor in large factories and skilled craftsmen. For the ante-bellum years the available evidence suggests that these groups followed roughly similar tactics and patterns in defending their interests, with roughly equivalent success and failure. This suggests

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.27 - Two Mobs of Jacksonian Boston: Ideology and Interest

Theodore M. Hammett

ARTICLE	Two Mobs of Jacksonian Boston: Ideology and Interest
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Two Mobs of Jacksonian Boston: Ideology and Interest

THEODORE M. HAMMETT

THE 1830s were a decade of heightened concern with order and disorder in the United States. Immigrants, arriving in large numbers, threatened the basic homogeneity cherished by many Americans. These newcomers crowded into decaying urban sections like Boston's North End and Fort Hill. Poverty, crime, and disease were on the rise. Sectional tensions were evident, and they were exacerbated by the agitation of the abolitionists. Mob violence of various motivations—religious, ethnic, and ideological—was increasing. Mayor Samuel A. Eliot of Boston noticed a "spirit of violence" abroad in the city and in the nation.[1]

In America, an ideal of order has coexisted with a reality of disorder.[2] The nation was born of revolution (the very essence of disorder), yet its people have continually prized order and regularity to temper the flux and uncertainty of their lives.

Historians have thus far only described such tensions. To explain them,

This essay received the Organization of American Historians' Louis Pelzer Award for 1974. Theodore M. Hammett is a graduate student in Brandeis University. The author acknowledges the support of the Irving and Rose Crown Fellowship of Brandeis University.

[1] Oscar Handlin, *Boston's Immigrants 1790-1865: A Study in Acculturation* (Cambridge, 1941), 1-109, 184; David J. Rothman, *The Discovery of the Asylum: Social Order and Disorder in the New Republic* (Boston, 1971), xiii-xx, 57-264; Lorman Ratner, *Powder Keg: Northern Opposition to the Anti-Slavery Movement 1831-1840* (New York, 1968); Leonard L. Richards, *"Gentlemen of Property and Standing": Anti-Abolition Mobs in Jacksonian America* (New York, 1970), 10-19; Robert H. Lord, John E. Sexton, and Edward T. Harrington, *History of the Archdiocese of Boston: In the Various Stages of Its Development 1604 to 1943* (3 vols., Boston, 1944), II, 179-266; Ray Allen Billington, *The Protestant Crusade 1800-1860: A Study of the Origins of American Nativism* (New York, 1938), 32-117. Mayor Samuel A. Eliot's remark was made in a request for an enlarged and reorganized police force. Common Council #15, 1837, Boston *City Documents* (Boston, 1838).

[2] This is a common theme in American historiography. Michael Kammen, *People of Paradox: An Inquiry Concerning the Origins of American Civilization* (New York, 1972); Alexis De Tocqueville, *Democracy in America*, Phillips Bradley, ed. (2 vols., New York, 1945), I, 256-58, 281-82, II, 94-99, 121-24, 136-39, 243-48, 251-63, 316-21; Marvin Meyers, *The Jacksonian Persuasion: Politics and Belief* (Stanford, 1957), 24-41. For the contradictory aspects of "reform" in the middle period, see Rothman, *Discovery of the Asylum*, xiii-xx.

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scholars need to know how ideology[3] interacted with interest—economic, social, and political. A comparative analysis of two Boston mobs and of the city's reactions to them, well illustrates this interplay during the 1830s.

The mob that burned the Ursuline Convent in Charlestown on the night of August 11, 1834, was composed largely of poor Protestant laborers. The rioters were "brickmakers, sailors, firemen, apprentices, youthful hooligans, etc."—or generally men "from the poorest and most ignorant strata."[4] Although only one of the accused rioters was convicted, available evidence suggests that most of the men arrested were involved. John R. Buzzell, who stood trial as a leader of the mob, later fully confessed.[5]

A crowd of fundamentally different composition stormed the rooms of the Massachusetts Anti-Slavery Society on October 24, 1835, and chased William Lloyd Garrison through the streets. Like the anti-abolition mobs of other cities, it was made up of wealthier individuals.[6] The Boston *Commercial Gazette* described this crowd as "an assemblage of fifteen hundred or two thousand highly respectable gentlemen . . . a meeting of gentlemen of property and standing from all parts of the city."[7] Most eyewitnesses agreed, among them abolitionists Wendell Phillips, Maria Weston Chapman, and Garrison himself. There is evidence linking several wealthy merchants with inflammatory handbills that appeared the morning of the riot. Another witness described the mob as "a great multitude of neatly dressed young men . . . said at the time . . . to be merchants' clerks." Thus, while accounts differ somewhat, it is clear that this was at least a middle-class

[3] In this paper ideology is understood to mean not a rigid system of thought, but a loose pattern of overarching belief. See Bernard Bailyn, "The Central Themes of the American Revolution: An Interpretation," Stephen G. Kurtz and James H. Hutson, eds., *Essays on the American Revolution* (New York, 1973), 11. Marvin Meyers' notion of a "persuasion" is closely equivalent. Meyers, *Jacksonian Persuasion*, 5-8.

[4] Lord, Sexton, and Harrington, *Archdiocese of Boston*, II, 234; George H. Evans, *The Burning of the Mt. Benedict Ursuline Community House* (Somerville, Mass., 1934), 7. Only two of the alleged rioters arrested even approached affluence, according to tax records.

[5] "Destruction of the Charlestown Convent: Statement by the Leader of the Knownothing Mob," United States Catholic Historical Society, *Historical Records and Studies*, 12 (1918), 66-74. The trial records contain damaging testimony against all the defendants. *Trial of John R. Buzzell Before the Supreme Judicial Court of Massachusetts for Arson and Burglary in the Ursuline Convent at Charlestown* (Boston, 1834); Commonwealth of Massachusetts Supreme Court, *The Trial of Persons Charged With Burning the Convent in the Town of Charlestown (Mass.)* (Boston, 1834).

[6] Richards, *"Gentlemen of Property and Standing"*, 131-55.

[7] Boston *Commercial Gazette*, Oct. 22, 1835; Boston *Columbian Centinel*, Oct. 24, 1835; Boston *Evening Transcript*, Oct. 22, 1835; Wendell P. Garrison and Francis J. Garrison, *William Lloyd Garrison: The Story of His Life Told by His Children* (4 vols., New York, 1885-1889), II, 11n, 14, 16, 30, 33; Theodore Lyman, III, ed., *Papers Relating to the Garrison Mob* (Cambridge, 1870), 5, 34; Ellis Ames, "The Garrison Mob," *Proceedings of the Massachusetts Historical Society*, XVIII (1880-1881), 340-44.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.28 - 'The Eagle to Watch and the Harp to Tune the Nation': Irish Immigrants, Politics and Early Industrialization in Paterson, New Jersey 1824-1836

Howard Harris

ARTICLE	'The Eagle to Watch and the Harp to Tune the Nation': Irish Immigrants, Politics and Early Industrialization in Paterson, New Jersey 1824-1836
JOURNAL	Journal of Social History 23, no. 3 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 575-576
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"THE EAGLE TO WATCH AND THE HARP TO TUNE THE NATION": IRISH IMMIGRANTS, POLITICS AND EARLY INDUSTRIALIZATION IN PATERSON, NEW JERSEY 1824-1836

By Howard Harris Pennsylvania State University

The identification of artisan republicanism as an ideology of both workplace and political protest during the early and mid-nineteenth century has gained wide acceptance among historians over the past decade.[1] Most closely identified with native-born journeymen, this set of ideas guided the actions of shoemakers in Lynn, Massachusetts, carpenters in New York City, machine tool makers in Philadelphia and textile operatives in Lowell, Massachusetts. It provided the philosophical justification for their opposition to encroachments by new forms of workplace organization on long held concepts of right and privilege as well as perceived attempts to limit the political rights bequeathed them by their Revolutionary forefathers. While acknowledging the transatlantic roots of such concepts as liberty, equality and the rights of man, scholars have generally ignored the contributions of English and especially Irish immigrants to the evolution of working class republicanism in the United States.[2]

Most historians have depicted emigrants from Ireland as backward Catholic peasants devoid of any experience with urban, industrial society, prone to street rioting, drunkeness and crime. The lack of a coherent political ideology and inexperience with formal electoral politics allegedly rendered them unfit to actively participate in the building of a democratic republic rooted in an ideology of civic virtue, economic independence and personal liberty. The absence of a firm grounding in republican philosophical thought left immigrants prey to unscrupulous politicians who plied them with liquor and offered them municipal jobs in exchange for their political support.[3] While some of these assumptions may hold true for the immigrants who flooded into the United States in the aftermath of the 1848 famine, they are definitely problematic for the actions of Irish immigrants in Paterson, New Jersey in the 1820's and 1830's.

The Catholic and Protestant Irishmen who settled in Paterson during the early 1800s bear little resemblance to the stereotypical immigrants of the famine era. Many of the farmers, artisans, handloom weavers and shopkeepers from the province of Ulster who arrived in the New Jersey town, as indicated by Chart 1, came with skills, resources and a point of view about what constituted the basic rights of man.

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Chart 1.
Province of Origin
Irish Immigrants in Paterson, N.J. 1824-1836

Province	*Number of Immigrants*	*Percent*
Ulster	145	71.4
Leinster	40	19.7
Munster	14	6.9
Connacht	4	2.0
Total	**203**	**100.0**

NOTE: In addition to the 203 immigrants listed above another 87 were identified but there was no indication of their province of origin.

SOURCE: Samuel Fisher, Census of Paterson, New Jersey 1824-1832, MSS, Paterson Free Public Library, Paterson, New Jersey; U.S. Naturalization Records, Boxes 1-7, 1803-1844, Essex County, New Jersey, Boxes 1-13; 1837-1853, Passaic County, New Jersey, MF, New Jersey State Library, Trenton, New Jersey.

Familiar with the ideas and concepts underlying republicanism, they rapidly assumed a major role in the political life of the community. In Paterson that political life revolved around the growing estrangement between wage-earners and their employers which resulted from the town's growth as a center of textile and machinery production. Drawing parallels between their historical experiences at home and emerging class antagonisms in the United States, immigrants viewed voting for the Democratic Party, supporting striking mill operatives or encouraging the efforts of those they left behind to secure greater independence from England as part of a common struggle to insure individual freedom and religious liberty on both sides of the Atlantic Ocean. This essay will examine how immigrants blended the ideas and values they brought with them from Ireland with indigenous artisan republicanism to help shape the nature of popular political activity in Paterson.

Beginning with Alan Dawleys's and Paul Faler's studies of Lynn, Massachusetts, scholars have consistently linked republicanism with native born artisans, especially for the period before 1860. While this may actually have been the case in Lynn, where the Irish comprised only 12% of the population as late as 1860, it is open to question in such cities as New York or Philadelphia, which had large concentrations of Irish prior to the Famine. Between 1817 and 1830 alone, New York's Irish population increased from more than 12,000 to over 50,000, yet they have remained almost invisible in most major accounts of class development during the period.[4] Even as historians attempted to recast the image of native-born workers they continued to accept traditional notions about immigrants from Ireland. Sean Wilentz indicated that the majority of Irishmen in New York City did not generally join political or trade union activities initiated by native born journeymen.[5] According to Wilentz they did, however, participate in other forms of workplace protest that had their roots in archaic, agrarian belief systems. These sets of ideas shared little with the more urbanized, republican notions of skilled American artisans. Unlike their native-born counterparts,

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.29 - The Politics of Impatience: The Origins of Know Nothingism

Michael F. Holt

ARTICLE	The Politics of Impatience: The Origins of Know Nothingism
JOURNAL	The Journal of American History 60, no. 2 (1973)
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The Politics of Impatience: The Origins of Know Nothingism

MICHAEL F. HOLT

WHILE historians still disagree over the ultimate causes of the Civil War, most of them would concur that a major proximate cause was the political realignment of the 1850s. The collapse of the national Whig party snapped a crucial bond of union between North and South. Its replacement in the North, the Republican party, provided a powerful political vehicle for sectional hostility to the South, and Republican victory in 1860 provoked secession.

Viewed with hindsight, the reason for this political reorganization seems clear and compelling. The fragile national coalitions of Whigs and Democrats could not withstand the sectional pressure of the slavery extension issue. When that pressure was re-aggravated by the passage of the Kansas-Nebraska Act in 1854, the old parties fragmented; and the northern Republican party emerged as the major opponent of the pro-southern Democratic party. Without the slavery issue the old parties would not have split along sectional lines, the Democratic party would not have been the target of such great northern anger, and the Republican party would never have been formed.

If, however, one asks why voters deserted the Whig party at the state level, rather than why the national Whig organization was destroyed or why the Republican party emerged, it becomes apparent that the slavery issue alone cannot account for the process of realignment in the 1850s. Although the slavery issue divided northern and southern Whigs, it did not necessarily have to drive Whig voters from the party in the North, especially in the states where the Whigs were competitive with the Democrats. In the 1840s both Democrats and Whigs had divided in Congress over the Wilmot Proviso along sharp North-South lines, but rank-and-file voters in both sections had remained loyal to their old parties. The major parties in 1848 had run different campaigns in the different sections, opposing slav-

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ery extension in the North and favoring it in the South, and they had retained their voting support by this Janus-faced tactic.[1] When the Nebraska bill was first introduced in January 1854, William Henry Seward shrewdly recognized the possibilities of using the same strategy to resuscitate the Whig party which had been declining in many areas since its defeat in 1852. The elections of 1854 and 1855 were local and state elections which did not involve the national Whig organization. Northern and southern Whigs could run contradictory campaigns. Seward hoped that southern Whigs could pose as truer defenders of slavery than southern Democrats because Whig Senator Archibald Dixon of Kentucky had first proposed outright repeal of the Missouri Compromise. Northern Whigs, Seward anticipated, could blame the Democrats for sponsoring the obnoxious bill.[2] Because most northern Whigs had always opposed slavery extension, even when they divided over their response to the Fugitive Slave Act of 1850, Seward's plan made sense. Anti-Nebraska sentiment should have helped northern Whigs, not weakened them, in those crucial state and congressional elections. Whig parties in the northeastern states attempted to follow this scenario, and well into the spring of 1854 both Whig and Democratic politicians expected anti-Nebraska sentiment to unify and strengthen the Whig party.[3] Unlike 1848, however, the strategy failed. The Whigs suffered massive defections to new parties in 1854 and 1855, and by 1856 Whig organizations in northern states had virtually disappeared.

A complete analysis of the political reorganization that led to the Civil War, then, must explain why the old parties, and especially the Whigs, could not contain and exploit the slavery issue in the 1850s as they had in the 1840s. Furthermore, such an analysis must account for the actual course voters followed as they left old parties and joined new ones. Had the slav-

[1] In a study of the election of 1848 Joseph G. Rayback estimates that the Whigs held 98 percent of their 1844 vote nationally and 95 percent in the free states while the Democrats retained 86 percent nationally and 81 percent in the free states. Joseph G. Rayback, *Free Soil: The Election of 1848* (Lexington, 1970), 288.

[2] Roy F. Nichols, "The Kansas-Nebraska Act: A Century of Historiography," *Mississippi Valley Historical Review*, XLIII (Sept. 1956), 205; Glyndon G. Van Deusen, *William Henry Seward* (New York, 1967), 150. This view differs from Roy F. Nichols' interpretation of Seward's strategy by making the point that the state and congressional elections of 1854 and 1855 did not have to involve the national Whig organization.

[3] B. Thompson to Daniel Ullmann, May 16, 1854, Daniel Ullmann Papers (New York Historical Society). See also J. J. Jones to William L. Marcy, March 21, 1854, William L. Marcy Papers (Manuscript Division, Library of Congress); William E. Cramer to Caleb Cushing, Jan. 26, 1854, T. M. Parmalee to Cushing, Feb. 15, 1854, Charles W. March to Cushing, March 10, 1854, Caleb Cushing Papers (Manuscript Division, Library of Congress); Pittsburgh *Daily Gazette*, May 3, 1854. Whigs in Illinois also attempted to run as an anti-Nebraska party. Don E. Fehrenbacher, *Prelude to Greatness: Lincoln in the 1850s* (Stanford, 1962), 25-34.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.30 - From Class to Race in Early America: Northern Post-Emancipation Racial Reconstruction

Lois E. Horton

ARTICLE	From Class to Race in Early America: Northern Post-Emancipation Racial Reconstruction
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 19, no. 4 (1999)
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FROM CLASS TO RACE IN EARLY AMERICA: NORTHERN POST-EMANCIPATION RACIAL RECONSTRUCTION

Lois E. Horton

The American Revolution created an immediate break from England's political and economic control. It also marked the beginning of internal evolutionary changes in America. The Revolution began the abolition of slavery in the North, transforming the operation and meaning of class and race. Gradual emancipation strategies preserved unfree black labor just when indentures for European-American workers were disappearing, and this had important consequences for the relationship between poor blacks and poor whites. They were less likely thereafter to share a common condition and, from the perspective of white workers, were more likely to be in competition. Racial tensions were undoubtedly exacerbated as the nation moved toward its first labor surplus in the 1820s with many northern blacks occupying a middle ground of labor, neither slave nor free. A growing racial divide at the bottom of society can be traced through the institution of racially defined political statuses, violent racial conflicts, labor competition, the systematic exclusion of blacks from certain occupations, and the development of an ideology of racial inferiority. Analysis of these changes can deepen our understanding of the role of race and racism in the early republic and of the transformation of race and class.

Lois E. Horton is professor of sociology at George Mason University and coauthor with James Oliver Horton of *In Hope of Liberty: Culture, Community and Protest Among Northern Free Blacks, 1700-1860* (New York, 1997). She would like to thank colleagues David Brion Davis, Nancy Weiss Hanrahan, James O. Horton, Emma Jones Lapsansky, Jan Lewis, Joanne Pope Melish, Michael A. Morrison, and James Brewer Stewart for invaluable critiques and helpful comments on drafts of this essay.

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Part of the postrevolution story of race is well known. With abolition measures in the North and slavery's retention in the South, the country was split, and that fracture would lead to civil war. The complicated social, political, and economic changes that marked the evolution from a slaveholding to a free society in the North are less familiar. Indeed, it is only with a growing literature on northern black thought and activism, and with recent works on the phenomenon of race and color, that we have begun to understand these changes.[1] From the earliest European settlement in America, both race and class were important organizing principles. In fact, racial differentiation was the hallmark of American slavery. Typically, Native Americans and Africans were enslaved while white Europeans served defined terms as indentured servants. Additionally, colonial officials instituted policies designed to maintain racial lines. In 1656, Massachusetts removed Indians and Africans from the militia and by 1707 required them to perform alternative service. In the mid-1600s and early 1700s, Maryland, Virginia, and Massachusetts banned interracial sexual relations and marriage. Under a 1726 Pennsylvania law, a free black person could be sold into slavery for marrying a white person, while no punishment was provided for the white partner.[2]

Laws separating the races demonstrate official perceptions and concerns, but the perceived necessity for them also indicates the multiracial character of early America and the prevalence of the relationships they regulated. As historian Edmund Morgan concluded for colonial Virginia, it was not unusual for "servants and slaves to run away together, steal hogs

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[1] See, for example, James Oliver Horton and Lois E. Horton, *In Hope of Liberty: Culture, Community and Protest Among Northern Free Blacks, 1700-1860* (New York, 1997); David Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the American Working Class* (New York, 1991); Noel Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White* (New York, 1995); Joanne Pope Melish, *Disowning Slavery: Gradual Emancipation and "Race" in New England, 1780-1860* (Ithaca, 1998); Harry Reed, *Platform for Change: The Foundations of the Northern Free Black Community, 1775-1865* (East Lansing, MI, 1994); Sterling Stuckey, *Going Through the Storm: The Influence of African American Art in History* (New York, 1994); and Rita Jean Roberts, "In Quest of Autonomy: Northern Black Activism Between the Revolution and Civil War" (Ph.D. diss., University of California, Berkeley, 1988).

[2] Winthrop D. Jordan, *White Over Black: American Attitudes Toward the Negro, 1550-1812* (Chapel Hill, 1968); Nathaniel B. Shurtleff, ed., *Records of the Governor and Company of Massachusetts Bay* (5 vols., Boston, 1854), III, 397; *Acts and Resolves, Public and Private, of the Province of Massachusetts Bay* (Boston, 1869), I, 606-07, 578-79; Horton and Horton, *In Hope of Liberty*, 39; P. Bradley Nutting, "Racial Boundary Formation in Colonial Massachusetts, 1638-1707: The Origins of Statutory Discrimination," unpublished paper in possession of author; A. Leon Higginbotham, Jr., *In the Matter of Color: Race & the American Legal Process: The Colonial Period* (New York, 1978), 286.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.31 - Architecture and Culture: The Meaning of the Lowell Boarding House

Richard P. Horwitz

ARTICLE	Architecture and Culture: The Meaning of the Lowell Boarding House
JOURNAL	American Quarterly 25, no. 1 (1973)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 64-65
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RICHARD P. HORWITZ
University of Pennsylvania

Architecture and Culture: The Meaning of the Lowell Boarding House[1]

GROUCHO: Well, here's the barn!
CHICO: I don't know—maybe it's a stable, eh?
GROUCHO: If you look at it, it's a barn; if you smell it, it's a stable.
—The Marx Brothers, "Monkey Business"

IN THE 1820S A SMALL AGRICULTURAL SETTLEMENT IN EASTERN MASSAchusetts became "Spindle City." The corporation boarding house was an important aspect of that change. Whether defining a literary setting or surmising the operatives' health, residents almost invariably considered the boarding houses. They were an assumed factor, somehow central to the Lowell experience and, therefore, somehow central to our understanding of that experience. My purpose is to learn the meaning of those boarding houses in the early 19th century, their relationship to the Lowellite's world view.

Such a study presupposes some knowledge of the structures themselves, what they mean to us.[2] Few early buildings or plans remain, but they

[1]I would like to thank Patrick M. Malone of Brown University and John L. Caughey, Ann K. Levy and Anthony F. C. Wallace of the University of Pennsylvania for their assistance in the preparation of this paper. I am also indebted to the Lowell Historical Society and Lowell Technological Institute Library.

[2]This is an ethical as well as epistemological premise. "In the sense in which a man can ever be said to be at home in the world, he is at home not through dominating, or explaining, or appreciating, but through caring and being cared for.... To care for another person, I must be able to understand him and his world as if I were inside it. I must be able to see, as it were, with his eyes what his world is like to him and how he sees himself. Instead of merely looking at him in a detached way from outside, as if he were a specimen, I must be able to be *with* him in his world, 'going' into his world in order to sense from 'inside' what life is like for him, what he is striving to be, and what he requires to grow. But only because I understand and respond to my own needs to grow can I understand his striving to grow; I can understand in another only what I can understand in myself." Milton Mayeroff, *On Caring* (New York: Harper and Row, 1971), pp. 2, 41–42.

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are recreated in the photographs and drawings of *Mill and Mansion.*[3] John Coolidge probably offers the most thorough and accurate description to date of Lowell architecture and its place in design evolution. Yet from its 20th century perspective the book may serve only as a point of departure in discovering the significance of the built environment for its contemporaries. The problem is, as Amos Rapoport puts it, "Whose meaning in architecture?": "I would suggest that we have generally tended to consider the meaning that it has for the architect or at least the cognoscenti, the critics, those in the know, and have also assumed that there is a single meaning, rather than a multiplicity of meanings. The question I would pose is the following—what meaning does the built environment have for the public, for its inhabitants and users?"[4]

In order to understand the historic meaning of the boarding houses, one must study the minds of the Lowellites themselves, their modes of perception, evaluation and response.[5] Clearly their images of the built environment may be different from our own. Since significant differences in building images have been documented between groups within contemporary America, it seems highly probable that profound image differences exist between contemporary and 19th century Americans.[6] The central methodological problem, then, is to translate images of related stimuli, the boarding houses as perceived by early Lowellites, and those remaining, physically or in Coolidge's writing, as we perceive them today. By

[3]John Coolidge, *Mill and Mansion, A Study of Architecture and Society in Lowell, Mass. 1820–1865* (New York: Columbia Univ. Press, 1942).

[4]"Whose Meaning in Architecture?" *Interbuild/Arena,* 14/83 (Oct. 1969), 44. See also Amos Rapoport, *House Form and Culture* (Englewood Cliffs, N.J.: Prentice-Hall, 1969).

[5]In the terminology of Kenneth L. Pike, I am expounding the "emic" approach and criticizing Coolidge for his more "etic" approach in *Mill and Mansion.* The distinction, now famous in anthropological literature, is that the "emic" approach "is an attempt to *discover* and to describe the pattern of the particular language or culture in reference to the way in which the various elements of that culture are related to each other in the functioning of the particular pattern, rather than an attempt to describe them in reference to a generalized classification derived in advance of the study of that particular culture." *Language in Relation to a Unified Theory of the Structure of Human Behavior* (Glendale, Calif.: Summer Institute of Linguistics, 1954), I, 8. For a fuller explanation of the emic-etic distinction see Pike, "Etic and Emic Standpoints for the Description of Behavior," in Alfred G. Smith, ed., *Communication and Culture: Readings in the Codes of Human Interaction* (New York: Holt, Rinehart, & Winston, 1966), pp. 152–63; and Ward H. Goodenough, *Description and Comparison in Cultural Anthropology* (Chicago: Aldine, 1970), particularly chap. 4.

[6]The problem of perspective in architecture is of growing concern. See, for example Rapoport, "Whose Meaning in Architecture?", pp. 44–46; William Michelson, "Most People Don't Want What Architects Want," *Trans-action,* 5 (July/Aug. 1968), 37–43; and Lee Rainwater, "Fear and the House as Haven in the Lower Class," *Journal of the American Institute of Planners,* 32 (Jan. 1966), 23–31.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.32 - 'The White Slave of the North': Lowell Mill Women and the Reproduction of 'Free' Labor

Julie Husband

ARTICLE	'The White Slave of the North': Lowell Mill Women and the Reproduction of 'Free' Labor
JOURNAL	Legacy 16, no. 1 (1999)
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"The White Slave of the North": Lowell Mill Women and the Reproduction of "Free" Labor

Julie Husband
State University of New York, Buffalo

In her first attempt to represent female factory workers to a critical public, Harriet Farley, future editor of the *Lowell Offering*, attacked Orestes Brownson, transcendentalist reformer and 1840 presidential candidate, for his "slander" of working-class women. In a lengthy piece entitled "The Laboring Classes," part of a series of controversial articles articulating his electoral platform, Brownson equated independence with an individual's ownership of the means of production, a cornerstone of American republicanism in the early nineteenth century. He contested the characterization of wage laborers as "free" workers en route to becoming self-employed farmers, craftsmen or professionals. Challenging those who would view with equanimity the shift from artisan to industrial capitalism in the United States, he asked, "[I]s there a reasonable chance that any considerable portion of the present generation of laborers, shall ever become owners of a sufficient portion of the funds of production, to be able to sustain themselves by laboring on their own capital, that is, as independent laborers? . . . [E]verybody knows there is not" (371). Without this form of independence, Brownson went on to argue, American workers faced a degradation worse than African American slavery.

Harriet Farley might have been expected to agree with Brownson. By 1840, she had worked in the Lowell mills for eight years, during which time the mills had reduced wages, imposed work speed-ups, increased rents at the company-owned boarding houses where most of the female operatives lived, and defeated two strikes by the women. Farley's rebuttal to Brownson—and many of her future editorials—expressed concern over deteriorating pay and work conditions for women at the mills. At the same time, Farley and most of the other writers for the *Lowell Offering* resisted representations of the mills that conflated the mill's harsh environment with the degradation of women workers.[1] To defend women's decisions to work in the mills, Farley developed an alternative to Brownson's masculinist definition of independence, one informed by both her experience as a mill operative and as the daughter of a farmer. She repeatedly claimed that wage-labor in

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the mills offered greater independence than did women's lives on family-owned farms.

Taking a page from the anti-slavery feminists, the first sustained women's movement in the country, mill women used the tropes of the anti-slavery campaign to refigure their rural lives as lives of dependence and domestic servitude not unlike slavery. If wage labor in the mills was restrictive and exploitive, so, too, was farm labor for women, even on family farms. Independence based on capital ownership was elusive, at best, for women. By building on the campaign of the anti-slavery feminists, writers for the *Lowell Offering* formed an alternative to Orestes Brownson's masculinist discourse of class.

Brownson's article suggested that factory women participated in not one but two marketplaces and that when they bartered their labor they also bartered their marriageability; thus, she who sought to profit in the labor market might lose all in the marriage market. "Few of them ever marry"; he wrote, "fewer still ever return to their native places with reputations unimpaired. 'She has worked in a Factory,' is almost enough to damn to infamy the most worthy and virtuous girl" (370). Leaving her family to live in the factory-owned boarding houses in Lowell, a woman also left the protection of her family, and, according to Brownson, she was widely believed to fall victim to predatory city men. Derived from characterizations of British factories, the premiere nineteenth-century example of a degraded and exploited working-class, it was this picture of promiscuous female workers that the *Lowell Offering* was devoted to stamping out.[2]

When Farley responded to Brownson in the pages of the *Lowell Offering*, she left unanswered Brownson's claim that factory wages were insufficient for operatives, male or female, to establish themselves on independent farms or in businesses. Nor did she comment on the health and working conditions of operatives. Instead, in an essay which would set the tone for her later editorship of the *Lowell Offering*, Farley offered a definition of independence at odds with Brownson's:

> And whom has Mr. Brownson slandered? . . . [G]irls who generally come from quiet country homes where their minds and manners have been formed under the eyes of the worthy sons of Pilgrims and their virtuous partners and who return again to become the wives of the free intelligent yeomenry of New England and the mothers of quite a proportion of our future republicans. ("Factory Girl" 17)

Farley defended female operatives by removing them from their factory context and by downplaying their independence from family ties. Positioning them back in their rural homes, "under the eyes" of their fathers, husbands, and sons, Farley secured their reputations by denying their autonomy in the Lowell mills. Farley insisted, however, that female factory operatives achieved independence vicariously, through their family connections. She further argued that they chose to exercise their independence by "voluntarily assuming" certain "restraints":

> [I]t has been asserted that to put ourselves under the influence and restraints of corporate bodies is contrary to the spirit of our institutions and to the love of independence we ought to cherish. There is a spirit of independence which is averse to social life itself and I would advise all those [who] wish to cherish it to go far beyond the Rocky Mountains and hold communion with none but the untamed Indian and the wild beast of the forest. (17)

If Brownson used a racialized metaphor to characterize white, working-class women as degraded, Farley responded in kind. Both the black slave and the "untamed Indian"

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.33 - Taking Sabbatarianism Seriously: The Postal System, the Sabbath, and the Transformation of American Political Culture

Richard R. John

ARTICLE	Taking Sabbatarianism Seriously: The Postal System, the Sabbath, and the Transformation of American Political Culture
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 10, no. 4 (1990)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 517-518
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TAKING SABBATARIANISM SERIOUSLY: THE POSTAL SYSTEM, THE SABBATH, AND THE TRANSFORMATION OF AMERICAN POLITICAL CULTURE

Richard R. John

Between 1810 and 1830, thousands of Americans joined in a moral crusade to protest the complicity of the federal government in a practice they deemed offensive to God. According to Lyman Beecher, one of the most influential evangelical preachers of his day, the issue was "perhaps the most important that ever was, or ever will be submitted for national consideration."[1] The protest was unprecedented. Never before had the federal government interfered so directly with the rhythms of everyday life. Never before had so many Americans formally challenged the authority of their elected

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Richard R. John is currently a visiting assistant professor of history and a postdoctoral fellow at the Commonwealth Center for the Study of American Culture at the College of William and Mary. He has recently completed a prize-winning dissertation at Harvard University on the American postal system, public policy, and political culture in the early republic. He would like to dedicate this essay to the memory of Stephen Botein. He gratefully acknowledges the advice and suggestions of many generous friends and scholars, including Robert H. Abzug, Andrea L. Charters, Karl Eschbach, Calvet M. Hahn, Robert Dalton Harris, Daniel Walker Howe, Kathleen Smith Kutolowski, Katherine Layzer, James R. Rohrer, Randolph A. Roth, and Bertram Wyatt-Brown.

[1] Lyman Beecher, "Pre-eminent Importance of the Christian Sabbath," *National Preacher*, 3 (Mar. 1829), 156.

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representatives to legislate on matters touching on deeply held religious beliefs.

For those unfamiliar with the political culture of the early republic, the object of this protest might come as something of a surprise. The protesters were Sabbatarians, and their goal was to prevent the federal government from desecrating the Sabbath by requiring that the mails be transported and the post offices open to the public seven days a week.[2]

Given the character and scale of the protest, one might suppose that historians would long ago have chronicled its origins and analyzed its import. After all, since the 1960s the ''ethnocultural school'' of political historians has documented the pivotal role of religious belief in shaping the ''cultural pattern'' of American politics, while practitioners of the ''new'' social history have highlighted the persistence of localistic resistance to central authority as a recurring theme in the American past.

Yet to a startling degree, the controversy over Sabbath mails has yet to find its historian. The first phase of the protest (1809-1817) has been almost entirely ignored, while its second phase (1826-1830) has been considered almost exclusively from the standpoint of its most outspoken detractors. In the *Age of Jackson* (1945), Arthur Schlesinger, Jr., blithely dismissed the protest in a sentence, declaring that ''few people . . . took the question very seriously.'' Almost a half century later, remarkably little has changed.[3]

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[2] Throughout this essay, I have generally refrained from referring to the biblical Sabbath as Sunday. In doing so, I have tried to be faithful to nineteenth-century usage. For Sabbatarians and anti-Sabbatarians alike, the Sabbath had a rich symbolic meaning that it has subsequently lost. Phrases like ''Sunday mails'' fail to convey this meaning, and have been avoided. The term ''Sabbatarian'' itself deserves a brief word of explanation. During the first half of the nineteenth century, this term was often used to describe seventh-day Baptists and others who, like the Jews, observed the Sabbath on the seventh-day (i.e., Saturday). In keeping with what has become the twentieth-century historical convention, I shall use the term to describe everyone who opposed the desecration of the first day (i.e., Sunday).

[3] Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Boston 1945), 143. On the first phase of the protest, see Fred J. Hood, *Reformed America: The Middle and Southern States, 1783-1837* (University, Ala. 1980), 97-101, and Oliver W. Holmes, ''Sunday Travel and Sunday Mails: A Question Which Troubled Our Forefathers,'' *New York History*, 20 (Oct. 1939), 413-415. On the second phase, see Bertram Wyatt-Brown, ''Prelude to Abolitionism: Sabbatarian Politics and the Rise of the Second Party System,'' *Journal of American History*, 58 (Sept. 1971), 316-341; Paul E. Johnson, *A Shopkeeper's Millennium: Society and Revivals in Rochester, New York, 1815-1837* (New York 1978), 83-88; James R. Rohrer, ''Sunday Mails and the Church-State Theme

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.34 - New York City Tavern Violence and the Creation of a Working-Class Male Identity

Michael Kaplan

ARTICLE	New York City Tavern Violence and the Creation of a Working-Class Male Identity
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NEW YORK CITY TAVERN VIOLENCE AND THE CREATION OF A WORKING-CLASS MALE IDENTITY

Michael Kaplan

On the evening of December 29, 1829, Barney Murphy peacefully drank a pint of wine at the Citizen's Retreat. Suddenly two other clients at this neighborhood tavern, John Bufsing and William Kinkaid, dragged Murphy into the center of the barroom, ''cutting his face'' with a knife ''in a shocking manner.'' Although tavern keeper James C. Smith broke up the fight, Murphy later returned with his wife Margaret and his brother James, along with a group of neighbors. They beat Kinkaid in the street and then tried to enter the tavern. Smith refused to let them come in. The enraged crowd threw stones at the tavern, breaking windows and forcing the tavern keeper ''to retreat with his family to the cellar for safety.''[1]

Michael Kaplan, who will receive a Ph.D. from New York University in January 1966, is completing a study of violence and political culture in New York. He would especially like to thank his mentor Carl Prince, his other teachers at N. Y. U., Patricia Bonomi, David Reimers, and Daniel Walkowitz, as well as those who offered comments at different stages of this essay's writing: Thomas Curran, Robert Ernst, Jeff Finlay, Robert Forbes, Timothy Gilfoyle, Paul Gilje, Stephen Goot, Anthony Gronowicz, Graham Hodges, John Inscoe, Anya Jabour, Steven Jaffe, Richard John, Walter Johnson, Catherine Kelly, Lelia Roeckell, Randolph Roth, Edward Tang, and Shane White. Thanks also to the editors and referees of the *Journal* for their suggestions.

[1] *People* v. *Barney Murphy et al.*, Jan. 12, 1830, District Attorney's Indictment Papers, New York Court of General Sessions (New York Municipal Archives). For Mike Walsh's comments on the participation of women in neighborhood violence, see *The Subterranean* (New York), Feb. 13, 1847. See also *People* v. *Elizabeth Burns*, July 15, 1841, District Attorney's Indictment Papers.

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Tavern violence was central to the life of the urban workingman. Historians such as Paul Gilje, Elliott Gorn, and Christine Stansell have started to show us the importance of violence in working-class formation and the development of New York City.[2] However, researchers focusing on political, racial, or gender-related conflict have tended to assign a secondary role to tavern violence, treating tavern brawls as something apart from these larger social issues. Yet the explosive growth in the number of taverns between 1830 and 1860, their roles as centers of working-class recreation and social life, and the corresponding increase in the frequency of tavern disturbances like the one above suggest that tavern violence embodied the major threads of social conflict and change in the antebellum city. Tavern disturbances helped define the new, democratic, urban working-class culture of the mid-nineteenth century. Such brawls fostered a distinct working-class male identity that was centered on the boisterous public assertion of physical courage, independence, class pride, and American patriotism. Both native-born and immigrant workingmen contributed to forging this identity, the massive scale of antebellum immigration only adding intensity to the process. As the ''walking city'' broke down and communities re-formed along class, race and ethnic lines, the tavern emerged as a locus of these new working-class communities. Disturbances in taverns often revealed the day-to-day stresses generated in these communities by urban growth and disorder.[3]

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[2] Paul A. Gilje, *The Road to Mobocracy: Popular Disorder In New York City, 1763-1834* (Chapel Hill, 1987); Elliott J. Gorn, '''Good-Bye Boys, I Die a True American': Homicide, Nativism, and Working-Class Culture in Antebellum New York City,'' *Journal of American History*, 74 (Sept. 1987), 388-410; Christine Stansell, *City of Women: Sex and Class in New York, 1789-1860* (New York, 1986). Other important studies of violence include, Carl E. Prince, ''The Great 'Riot Year': Jacksonian Democracy and Patterns of Violence in 1834,'' *Journal of the Early Republic*, 5 (Spring 1985), 1-19; Paul O. Weinbaum, *Mobs and Demagogues: The New York Response to Collective Violence in the Early Nineteenth Century* (Ann Arbor, 1979); David Grimsted, ''Rioting in Its Jacksonian Setting,'' *American Historical Review*, 77 (Apr. 1972), 361-97; and Pamela Haag, ''The 'Ill-Use of a Wife': Patterns of Working-Class Violence in Domestic and Public New York City, 1860-1880,'' *Journal of Social History*, 25 (Spring 1992), 447-77.

[3] On the construction of male identity in the nineteenth century, see Mark C. Carnes and Clyde Griffen, eds., *Meanings for Manhood: Constructions of Masculinity in Victorian America* (Chicago, 1990); David Leverenz, *Manhood and the American Renais-*

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.35 - Households and Markets: Toward a New Synthesis of American Agrarian History

Allan Kulikoff

ARTICLE	Households and Markets: Toward a New Synthesis of American Agrarian History
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Households and Markets: Toward a New Synthesis of American Agrarian History

Allan Kulikoff

THREE-FOURTHS or more of early Americans of European and African descent lived in the countryside and worked on farms or plantations. Until recently, their stories as farmers or farmhands have rarely been told. Agricultural historians analyzed crop production, land and commodity markets, settlement and credit; social historians described family life and community institutions in villages, often without mentioning farming.[1] After a fallow period during the 1960s and 1970s, when little innovative agrarian history was published, the past decade has brought a renaissance in the study of agrarian life, with a profusion of studies ranging from the colonial era through the nineteenth century. These studies are both rural—dealing with the societies farmers made—and agricultural—treating farm production, seasonal cycles, the market for farm products, and the world economy. They have uncovered in rich detail the lives of farm families, the ecologies they found and made, the social ideals they sustained, the cooperation and struggles between husbands and wives they enjoyed and suffered, their agricultural work routines and leisure activities, their churches and farm associations.[2]

This literature resists synthesis. Agrarian history is so divided by topic, epoch, and region that the patterns of development (even within regions) are obscured. The new agrarian history is diffuse, for many of the key

Mr. Kulikoff is a member of the Department of History, Northern Illinois University. He was a Fellow of the Institute of Early American History and Culture from 1975 to 1977. He would like to thank Stanley Engerman, Russell R. Menard, James Merrell, Sean Shesgreen, and Xie Lihong for comments on an earlier version of this essay.

[1] Classic agricultural histories include Lewis Cecil Gray, *History of Agriculture in the Southern United States to 1860,* 2 vols. (Washington, D. C., 1933), Paul W. Gates, *Landlords and Tenants on the Prairie Frontier: Studies in American Land Policy* (Ithaca, N. Y., 1973), and Allan G. Bogue, *From Prairie to Cornbelt: Farming on the Illinois and Iowa Prairies in the Nineteenth Century* (Chicago, 1963). The Gates and Bogue volumes were culminations of earlier innovative work.

[2] See, for instance, essays in Steven Hahn and Jonathan Prude, eds., *The Countryside in the Age of Capitalist Transformation* (Chapel Hill, N. C., 1985), and Lou Ferleger, ed., *Agriculture and National Development: Views on the Nineteenth Century* (Ames, Iowa, 1990); Jeremy Atack and Fred Bateman, *To Their Own Soil: Agriculture in the Antebellum North* (Ames, Iowa, 1987); Carolyn Merchant, *Ecological Revolutions: Nature, Gender, and Science in New England* (Chapel Hill, N. C., 1989); and Allan Kulikoff, *Tobacco and Slaves: The Development of Southern Cultures in the Chesapeake, 1680–1800* (Chapel Hill, N. C., 1986).

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works are local or subregional studies that inevitably slight regional and international economic trends. Even though agrarian historians seldom look outside their own time periods, understanding the *longue durée* is fundamental to understanding any particular era. Western settlers in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, for instance, experienced economic, demographic, and social challenges that their colonial predecessors had faced.[3]

The metaphors historians have used to explicate agrarian history—colonial and antebellum eras, the market, the frontier, and community—are incomplete and imprecise. We think of such terms as convenient labels or as analytical categories rather than as metaphors. But like metaphors they evoke comparisons beyond themselves. "Colonial," for instance, conjures up images of isolated white settlements, Indian wars, fervent—if intellectual—religiosity. These terms have become part of the shorthand historians use almost unconsciously to sort material and thereby structure research, addressing certain issues while sidestepping others. To show how agrarian historians' metaphors fail to be at once rural and agricultural we will analyze each term—period labels, the market, frontier, community—as metaphor. Then, we will suggest that the metaphor "households and markets" is a superior formulation and show how it can periodize agrarian history.

Our labels for time periods—this or that century, colonial, Revolutionary, antebellum, postbellum—are perhaps our most invidious metaphors. Periods raise barriers; historians choose a period and rarely look before or after, except to make short summaries. Standard periods, linked to events in political history, impede understanding of change. Rural historians, beginning at different times, tell the same story of raw frontiers and developing communities, of declension from communalism or the imposition of order, of the rise of the market and the growth of wage labor. If farmers in antebellum Pennsylvania, for instance, participated in a market revolution, then by implication the market was unimportant in earlier times. Such a period-based argument distorts the growth of commercial agriculture in eighteenth-century Pennsylvania as well as the way the market shaped colonial New England fisheries or Chesapeake tobacco plantations. Until we overcome the barriers of traditional periods, we will never learn how wage labor grew or when the market engulfed the nation. Beginning with the discrete data of economic, social, and demographic history, we ought to be able to create a new set of periods, calibrated to regional differences and linked to patterns of change.[4]

"The market" has been a powerful metaphor in the history of American

[3] John J. McCusker and Russell R. Menard, *The Economy of British America, 1607–1789* (Chapel Hill, N. C., 1985), and Kulikoff, *The Agrarian Origins of American Capitalism* (Charlottesville, Va., 1992), synthesize early American agrarian history, albeit from very different perspectives.

[4] For similar comments on periodization see P.M.G. Harris, "The Social Origins of American Leaders: The Demographic Foundations," *Perspectives in American History,* III (1969), 159–344.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.36 - The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America

Allan Kulikoff

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The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America

Allan Kulikoff

IN 1904 Max Weber read a paper comparing European and American agrarian society at the International Congress of Arts and Sciences, held as part of the Louisiana Purchase Exposition in St. Louis, Missouri. Weber, who had traveled across America for three months before the meeting, visiting both cities and farms, contrasted the feudal social relations still found in parts of Europe with capitalist agriculture in the United States. European peasants had traditionally produced to support a seigneurial class and to supply their own needs. "The past two thousand years," he concluded, "did not train the peasant to produce in order to gain profit." In contrast, "the American farmer is an entrepreneur like any other" and had long since become "a rationally producing small agriculturist." This was especially true in northern wheat-producing areas, where a farmer was "a mere businessman" who believed in "absolute economic individualism." The Civil War had destroyed the "aristocratic, social, and political centers of the rural districts," thereby consolidating capitalist agriculture.[1]

The issues Weber raised have been a mainstay in agricultural history for over half a century. Early debates revolved around questions of subsistence agriculture and self-sufficiency on northern farms in the colonies and the new nation and the timing of the development of commercial

Mr. Kulikoff is a member of the Department of History at Northern Illinois University. Acknowledgments: versions of this essay were presented to seminars at Northern Illinois University, Colgate University, the Newberry Library, and the University of Chicago. It was expertly criticized at these meetings by William Beik, Edward Cook, Kathleen Conzen, Robin Einhorn, Mary Furner, C. H. George, Susan Rugh, Robert St. George, and Daniel Scott Smith. I would particularly like to thank Stanley Engerman, Robert Margo, Marvin Rosen, and Sean Wilentz for extensive and valuable comments. Elizabeth Fox-Genovese has nurtured every aspect of this project, including this essay, providing detailed comments, superb theoretical insights, and analytical criticism.

[1] Max Weber, "Capitalism and Rural Society in Germany," in H. H. Gerth and C. Wright Mills, trans. and eds., *From Max Weber: Essays in Sociology* (New York, 1946), 363-385, quotations on pp. 365, 363, 366, 364, 369. Weber's American travels are detailed in Henry Walter Brann, "Max Weber and the United States," *Southwestern Social Science Quarterly,* XXV (1944), 18-30, and the exposition congress is examined in A. W. Coats, "American Scholarship Comes of Age: The Louisiana Purchase Exposition 1904," *Journal of the History of Ideas,* XXII (1961), 404-417.

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agriculture. Using aggregate data, historians in the 1950s and 1960s developed descriptions of a dominant commercial economy that replaced the earlier prevailing view that most northern farmers subsisted outside the market. A second debate, over the existence of capitalist economic relations on southern plantations, began in the 1960s with Eugene D. Genovese's challenge of the easy identification of staple agriculture with capitalism.[2]

During the past decade, American historians and historical economists have participated in a reinvigorated discussion of the temporal and agrarian origins of American capitalism. Focusing on family farmers in the Northeast and the upland South, these scholars have emphasized the meaning of capitalism, the character of rural economic exchange, and the degree of market participation—issues generally missing in the earlier northern debate. Participants have not only borrowed theories from neoclassical economics, Marxian economics, and cultural anthropology, but they have produced a substantial body of empirical research based on systematic examination of individual-level data (like account books) neglected by earlier scholars.[3]

This essay seeks to describe this new debate over the transition to rural capitalism, assess its achievements, critique its deficiencies, and suggest a plausible way to overcome problems the debate has raised. The subject

[2] Winifred B. Rothenberg, "The Market and Massachusetts Farmers, 1750-1855," *Journal of Economic History,* XLI (1981), 283-285, summarizes the earlier northern debate; for the southern debate see Genovese, *The World the Slaveholders Made: Two Essays in Interpretation* (New York, 1969), esp. pt. I, and (in contrast) James Oakes, *The Ruling Race: A History of American Slaveholders* (New York, 1982).

[3] Among the key essays in the debate are Michael Merrill, "Cash Is Good to Eat: Self-Sufficiency and Exchange in the Rural Economy of the United States," *Radical History Review,* No. 3 (1977), 42-71; James A. Henretta, "Families and Farms: *Mentalité* in Pre-Industrial America," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 3d Ser., XXXV (1978), 3-32; Christopher Clark, "The Household Economy, Market Exchange, and the Rise of Capitalism in the Connecticut Valley, 1800-1860," *Journal of Social History,* XIII (1979), 169-189; Steven Hahn and Jonathan Prude, eds., *The Countryside in the Age of Capitalist Transformation: Essays in the Social History of Rural America* (Chapel Hill, N.C., 1985), esp. the editors' introduction, 3-21; Gregory Nobles, "Capitalism in the Countryside: The Transformation of Rural Society in the United States," *Rad. Hist. Rev.,* No. 41 (1988), 163-177; Rothenberg, "Market and Massachusetts Farmers," *Jour. Econ. Hist.,* XLI (1981), 283-314, and "The Emergence of a Capital Market in Rural Massachusetts, 1730-1838," *ibid.,* XLV (1985), 781-808; James T. Lemon, "Early Americans and Their Social Environment," *Journal of Historical Geography,* VI (1980), 115-131; Joyce Appleby, "Commercial Farming and the 'Agrarian Myth' in the Early Republic," *Journal of American History,* LXVIII (1982), 833-849; and Bettye Hobbs Pruitt, "Self-Sufficiency and the Agricultural Economy of Eighteenth-Century Massachusetts," *WMQ,* 3d Ser., XLI (1984), 333-364. This article cites examples from the growing literature on the debate rather than providing a full list of citations for each point.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.37 - Rethinking the Transition to Capitalism in the Early American Northeast

Naomi R. Lamoreaux

ARTICLE	Rethinking the Transition to Capitalism in the Early American Northeast
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Rethinking the Transition to Capitalism in the Early American Northeast

Naomi R. Lamoreaux

When and how did the American economy acquire its capitalist character? During the late 1970s Michael Merrill, James A. Henretta, and Christopher Clark published influential articles challenging the notion "that Americans had been 'capitalists' since the first colonial settlements." Using evidence from farmers' account books as well as probate records and other sources documenting rural life, they argued that farmers' economic behavior in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries was not compatible with conventional notions of capitalist exchange—that the transactions farmers recorded in their account books were not mediated by money, that the credits rural producers granted each other did not circulate as means of exchange, that farmers typically did not charge each other interest on debts, that they engaged in a wide variety of cooperative activities, that they made decisions that put family and community before profit, and that their goal was to achieve a competence, rather than to accumulate capital.[1]

Naomi R. Lamoreaux is professor of history and economics at the University of California, Los Angeles, and research associate at the National Bureau of Economic Research (NBER). Many scholars have given her helpful comments on earlier drafts of this article, even though they have not always agreed with the argument. She would like to thank Robert Allen, Thomas Allen, Lee Alston, Joyce Appleby, Randolph Arguelles, Stephen Aron, Ruth Bloch, Christopher Clark, Sally Clarke, Paul Clemens, Barry Cohen, Cynthia Culver, Lawrence Culver, Ellen DuBois, Marc Egnal, Rebecca Emigh, Stanley Engerman, Price Fishback, Louis Galambos, Thomas Haskell, James Henretta, Lynn Hunt, Margaret Jacob, Sanford Jacoby, Richard John, David Lamoreaux, John Laslett, Juliette Levy, Gary Libecap, John Majewski, Chelsea Neel, D'Artagnan Phares, Rosalind Remer, Arthur Rolston, Troy Rondinone, Jean-Laurent Rosenthal, Matthew Roth, Winifred Rothenberg, Carol Sheriff, Frank Smith, Kenneth Sokoloff, Michael Soller, Alan Taylor, Peter Temin, Daniel Vickers, John Wallis, Matthew Wiswall, Gordon Wood, Kariann Yakota, Mary Yeager, Peter Yelavich, Henry Yu, several anonymous referees, and participants in a University of Texas Conference on Markets, Commerce, and Culture, the NBER Summer Institute, the Johns Hopkins University's history department seminar, the UCLA sociology department's Comparative Social Analysis Workshop, the UCLA history department's American Field Colloquium, and annual meetings of the Business History Conference and the Society for Historians of the Early Republic. She would also like to thank Joanne Meyerowitz and her editorial staff (in particular, Susan Armeny, Lori Creed, Kevin Marsh, and Don Maxwell) for their excellent suggestions and work on the manuscript and the National Endowment for the Humanities and the American Council of Learned Societies for financial support.

Readers may contact Lamoreaux at <lamoreaux@econ.ucla.edu>.

[1] Michael Merrill, "Cash Is Good to Eat: Self-Sufficiency and Exchange in the Rural Economy of the United States," *Radical History Review,* 3 (Fall 1976), 42–71; James A. Henretta, "Families and Farms: *Mentalité* in Pre-Industrial America," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 35 (Jan. 1978), 3–32; Christopher Clark, "Household Economy, Market Exchange, and the Rise of Capitalism in the Connecticut Valley, 1800–1860," *Journal of Social History,* 13 (Winter 1979), 169–89. See also Christopher Clark, *The Roots of Rural Capitalism: Western Massachusetts,*

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In a study first published in the *Journal of Economic History* in 1981, Winifred B. Rothenberg mounted a powerful challenge to the claims of these "moral-economy historians." Using econometric techniques to analyze entries in account books, she argued that farmers in late-eighteenth-century Massachusetts behaved just like rational economic actors. They sought out the highest prices for their crops. They adjusted their product mix to market prices. They also made incremental but steady improvements to their farming practices that substantially raised agricultural productivity.[2]

Although Rothenberg's rejoinder touched off a heated debate that continued well into the 1990s, her work also provided the basis for the emergence of a new consensus.[3] Because her research suggested that farmers were more market oriented in the late eighteenth century than they had earlier been, it was embraced by the moral-economy historians as evidence for the timing of the transition to capitalism, effectively ending the debate. Most historians now agree that there was such a transition in the American countryside during the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries and that it was associated with the social and political upheaval of the American Revolution.[4]

This resolution of the debate is unsatisfactory because it glosses over the substantial disagreements that remain about the process of transformation itself. In Rothenberg's view, farmers were agents of change. Released from the constraints that political and religious authorities had imposed on their behavior, they increasingly pursued their economic advantage, generating the productivity increases that allowed "a decreasing share of the labor force to feed an increasingly nonagricultural population" and delivering "savings accumulated in the rural economy to the burgeoning insurance, banking, manufacturing, and infrastructure sectors." The moral-economy historians, in contrast, see farmers more as acted upon. According to Henretta, in New England it was primarily "merchants and entrepreneurs [who] had expanded their activities and devised new capitalist institutional structures." Farmers participated in the ensuing changes but they did so willy-nilly, their lives "increasingly intertwined in a market system that altered their behavior and values." Although Clark recognized that demographic pressures in the countryside played a crucial role

1780–1860 (Ithaca, 1990), esp. 9.

[2] Winifred B. Rothenberg, "The Market and Massachusetts Farmers, 1750–1855," *Journal of Economic History,* 41 (June 1981), 283–314. See also Winifred Barr Rothenberg, *From Market-Places to a Market Economy: The Transformation of Rural Massachusetts, 1750–1850* (Chicago, 1992), 214–40.

[3] The literature is vast, but for overviews of the debate, see Allan Kulikoff, "The Transition to Capitalism in Rural America," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 46 (Jan. 1989), 120–44; Christopher Clark, "Economics and Culture: Opening Up the Rural History of the Early American Northeast," *American Quarterly,* 43 (June 1991), 279–301; Michael Merrill, "Putting 'Capitalism' in Its Place: A Review of Recent Literature," *William and Mary Quarterly,* 52 (April 1995), 315–26; and Gordon S. Wood, "The Enemy Is Us: Democratic Capitalism in the Early Republic," *Journal of the Early Republic,* 16 (Summer 1996), 293–308.

[4] See Gordon S. Wood, "Was America Born Capitalist?," *Wilson Quarterly,* 23 (Spring 1999), 36–46. The new synthesis owes much to Wood's work. See especially Gordon S. Wood, *The Radicalism of the American Revolution* (New York, 1992). For examples of the new synthesis, see Clark, *Roots of Rural Capitalism;* James A. Henretta, *The Origins of American Capitalism: Collected Essays* (Boston, 1991); and Allan Kulikoff, *From British Peasants to Colonial American Farmers* (Chapel Hill, 2000). Merrill remains a dissenter. See Merrill, "Putting 'Capitalism' in Its Place"; and Michael Merrill, "The Anticapitalist Origins of the United States," *Fernand Braudel Center Review,* 13 (Fall 1990), 465–97.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.38 - 'Bind the Republic Together': The National Union and the Struggle for a System of Internal Improvements

John Lauritz Larson

ARTICLE	'Bind the Republic Together': The National Union and the Struggle for a System of Internal Improvements
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"Bind the Republic Together": The National Union and the Struggle for a System of Internal Improvements

John Lauritz Larson

On February 4, 1817, South Carolina Congressman John C. Calhoun rose to debate a bill pledging the "bonus" due the government from the new national bank to a fund for improving the nation's roads and canals. The idea was far from new: George Washington, Alexander Hamilton, Thomas Jefferson, Albert Gallatin, James Madison, and many other American founders had called for systematic internal improvements since before the creation of the Republic. At last, it seemed to Calhoun, the time was right to overcome all previous doubts and to step forward boldly with this great national objective. Hoping to disarm his detractors, he first observed that "it seemed the fate of some measures, to be praised, but not passed."[1] The comment was prophetic, for neither the Bonus Bill nor any other nationwide system of internal improvements passed into law in Calhoun's lifetime. Congress favored the bill in 1817, but the president condemned it as unconstitutional. Later Congresses failed to adopt a system or an amendment permitting one. Proposals for a system of internal improvements did not fail for want of merit. Scarcely any Americans doubted that internal improvements would strengthen and enrich their new country. Few denied that some works were too expensive or too risky for private or local authorities. Still, the general government never seized the initiative to direct and build an integrated network of roads and canals. Why?

Historians have long attended to this question, and their answers have reflected shifting attitudes toward business and government, as well as changing historical perspectives. Once most economic historians were satisfied to quote laissez-faire doctrine as the reason and to congratulate the founders and their descendants for resisting the temptation to interfere. In the New Deal era scholars like Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin and Louis Hartz rediscovered government intervention in the economy at the state and local levels, but they preferred to chart the rise of liberalism, rather than explain the failure of federal control. By 1960 Carter

John Lauritz Larson is assistant professor of history at Purdue University. An earlier draft of this article was read at the Organization of American Historians' annual meeting, April 1985. The author thanks Lester Cohen, Ronald E. Shaw, and Joseph H. Harrison, Jr., for critical advice and the Purdue Research Foundation for financial support.

[1] *Annals of Congress*, 14 Cong., 2 sess., Feb. 4, 1817, p. 851.

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Goodrich had demonstrated that the failure of national planning derived, not from economic doctrines, but from conflicts over political power. "The real issue," Goodrich concluded, "was between national and state action." Fears of federal consolidation and optimistic assumptions about state and local capability to promote internal improvements doomed the general system long before private enterprise was strong enough to take the lead. Initiative passed to the states, and economic historians correctly turned their attention to state and local arenas where the real progress could be found.[2]

Goodrich laid the issue before political historians, who have concentrated on the constitutional objections of strict constructionists and states' righters to explain why federal systems repeatedly failed. Such accounts usually claim that improvements were universally popular and then attribute federal inaction to the constitutional piety of the Jeffersonians, the pettiness of party factions, or the interference in politics caused by Napoleon's wars. Specialized monographs discuss federal policy as a background to specific public works, invariably revealing a tangle of interests behind the promotions; case studies, however, cannot account for the system as a whole. Gallatin's *Report of the Secretary of the Treasury on the Subject of Roads and Canals* (1808) embodied the developmental hopes of the first generation's leaders for a national system of internal improvements that would bind the Republic together. But when the young nationalists in the postwar era, led by Calhoun and Henry Clay, pushed the Bonus Bill through Congress to realize that plan, Madison surprised them with a veto cast in the old-fashioned language of strict construction and limited federal power. Searching for reasons to explain that reversal historians find agrarian suspicions, reverence for the Constitution, and, finally, the emerging slavery question, which poisoned debates on a national plan.[3]

Those explanations are all true but incomplete. They stand at odds with much of what we know about Jeffersonian America, and they infuse the history of the internal improvements question with a hint of tragic loss: But for enemies of progress, the people might have had what the people must have wanted. A growing literature on Jeffersonian politics and ideology, however, portrays Republican leaders every bit as skilled at constitutional manipulations as any Hamiltonian Federalist. What once

[2] Carter Goodrich, *Government Promotion of American Canals and Railroads, 1800–1890* (New York, 1960), 44–47. See also Carter Goodrich, "American Development Policy: The Case of Internal Improvements," *Journal of Economic History*, 16 (Dec. 1956), 449–60; Carter Goodrich, "Internal Improvements Reconsidered," *ibid.*, 30 (June 1970), 289–311; Louis Hartz, *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860* (Cambridge, Mass., 1948); Oscar Handlin and Mary Flug Handlin, *Commonwealth: A Study of the Role of Government in the American Economy: Massachusetts, 1774–1861* (Cambridge, Mass., 1969); Robert A. Lively, "The American System, A Review Article," *Business History Review*, 29 (Spring 1955), 81–95; and Ronald E. Shaw, "Canals in the Early Republic: A Review of Recent Literature," *Journal of the Early Republic*, 4 (Summer 1984), 117–42.

[3] See, for example, Charles M. Wiltse, *John C. Calhoun, Nationalist* (Indianapolis, 1944); Samuel Flagg Bemis, *John Quincy Adams and the Union* (New York, 1965); Ralph Ketcham, *James Madison: A Biography* (New York, 1971); George Dangerfield, *The Era of Good Feelings* (New York, 1952); George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (New York, 1951); and John Mayfield, *The New Nation, 1800–1845* (New York, 1982). For a considerable improvement on the story, see Harry N. Scheiber, "The Transportation Revolution and American Law," *Transportation and the Early Nation* (Indianapolis, 1982), 1–29. For the case study approach, see Ronald E. Shaw, *Erie Water West: A History of the Erie Canal* (Lexington, Ky., 1966); and Ralph D. Gray, *The National Waterway: A History of the Chesapeake and Delaware Canal* (Urbana, 1967).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.39 - Religion and the New England Mill Girl: A New Perspective on an Old Theme

Jama Lazerow

ARTICLE	Religion and the New England Mill Girl: A New Perspective on an Old Theme
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Religion and the New England Mill Girl: A New Perspective on an Old Theme

JAMA LAZEROW

IN April 1829, mill girls from three textile factories in Taunton, Massachusetts, abandoned their looms to protest a reduction in wages.[1] Bedecked in their colorful working attire—black silk dresses, red shawls, and green calashes—the women paraded about the town common before a shocked if somewhat amused gathering of local menfolk. Their leader was a young weaver named Salome Lincoln. Just twenty-two years old, she had spent eight years working in the Taunton mills. Marching the procession into a local public hall, Lincoln took the podium, instructed one of her lieutenants to stand guard at the door, and opened the meeting with a prayer "to the Great Arbitrator for Justice." It was an apt beginning, for her talk that spring morning was something of a sermon, as she lectured her sisters "on the subject of their wrongs" in contributing to their own predicament. On that morning, Salome Lincoln sounded more like a censorious minister than the leader of a factory "turn-out."

For this particular mill girl, however, the two endeavors were not so disparate as they might at first appear. In an age

I would like to thank William Breitenbach, Hans Ostrom, and especially Irene Scharf for their generosity in contributing their considerable literary skills to make this essay more readable. An earlier version of this article was presented at the Conference on New England: An Historical Perspective, Salem State College, Salem, Massachusetts, October 1984.

[1] Details of this strike may be found in Carolyn B. Owen, "Vignettes, No. 66," Taunton Historical Society, Taunton, Mass.; *Columbia Reporter and Old Colony Journal* (Taunton), 6 May 1829; see also, Almond H. Davis, *The Female Preacher, or Memoir of Salome Lincoln, Afterwards the Wife of Elder Junias S. Mowry* (Providence, R.I., 1843). Though we would today call these operatives "women," I often refer to them here as "mill girls" because that is how they referred to themselves.

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when women rarely spoke in public, and were usually vilified when they did, the Taunton strike was not the first time Salome Lincoln had addressed a gathering of her townspeople. And it was probably not the first time her sister weavers had heard her speak. For Salome Lincoln was a lay preacher in the Freewill Baptist church, a denomination whose theology held out the possibility of salvation for all and whose clergy would play a role, disproportionate to their numbers, in subsequent labor protest in New England. Although Lincoln had no official church credentials, she had been exhorting from the pulpit of the local Freewill Baptist meetinghouse three or four times a week since 1827. In private, she was "naturally reserved and retiring in her manner," her biographer wrote, but "in the pulpit, she was bold and attracting." In 1829, she turned that boldness to the cause of workers' rights.

There is little in the historical literature on women, religion, or labor that makes much sense of Salome Lincoln. We know that women constituted the majority of many church congregations in America from at least the mid-seventeenth century, and we know that by the early nineteenth century their interests and concerns increasingly dominated American religion.[2] This "feminization" of Protestantism helped define "woman's sphere" in the young republic, while it simultaneously fostered women's conspicuous involvement in a broad range of reform movements, from temperance to abolitionism to women's rights.[3] But most of what we know about this subject concerns middle- and upper-class women. We know precious little about working women in antebellum

[2] There are numerous disputes among scholars concerning the timing and precise nature of this process, but the basic trend is not in dispute.

[3] See, for example, Nancy Cott, *The Bonds of Womanhood: "Woman's Sphere" in New England, 1780–1835* (New Haven: Yale University Press, 1977); Blanche Glassman Hersh, *The Slavery of Sex: Feminist-Abolitionists in America* (Urbana: University of Illinois Press, 1978); Barbara Epstein, *The Politics of Domesticity: Women, Evangelicalism, and Temperance in Nineteenth-Century America* (Middletown: Wesleyan University Press, 1981); Nancy Hewitt, *Women's Activism and Social Change: Rochester, New York, 1822–1872* (Ithaca: Cornell University Press, 1984).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.40 - Spokesmen for the Working Class: Protestant Clergy and the Labor Movement in Antebellum New England

Jama Lazerow

ARTICLE	Spokesmen for the Working Class: Protestant Clergy and the Labor Movement in Antebellum New England
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SPOKESMEN FOR THE WORKING CLASS: PROTESTANT CLERGY AND THE LABOR MOVEMENT IN ANTEBELLUM NEW ENGLAND

Jama Lazerow

Before the Civil War, during the first stirrings of class-conscious labor protest in America, a small but influential number of New England clergymen actively promoted the cause of workers' rights. In this age of religious revivalism, these ministers became evangelists for labor.[1] Their activities ran the gamut from offering prayers before workers' meetings to speaking at rallies, writing pamphlets or articles for the local and labor press, organizing local associations, and donating funds and church facilities.[2] Thus, for example, a lay Freewill Baptist preacher led one of America's earliest textile strikes, the Taunton, Massachusetts, mill "turn-out" of 1829. A decade later,

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Jama Lazerow teaches history at Wheelock College in Boston, Massachusetts. For their comments on earlier drafts of this essay, he would like to thank William Breitenbach, William R. Hutchinson, William McLoughlin, James Moorhead, Chris Rogers, Irene Scharf, and the anonymous reviewers for this journal.

[1] My research has turned up approximately fifty prolabor ministers for the antebellum period, but close studies at the local level will almost certainly yield evidence of more.

[2] For a sampling of evidence on clerical prayers at labor gatherings, see *New England Artisan, and Laboring Man's Repository* (Providence, R. I.), Oct. 11, 1832; Boston (Mass.) *Post*, May 6, 1835; *Independent Chronicle and Weekly Reformer* (Boston), July 11, 1835; Fitchburg Workingmen's Association Record Book, 1844-1845 (Fitchburg Historical Society, Fitchburg, Mass); *Voice of Industry* (Fitchburg), July 10, 1845; Boston *Herald*, Sept. 30, 1852; and Haverhill (Mass.) *Gazette*, Mar. 16, 1860.

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one of the charter members of the Fitchburg, Massachusetts, Workingmen's Association was a local Congregationalist minister who made his vestry available for the group's meetings, while in Dover, New Hampshire, workers elected a Freewill Baptist preacher president of their Labor Reform Association. When shoemakers in Braintree, Massachusetts, organized a union in 1853, a minister convened their first meeting, delivering the keynote address in which he proclaimed that his sympathies lay with the "poor, but honest laboring mechanic." And, during the Great Shoe Strike of 1860, probably the most dramatic worker action of the entire antebellum era, Unitarian, Freewill Baptist, African Methodist, and even Catholic clergymen spoke on behalf of the strikers, sometimes from the pulpit, sometimes from the strike platform.[3]

Most of the prolabor ministers in antebellum America were from the newer, more popular, unorthodox churches—the Universalists, Freewill Baptists, and Christians, for example—though a few could be found even within the established, "respectable" denominations of the era, such as the Congregationalists, Episcopalians, and Unitarians. Most of them lived in the new industrial towns or commercial centers of the region and had firsthand experience with the hardships of working people, who were fast becoming the majority in these communities. Most of them preached to congregations with large numbers of those working people, and of course hoped to attract more. All of them became spokesmen for an incipient working class.

Identifying themselves with the working people who sought to remake society in their own image, these prolabor clergymen had a distinctly different social agenda from other religious figures of their day: though they drew upon shared Christian traditions, they reshaped those traditions on behalf of a developing labor movement from within the movement itself. To be sure, as we shall see, their role was intrinsically ambiguous. On the one hand, they took the side of the workers in communities where workers and employers were increasingly divided. By offering the fledgling labor movement a powerful and authoritative religious critique of an emerging class system of exploitation and oppression, and by bestowing divine sanction on

[3] *Columbian Reporter and Old Colony Journal* (Taunton, Mass.), May 6, 1829; *Voice of Industry*, Apr. 16, 1847; Boston *Herald*, June 15, 1853; Philip S. Foner, *History of the Labor Movement in the United States* (9 vols., New York 1947-1991), I, 244-245; James L. Hutson, "Facing an Angry Labor: The American Public Interprets the Shoemakers' Strike of 1860," *Civil War History*, 28 (Sept. 1982), 208-209; Haverhill *Gazette*, Mar. 16, 23, 1860; *Tri-Weekly Haverhill Publisher*, Mar. 1, 17, 27, 1860.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.41 - Conservatism, Nativism, and Slavery: Thomas R. Whitney and the Origins of the Know-Nothing Party

Bruce Levine

ARTICLE	Conservatism, Nativism, and Slavery: Thomas R. Whitney and the Origins of the Know-Nothing Party
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Conservatism, Nativism, and Slavery: Thomas R. Whitney and the Origins of the Know-Nothing Party

Bruce Levine

"Various causes are now and have for a long time been in progress tending to the establishment of a third political party in these United States," observed the prominent New York nativist Thomas Richard Whitney in mid-1852. That party, Whitney predicted, would "embrace the entire conservative Whig strength at the North" (less "the Abolitionists of that party") as well as "the entire Whig, and a good portion of the Democratic parties at the South." It would also include the "American" (that is, nativist) forces of the mid-Atlantic region and the Midwest—plus "the friends of the Union every where." And what issue would precipitate the creation of such a party? "The root of the causes which are likely to produce this grand irruption of the popular will," Whitney asserted, "is the slave question."[1]

Throughout the 1830s and 1840s, the Democrats and the Whigs had dominated American politics, two parties whose leaders disagreed about much while agreeing firmly on the need to avoid an explosive confrontation over the merits and future of chattel slavery. The Whig-Democratic partisan rivalry, which historians call the second party system, contained and diverted impulses that might have led to an earlier eruption of open sectional confrontation. In the early 1850s, however, the second party system—more specifically, the Whig party—dramatically disintegrated. The

Bruce Levine is professor of history at the University of California at Santa Cruz. Travel grants from the University of California at Santa Cruz's Faculty Senate and the University of Cincinnati's Charles Phelps Taft Foundation assisted the preparation of this essay. Early drafts were presented before the Seminar in American History at Sidney Sussex College of Cambridge University; the annual conferences of British American Nineteenth Century Historians, the Society for Historians of the Early American Republic, and the Society for Historical Archaeology; the Cincinnati Historical Society's Seminar on the City; the Center for Studies of Social Change of the New School for Social Research; and the Newberry Library's Seminar in Social History. The author wishes to thank the following individuals especially for their criticism and suggestions about the present version: Tyler Anbinder, John Ashworth, Dale Baum, Carol Berkin, Michael Birkner, Joshua Brown, Richard J. Carwardine, Andrew Cayton, Thomas J. Curran, David Brion Davis, Wayne Durrill, Stanley Engerman, Ferdinando Fasce, Eric Foner, William W. Freehling, Elliott Gorn, Camille Guerin-Gonzales, Ruth Hoffman, Daniel Walker Howe, Alan Kahan, Ira Katznelson, Kevin Kenny, Dale T. Knobel, Peter Knupfer, Bruce Laurie, Joanne Meyerowitz, David Morrison, Maura O'Connor, Peter J. Parish, Matteo Sanfilippo, David Thelen, and three anonymous readers for the *Journal of American History.*

Readers may contact Levine at <blevine@cats.ucsc.edu>.

[1] [Thomas R. Whitney], "A Third Party," *Republic,* 3 (June 1852), 311. Like most articles in this monthly, this one was unsigned and was clearly the work of its editor, Thomas R. Whitney.

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broader impact was momentous. As Horace Greeley recalled, the Whigs' "dissolution left the ground open and inviting for new combinations and developments"—eventually, for the radical recasting of partisan organization, ideology, and loyalty that put an antislavery Republican in the White House and triggered secession and civil war.[2]

Hence the importance of the question: Who, or what, killed the Whig party? For many years, the commonly accepted reply held that long-standing intraparty differences over slavery simply deepened, ultimately destroying the party. The same issue, slavery, then gave rise to the Whig party's replacement, the Republicans. But for the last twenty years, an alternative explanation has attracted influential support. Its champions hold that the Whig collapse and the Republican rise "were caused by different things," by "different political forces." The Republicans triumphed in 1856–1860, it is now generally conceded, because the electorate grew preoccupied with the slavery issue during those years. But the beginning of the decade is depicted differently. Following the Compromise of 1850, the slavery issue allegedly left the political stage. The Whig collapse in that period resulted, it is held, from a distinct set of developments.[3] The Whigs disappeared in the early 1850s because they failed to echo with sufficient force and unanimity the mounting antiforeign and anti-Catholic sentiments of their native-born Protestant constituents. Thus, "just when . . . sectional calm seemed at hand ethnocultural issues destroyed the party system."[4]

To support assertions that the issue of slavery was marginal to the Whig demise, historians have pointed to the programmatic focus of the party that attracted disenchanted Whig voters—the American (or Know-Nothing) party, a new organization "those focus was on Catholics, immigrants, and unresponsive politicians, not the slavery issue." Additional evidence of a radical disconnect between long-standing divisions among the Whigs and the rise of the Know-Nothings has been found in the identities of the new nativist party's initiators and leaders—not Whig notables preoccupied with old issues, but obscure and partisanly peripheral individuals with distinct concerns. The Know-Nothing party "sprang from the people, not professional politicians." It was "the spontaneous creation" of "men outside of politics."[5]

This scholarly dispute may have attracted substantial interest as much for its broader theoretical resonance as for its specific focus. The modern reevaluation of the Whig debacle grows out of older, broader, often heated scholarly debates about

[2] Horace Greeley, *Recollections of a Busy Life. . . .* (New York, 1868), 288.

[3] Michael F. Holt, *The Political Crisis of the 1850s* (New York, 1978), 10; William E. Gienapp, *The Origins of the Republican Party, 1852–1856* (New York, 1987), 444.

[4] Gienapp, *Origins of the Republican Party,* 14, 66, esp. 444. "It is clear," Michael Holt had written almost a decade earlier, "that the emergence of the Know Nothings and not the slavery issue destroyed state Whig parties in their old Northern strongholds." Holt, *Political Crisis of the 1850s,* 159.

[5] Michael F. Holt, *Political Parties and American Political Development from the Age of Jackson to the Age of Lincoln* (Baton Rouge, 1992), 11–12. See also Michael F. Holt, "The Politics of Impatience: The Origins of Know Nothingism," *Journal of American History,* 60 (Sept. 1973), 313–14; Jean Harvey Baker, "Politics, Paradigms, and Public Culture," *ibid.*, 84 (Dec. 1997), 897; and Gienapp, *Origins of the Republican Party,* 446–47.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.42 - 'Ticketed Through': The Commodification of Travel in the Nineteenth Century

Will Mackintosh

ARTICLE	'Ticketed Through': The Commodification of Travel in the Nineteenth Century
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"Ticketed Through"

The Commodification of Travel in the Nineteenth Century

WILL MACKINTOSH

In February of 1815, a young man named William Richardson embarked on an arduous two-month overland journey from Boston to New Orleans. Like other ambitious sons of New England farm families in the early nineteenth century, he left home to find his fortune elsewhere. He made his way on a haphazard series of barely caught stagecoaches, horses borrowed and bought, ferryboats, and his own two feet. Long-distance travel, especially in the backcountry, was an improvisational affair, which put Richardson "in perpetual anxiety for [his] future welfare and success, which precluded every thought of past difficulties." He worried constantly about finding food, lodging, and a passable route, and about losing his horse, his way, and his sanity. "To sum up the whole," Richardson wrote from the banks of Lake Pontchartrain, "my journey has been tedious beyond description." Thirty years later, now "one of the leading bankers and most influential citizens of Louisville," Richardson left home for New York to embark on a long-desired visit to Europe. He and his wife were whisked up the Ohio, across the mountains, and down through Baltimore and Philadelphia to New York by a

Will B. Mackintosh is a visiting assistant professor of history in the Department of History and American Studies at the University of Mary Washington in Fredericksburg, Virginia. He would like to thank the Library Company of Philadelphia, the American Philosophical Society, the Massachusetts Historical Society, the New-York Historical Society, and the Gilder Lehrman Institute of American History for their research support. The incisive commentary of Mary Kelley, Bruce Dorsey, Joe Rezek, Sara Babcox First, Kevin Schlottmann, the participants in the McNeil Center Seminar, and the anonymous readers of the *JER* was also critical to shaping this article, and is much appreciated.

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series of relatively comfortable and fast steamboats, stagecoaches, and railroad cars. Gone were the anxieties and tedium of thirty years earlier, at least for this prosperous traveler.[1]

Historians of the early republic have described the difference between Richardson's two experiences as a "transportation revolution." The term was coined in 1951 by George Rogers Taylor, who used it to describe the effect that technological and financial improvements had on the commercial and industrial development of the United States between 1815 and 1860. The "core of [this] revolutionary change," according to Taylor, was "the cheapening and facilitating of the movement of goods and persons." It was carried forward by turnpikes in the 1810s and 1820s and by canals in the 1820s and 1830s. Steamboats were well established on eastern rivers, the Great Lakes, and the myriad branches of the Mississippi by the 1820s and swarmed their waters by the 1840s. The first viable commercial railroads appeared in the early 1830s, but they were mostly short- and medium-range carriers until large corporations, wielding impressive amounts of capital, began to consolidate the shorter lines into expansive and long-distance networks in the 1850s. These successive waves of technological and financial innovation made transportation significantly faster, much more reliable, and considerably more economical in the 1840s than it had been in 1815.[2]

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1. E. Polk Johnson, *A History of Kentucky and Kentuckians; The Leaders and Representative Men in Commerce, Industry and Modern Activities,* Vol. 3 (Chicago, 1912), 1153; William Bell Wait, ed., *Travel Diary of William Richardson from Boston to New Orleans by Land, 1815* (New York, 1938), 19; William Bell Wait, ed., *River, Road and Rail: William Richardson's Journey from Louisville to New York in 1844* (New York, 1942). For more on Richardson's background, see Alfred Sereno Hudson, *The History of Sudbury, Massachusetts, 1638–1889* (Boston, 1889), 449.

2. George Rogers Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815–1860* (New York, 1951), 132, 15–105. More recently, scholars have harnessed Taylor's paradigm to produce valuable new insights into economic and political history; see for example, John Majewski, *A House Dividing: Economic Development in Pennsylvania and Virginia Before the Civil War* (New York, 2000) and John Lauritz Larson, *Internal Improvement: National Public Works and the Promise of Popular Government in the Early United States* (Chapel Hill, NC, 2001). For an overview of the historiography of the transportation revolution, see Carol Sheriff, *The Artificial River: The Erie Canal and the Paradox of Progress, 1817–1862* (New York, 1996), 223–25.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.43 - The Revolutionary Origins of the American Corporation

Pauline Maier

ARTICLE	The Revolutionary Origins of the American Corporation
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 51-52
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The Revolutionary Origins of the American Corporation

Pauline Maier

ONE of the great unanswered questions about the American Revolution is why, during the 1780s, state legislatures began creating corporations in record numbers. With Independence, the legislatures acquired the power to incorporate, which in Britain was a prerogative of the crown. Their willingness to exercise that power remains puzzling, however, since corporations were considered so much a part of the old order that in 1791 revolutionary France outlawed them altogether.[1] No doubt the proliferation of American corporations reflected a sense of legislative empowerment and also drew upon widespread enthusiasm for the "improvement" of the new nation. But social and economic development could have been accomplished in other ways. The British, for example, virtually ceased to develop the corporation for business or profit-seeking purposes between the passage of the Bubble Act in 1720 and its repeal 105 years later: there the partnership became the characteristic legal device of the industrial revolution.[2] In the United States, by

Pauline Maier is William R. Kenan, Jr., Professor of American History at the Massachusetts Institute of Technology. This article developed from a 1990 conference paper that has been published as "The Debate over Incorporations: Massachusetts in the Early Republic," in Conrad Edick Wright, ed., *Massachusetts in the New Nation* (Boston, 1992), 73–117. An intermediate version was presented as the Jefferson Memorial Lecture at the University of California, Berkeley, in April 1991. Research was done under a grant from the John Simon Guggenheim Foundation. The author wishes to thank Thomas N. Brown, James Henretta, Morton J. Horwitz, Alex Keyssar, David Konig, Stanley I. Kutler, Charles S. Maier, Peter Onuf, and particularly Kent Newmyer, whose suggestions over several years have been exceptionally helpful.

[1] The best general account of late eighteenth-century American corporate development remains Joseph Stancliffe Davis, *Essays in the Earlier History of American Corporations,* 2 vols. (Cambridge, Mass., 1917). On France see, for example, William H. Sewell, Jr., *Work and Revolution in France; The Language of Labor from the Old Regime to 1848* (Cambridge, 1980), esp. 86–100, 103.

[2] Armand Budington DuBois, *The English Business Company after the Bubble Act, 1720–1800* (New York, 1938), esp. 38–40, and Bishop Carleton Hunt, *The Development of the Business Corporation in England, 1800–1867* (Cambridge, Mass., 1936). The modern British corporation emerged only after the Company Acts of 1844 and 1855 and evolved from "the unincorporated partnership, based on mutual agreement, rather than from the corporation, based on a grant from the state." Even in the mid-twentieth century, when American corporate law was "incomparably richer and more highly developed than its English parent," an informed observer noted that British lawyers rarely examined American precedents because they assumed that the American system was "entirely alien . . . with

The William and Mary Quarterly, 3d Series, Vol. L, No. 1, January 1993

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contrast, the handful of business corporations created in the 1780s—among many others—multiplied until by 1830 "charters of incorporation for mere economical purposes, as the construction of roads and canals, and carrying on of banking, insurance, manufactures, &c.," were recognized to be "more frequent . . . than in any other country."[3]

To add to the mystery, corporations increased in number despite formidable opposition. Americans in the 1780s and 1790s elaborated French and British anticorporate arguments, founded their authority on the ideals of the Revolution, and gathered them into what Louis Hartz called an "anti-charter doctrine." The Constitutional Convention's failure to grant Congress the explicit power to incorporate (probably for fear it would further hazard the Constitution's ratification) and the torrent of opposition that greeted Congress's incorporation of the first Bank of the United States in 1791 served to establish the states as the primary creators of American corporations and as the sites where arguments against corporations developed most fully. The anticharter doctrine that took form in states such as Pennsylvania soon after Independence persisted into the nineteenth century but failed to undercut Americans' enthusiasm for corporations. "The demand for acts of incorporation is continually increasing," New York's Chancellor James Kent observed in 1827, "and the propensity is the more striking, as it appears to be incurable; . . . we seem to have no moral means to resist it."[4]

The precociousness of corporate development in the United States meant that legislators and jurists could not simply follow European models but were forced to innovate. The institutions they created differed in critical ways from their nearest English predecessors and from the British corporation as it finally emerged in the mid-nineteenth century. The American corporation faithfully reflected the society that gave it form and also suggests much about the meaning and impact of the American Revolution, which seems paradoxically to have both provided the occasion for the corporation's development and inspired opposition to it.

To resolve that paradox and explain the attractiveness of the corporation, this article—based on documentary sources drawn mostly from Massachusetts and Pennsylvania and on several secondary studies of those and other states—examines early regional patterns of corporate development, then turns to the arguments raised against corporations and their impact on municipal and business corporations. It suggests that the proponents of anticharter doctrine were not, as Hartz's term implies, oppo-

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different statutes and different principles." L.C.B. Gower, "Some Contrasts between British and American Corporate Law," *Harvard Law Review,* LXIX (1956), 1369–1402, esp. 1371–1372, 1400–1401.

[3] "Corporation," in Francis Lieber, ed., *Encyclopaedia Americana,* III (Philadelphia, 1830), 548; see also James K. Angell and Samuel Ames, *Treatise on the Law of Private Corporations Aggregate* (New York, 1972; orig. pub. 1832), v.

[4] Hartz, *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860* (Cambridge, Mass., 1948); Davis, *Essays,* II, 12–16, 13 n. 2; James Kent, *Commentaries on American Law,* II (New York, 1827), 220.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.44 - The Political Impact of Great Commercial Cities: State Investment in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia

John Majewski

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Journal of Interdisciplinary History, XXVIII:1 (Summer, 1997), 1–26.

John Majewski

The Political Impact of Great Commercial Cities: State Investment in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia

Some time in the late 1850s, John Hartwell Cocke, a wealthy Virginia planter, sat down to scribble a few "Notes on Starting a Great Commercial City." The James River squire sought to demonstrate that a "point of land forming the northern bank of [the] James River at its entrance into Hampton Roads" could become the site of a grand metropolis. He predicted that a city established at this location "[would] grow with greater rapidity into a great city than St. Louis and Chicago." Even by the rather generous standards of nineteenth-century American boosterism, Cocke's effort to show how Virginians could build a port that would quickly surpass New York and Philadelphia bordered on the ridiculous. The location for his great commercial city, he freely admitted, was nothing more than "a barren promontory without a house." All of the city's infrastructure would have to be built from scratch, along with several rail and canal connections that would link it to the Ohio Valley. It is no wonder that Cocke's notes remained safely tucked away in his papers, never to circulate widely.[1]

For all of the plan's obvious holes and unanswered questions, Cocke's Notes stumbled upon the central problem thwarting antebellum Virginia's drive for commercial independence and economic diversification. Sounding like a modern economic geographer, the Virginia planter argued that thriving cities generated

John Majewski is Assistant Professor of History, University of California, Santa Barbara. He is the author of "Who Financed the Transportation Revolution? Regional Divergence and Internal Improvements in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia," *Journal of Economic History,* LVI (1996), 763–768.

The author would like to thank Sarah Case, Charles Dew, Lacy K. Ford, Lisa Jacobson, the participants of the Southern Historical Association Meetings in New Orleans, and the editors of *The Journal of Interdisciplinary History* for extremely helpful comments.

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1 Cocke's unyielding optimism was similar to that of the Chicago boosters discussed in William Cronon, *Nature's Metropolis: Chicago and the Great West* (New York, 1991), 31–54; Cocke, "Notes on Starting a Commercial City," John H. Cocke Papers, Acc. 640, Box 182, Alderman Library, University of Virginia, 2, 4, 7.

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wealth and opportunity for a vast hinterland. Build a great commercial city, he declared, and "what N.Y. has done for her adjacent county will spring into existence here in like effects from like causes especially as we have a more genial clime & better Soil" (7).

Cocke's emphasis on a metropolitan "central place" had a political element as well. The Virginia planter had correctly surmised that his state's urban landscape—a collection of small cities vigorously competing for commerce and trade—had undermined its program of state investment. Firsthand experience with legislative battles over the location and funding of internal improvements prompted Cocke to write that foreign investors should finance his great commercial city because they were "free from all local bias in the all important question of the site." Once the city was started, Cocke maintained that it would eliminate local rivalry, thereby helping the Old Dominion achieve commercial supremacy over its northern rivals: "[T]he whole policy of Virginia has been hitherto adverse to concentrating her population in Cities, but there are new Changes—a crisis in her history—[that] makes building up a great commercial city an indispensable requisite to her future prosperity as well as that of the southern section of the Union."[2]

Cocke's analysis implicitly calls into question the complex relationship between urbanization, government policy, and commercial infrastructure in antebellum America. Surprisingly, historians and social scientists have been slow to investigate these relationships. Determined to undermine the myth that Americans have always promoted laissez-faire capitalism, historians, economists, and political scientists have documented how states, counties, and municipalities spent many millions of dollars to build turnpikes, improve rivers, dig canals, and construct railroads before the Civil War. The ideological motivation for most of this scholarship was obvious; as Horwitz has noted, the net effect of these studies was to provide the New Deal with "its own historical pedigree."[3]

2 Cocke, "Notes," 7.

3 Classic works in the "Commonwealth Tradition" include Oscar and Mary Flug Handlin, *Commonwealth: A Study in the Role of Government in the American Economy, Massachusetts 1774–1861* (Cambridge, Mass., 1969; rev. ed.); Louis Hartz, *Economic Policy and Democratic Thought: Pennsylvania, 1776–1860* (Cambridge, Mass., 1948). For a general overview of this literature, see Harry N. Scheiber, "Government and the Economy: Studies in the 'Commonwealth' Policy in Nineteenth-Century America," *Journal of Interdisciplinary History,* III (1972),

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.45 - Who Financed the Transportation Revolution? Regional Divergence and Internal Improvements in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia

John Majewski

ARTICLE	Who Financed the Transportation Revolution? Regional Divergence and Internal Improvements in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 56, no. 4 (1996)
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Who Financed the Transportation Revolution? Regional Divergence and Internal Improvements in Antebellum Pennsylvania and Virginia

JOHN MAJEWSKI

Comparing investment in transportation companies in Albemarle county, Virginia, and Cumberland county, Pennsylvania, I analyze why nineteenth-century internal improvements revolutionized the northern economy, but only seemed to increase the South's dependence upon plantation agriculture. In both counties local investors and state governments financed early improvements. Beginning in the 1830s, however, urban capitalists financed most Pennsylvania railroads, leading to the eventual integration of railroads into coherent systems. Local investors and the state government continued to dominate Virginia's railroads, which made it difficult to build improvements to pierce the Appalachians and link the Old Dominion to midwestern markets.

Economic historians now explain early American industrialization with a story that takes its plot from Adam Smith and its supporting characters from George Rogers Taylor's *The Transportation Revolution*. Like Smith, recent scholarship stresses the importance of larger markets in providing incentives to increase specialization, spur incremental innovations, and raise productivity. In antebellum America, markets grew larger through urbanization, population growth, and, most importantly, improved transportation. The construction of turnpikes, river improvements, canals, and railroads helped connect farm families and small towns with merchants and manufactures in larger cities, setting the stage for Smithian growth. Little wonder, then, that scholars have recently linked improved transportation with all the elements of sustained development: greater

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inventive activity, higher manufacturing productivity, increasing agricultural output, and growing real wages.[1]

This rosy view of transportation improvements has a decided regional cast. Whereas improved transportation in the North set the stage for a vibrant, diversified economy, transportation projects in the South seemed only to foster an unhealthy reliance on staple crops. More than 80 years ago U. B. Phillips sternly pronounced that "the building of railroads [in the South] led to little else but the extension and intensifying of the plantation system and the increase of the staple output."[2] Considerable evidence suggests that Phillips's assessment, however exaggerated, has a large measure of truth to it. Despite constructing thousands of miles of railroads in the 1850s—the slave states more than quadrupled their railroad mileage during the decade—the South remained well behind the North in key measures of economic development: inventive activity, industrial output, manufacturing productivity, and urbanization.[3] In light of the long debate over the profitability of slavery, few historians would deny that slaveholders displayed considerable entrepreneurial vigor in pursuing the profits of staple agriculture. Yet as the antebellum period came to a close, even some slaveowners were dismayed that the boom in southern railroad construction had failed to replicate the results of northern transportation improvements. Charles Bruce, a state senator from Virginia, spoke for many when he complained that his state's motley collection of local lines "have built up no town, and hardly a single village."[4]

I try to explain the differing impact of transportation improvements through a comparison of infrastructure projects in two rural localities—Albemarle county, Virginia, and Cumberland county, Pennsylvania. While hardly representative of the diverse American landscape, Albemarle and Cumberland provide many clues about the diverging regional paths of the transportation revolution. Known for their rich soils and productive farms, both counties were obvious candidates for new transportation projects. Located in southeastern Pennsylvania, Cumberland farmers sold their grain and dairy products to markets in Baltimore (about 75 miles from the county seat of Carlisle) and Philadelphia (about 90 miles from Carlisle).[5] Planters and farmers in Albemarle sold their grain and tobacco to markets

[1] The literature documenting the connection between improved transportation and economic development is large and growing. See, for example, Lindstrom, *Economic Development*; Engerman and Sokoloff, "Factor Endowments"; Rothenberg, *From Market-Places*; Sellers, *Market Revolution*; Sokoloff, "Inventive Activity" and "Was the Transition"; Sokoloff and Villaflor, "Market"; and Wilentz, *Chants Democratic*.

[2] Phillips, *History*, p. 20.

[3] The railroad construction statistic is from McPherson, *Battle Cry*, p. 94. For recent analysis of southern backwardness, see Engerman and Sokoloff, "Factor Endowments"; Sokoloff, "Inventive Activity"; and Tchakerian, "Productivity." Tchakerian concludes that the lag in southern manufacturing productivity might well have been the result of "restraints on the extent of markets imposed by the institutions of slavery and plantation agriculture."

[4] Bruce, *Speech*, pp. 6–7.

[5] The competition between Baltimore and Philadelphia for the trade of the Cumberland Valley is

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.46 - Did Labor Support Jackson?: The Boston Story

Edward Pessen

ARTICLE	Did Labor Support Jackson?: The Boston Story
JOURNAL	Political Science Quarterly 64, no. 2 (1949)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 262-263
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DID LABOR SUPPORT JACKSON? : THE BOSTON STORY

IT has lately come to be accepted gospel that eastern workingmen supported Andrew Jackson and his party during the period of his presidency, and that "he could not have been elected president if the votes of the laboring men of the Northeast had not been added to those of his followers in the Southeast and the West." [1] A recent study has indicated that for the city of Philadelphia, at least, this thesis is not tenable.[2]

This paper's concern is with the workingmen of Boston and their participation in the political arena during Jackson's two terms. As a key urban center in that period Boston merits examination. So unprecedented had been the expansion of industry in that city that by 1837 over ten thousand workers were engaged in some form of manufacturing enterprise.[3] Hardships and inequalities bearing on workingmen throughout the seaboard area found classic expression in Boston; [4] and the level of political and economic activity of the working class there made it one of the cities most prominent in the struggles of organized labor.[5] A study of the attitudes of Boston workers toward the party of Jackson, then, should furnish us with extremely relevant data as to the validity of the thesis that an important share of Jackson's success was due to the support he received from labor.

It would seem that in part the problem could best be solved by studying the positions and platforms of the workingmen's parties, if any, and noting their relationship with the Democratic party, and their support or opposition on specific and general issues. But the

[1] Arthur M. Schlesinger, *New Viewpoints in American History* (New York, 1922), p. 209. Also see Selig Perlman, *A History of Trade Unionism in the United States* (New York, 1929), p. 9; Alden Whitman, *Labor Parties, 1827-1834* (New York, 1943), pp. 9, 10, 52; Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Boston, 1945), p. 193. In all of these books the rôle of the Bank War as the decisive event in drawing laboring men into the Jackson camp is emphasized.

[2] William A. Sullivan, "Did Labor Support Andrew Jackson?", POLITICAL SCIENCE QUARTERLY (December 1947), LXII, 569-580.

[3] Lemuel Shattuck, *Report on the Census of Boston for 1845* (Boston, 1846), p. 86.

[4] John R. Commons and Associates, *History of Labour in the United States*, I (New York, 1926), 177-178, 298.

[5] According to Richard T. Ely, Boston and New York were the two cities most prominent in the labor movement from 1825 to 1861. *The Labor Movement in America* (London, 1890), p. 41.

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answer in this case is not so simple, nor can it be arrived at by such statistical breakdown. In the first place, " The Workingmen's Party " of Boston was an extremely weak political organization, never representing more than a tiny fraction of the workers.[6] Since many of its candidates were Whigs and among the wealthiest men in the community, a good case might be made for the startling thesis that the party of Boston's workingmen was a front organization for the Whigs.

Actually, in so far as organizational activity is concerned, the main energies of the workers were directed along paths somewhat removed from politics. They organized to strike for a ten-hour day in 1832 and again in 1835; they served as the nucleus of a New England organization that combined political with economic action, The New England Association of Farmers, Mechanics, and Other Working Men,[7] which lasted from 1832 to 1834; and in the year of the Association's demise, 1834, they formed a trades union which at its height numbered more than 4,000 workers, representing sixteen trades, in its membership.[8] It was in these movements rather than in political parties that outlet was found for the expression of their widely ranging demands.

Boston's workingmen remained in large part outside the short-lived party of 1830-1831. Let us look at the voting record of labor for the entire period 1828-1836. The ideal data for this study would consist of lists of all the voters, precise descriptions of their occupations and social position—that is, whether they were wealthy or poor, journeymen or masters, small retail dealers or large merchants—and, finally, a tabulation of their votes. In the absence of such definitive material, a less satisfactory technique must be utilized, but one which has a common-sense validity and, in practice, has been effectively employed. The wards of the city have been broken down according to population and assessed valuation; these wards with the lowest assessment per person have been assumed to be the working-class wards.[9] Other statistics substantiate these findings. In any

[6] This statement is based on the extremely poor showing made by the candidates of this party in the elections of 1830 and 1831. The negligible vote cannot possibly represent the actual proportion of workingmen participating in the elections.

[7] Commons, *et al.*, *History of Labour*, I, 302.

[8] *The Man*, February 20, March 7, 12, 1834.

[9] This method was first used by Dixon Ryan Fox, *Decline of Aristocracy in the Politics of New York* (New York, 1919), and later by Sullivan, *loc. cit.* While this method is open to question in a city where a few great holdings might give a particular ward a false aura of general well-being, in this case that is hardly a consideration.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.47 - The Workingmen's Movement of the Jacksonian Era

Edward Pessen

ARTICLE	The Workingmen's Movement of the Jacksonian Era
JOURNAL	The Mississippi Valley Historical Review 43, no. 3 (1956)
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The Workingmen's Movement of the Jacksonian Era

By Edward Pessen

In the eleven years since the publication of *The Age of Jackson*, by Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr.,[1] as the interest of students of the Jacksonian era has been turned to a closer examination of the social complexion and ideology of the reform movement which allegedly coalesced around the person and the program of President Jackson, important questions have been raised about the labor movement of that period. On the one hand, Joseph Dorfman, challenging what he calls the Jackson wage-earner thesis, has questioned both the authenticity of the movement and the radicalism and anticapitalism attributed to its leaders.[2] On the other hand, the long-popular thesis that eastern workingmen constituted an important part of the Jacksonian coalition and that their votes were instrumental in Jackson's political victories [3] has also come under serious criticism. Recent studies have shown that urban workers, organized and unorganized, often voted against Jackson and candidates supporting him.[4] This conclusion, when complemented by proof that Jackson was a "strikebreaker," [5] suggests not only that Old Hickory was no friend to the workingmen and that the fact was known to them, but further that pro-Jackson parties or move-

[1] Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., *The Age of Jackson* (Boston, 1945).

[2] Joseph Dorfman, "The Jackson Wage-Earner Thesis," *American Historical Review* (New York), LIV (January, 1949), 296-306.

[3] For earlier statements of this position, see Arthur M. Schlesinger, *New Viewpoints in American History* (New York, 1922), 209; Selig Perlman, *A History of Trade Unionism in the United States* (New York, 1922), 9; Alden Whitman, *Labor Parties, 1827-1834* (New York, 1943), 9, 10, 52.

[4] William A. Sullivan, "Did Labor Support Andrew Jackson?" *Political Science Quarterly* (New York), LXII (December, 1947), 569-80; Edward Pessen, "Did Labor Support Jackson? The Boston Story," *ibid.*, LXIV (June, 1949), 262-74; Milton J. Nadworny, "Jersey Labor and Jackson" (M.A. thesis, Columbia University, 1948).

[5] Richard B. Morris, "Andrew Jackson, Strikebreaker," *American Historical Review*, LV (October, 1949), 54-68.

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ments professing to represent the workers actually did not do so.

The purpose of this paper is to throw light on the actual character of the movement of the late 1820's and the 1830's, which until recently had been widely regarded as America's first real labor movement,[6] by attempting to answer certain basic questions relating to it. Was the movement authentic — that is, was it composed of bona fide wage earners battling in the interests of wage earners; or was it spurious, consisting instead of wily politicians who wrapped themselves in the "workingmen's" mantle only to hide their real nature? Were the movement and its leaders radical, or in any sense anticapitalistic? What was the relationship of this movement of wage earners to the broader program of the Democratic party, which had attracted men of widely varying social classes and ideologies?[7]

The alleged labor groups which emerged in the large eastern cities during this period assumed a variety of forms. Workingmen's parties, trade societies of individual crafts, trades unions, associations of urban and rural artisans and workers, national unions in a few select crafts, and one short-lived "National Trades' Union," were established, only to disappear or to merge into one another. Certainly the character of these organizations is to be determined neither by accepting their own assertions at face value nor by considering them uncritically as equally representative examples of an actual labor movement, but rather by careful examination of the evidence relating to each of them.[8]

[6] In his classic history of labor, John R. Commons called the formation of trades unions and workingmen's parties, first in Philadelphia in 1827, followed soon by like developments in New York, Boston, Newark, and Baltimore, the first American labor movement, because "American wage-earners for the first time joined together as a class, regardless of trade lines, in a contest with employers." John R. Commons and Associates, *History of Labour in the United States* (2 vols., New York, 1918), I, 25, 169. For general agreement as to the significance of the labor movement of this era, see Perlman, *Trade Unionism in the United States*; Mary R. Beard, *A Short History of the American Labor Movement* (New York, 1920), Chap. 3; Philip S. Foner, *History of the Labor Movement in the United States* (New York, 1947), 122, 127; George R. Taylor, *The Transportation Revolution, 1815-1860* (New York, 1951), 252.

[7] On the composition of the Jacksonian coalition, see Joseph L. Blau (ed.), *Social Theories of Jacksonian Democracy* (New York, 1947), introduction; Dixon Ryan Fox, *The Decline of Aristocracy in the Politics of New York* (New York, 1919); Dorfman, "Jackson Wage-Earner Thesis," *American History Review*, LIV (January, 1949), 305-306; Richard Hofstadter, *The American Political Tradition* (Vintage ed., New York, 1954), 56, 62, 67.

[8] It was the practice of some non-labor groups to convey the impression that they were workingmen's organizations. Arthur M. Schlesinger, Jr., thus attributes to Philadelphia workingmen the calling of an anti-bank meeting in March, 1829, that was actually sponsored by men having no connection with labor. *Age of Jackson*,

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.48 - Promotion and Regulation: Constitutionalism and the American Economy

Donald J. Pisani

ARTICLE	Promotion and Regulation: Constitutionalism and the American Economy
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Promotion and Regulation: Constitutionalism and the American Economy

Donald J. Pisani

The United States Constitution is much more than the formal document ratified in 1789. It is the preeminent symbol of the American preference for continuity over radical change, a collection of myths that provides a common faith, and a complicated dialogue between written and unwritten rules of law. As such it reflects and embodies many of the conflicting values at the core of American culture. The law itself, as an extended commentary on the Constitution, has perpetuated many of those conflicts by seeking to balance essentially irreconciliable objectives. It has always attempted, with mixed success, to reconcile elitism and democracy, individual opportunity and community, enterprise and equity, growth and stability, competition and cooperation, and freedom and responsibility. In the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries, the Constitution served as a powerful engine of economic growth. The nation's greatest perceived need was to encourage entrepreneurs to pool and to invest capital. The Constitution accepted the private market as the chief instrument of economic growth, and it recognized the concomitant responsibility that government do everything possible to promote that growth. But by the end of the nineteenth century, big business, not the grasping central government so deeply feared in the period from 1789 to 1860, became the dominant concern of reform-minded Americans. Most of the special privileges granted to businesses before the Civil War no longer made sense. The promotional impulse did not disappear, but regulation became a more visible expression of constitutionalism. The federal and state governments were too weak to regulate the economy effectively until the 1930s. Ironically, when government did become strong enough, Americans lost faith that it could or should reorder the economic system. The Constitution's influence on economic development has ranged from its tendency to encourage economic decentralization to its preference for judicial and quasi-judicial institutions as arbiters of economic conflicts, to its assumption that law must embody "higher" values than majority rule or than "the greatest good for the greatest number." Overall, the Constitution has played an enormous, though often indirect, part in the development of state and local, as well as federal, economic legislation.

Donald J. Pisani is associate professor of history at Texas A&M University.

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This essay is more concerned with constitutionalism's influence on economic development than with the formal economic powers and responsibilities enumerated in the Constitution.[1] Granted those explicit powers are vast. They include the power to define the national economic interest in relations with other nations, to regulate interstate trade, to tax and to spend, to create a reliable money supply, to secure copyright and patent rights, to enact uniform bankruptcy statutes, to grant corporate charters, to dispose of the public lands, and to protect the sanctity of private contracts. Nevertheless, the Constitution is as important for the implicit as for the explicit economic powers it vests in government. Among the many definitions of constitutionalism, the most common emphasizes a philosophy of government built on the principles of limited government, restraint, and the accountability of rulers to the ruled. That definition squares with the thesis—popularized by the famous constitutional historian Edward S. Corwin—that the law's basic purpose is to protect vested rights.[2]

There is much truth to that thesis, but it obscures the extent to which the law provides rules and referees to supervise the acquisition of new property as well as to protect established rights, that is, to create wealth as well as to defend it. Certainly, our "unwritten constitution"—including common law traditions, statutes enacted by Congress and by state legislatures, and the state constitutions themselves (which, in effect, complete the federal charter)—reflects the deep conviction that those who hold power have a duty to allocate scarce resources in a way that balances a maximum of individual opportunity against some expression of the common good. The essence of constitutionalism, then, is an attempt to order essentially inconsistent values, an attempt to balance differences rather than to eliminate them entirely. The tension between promotional and regulative objectives has profoundly influenced the relationship of government to the economy.

The Constitution's Framers could not anticipate the dramatic economic changes that occurred in the United States during the first half of the nineteenth century. After all, they drafted a document to serve an economy in which most farmers practiced subsistence agriculture and in which factories were rare, transportation limited, banking and credit primitive, and business transactions simple and direct. Nevertheless, the Constitution provided a congenial legal environment during the

[1] Surprisingly, given the strenuous debate over Charles A. Beard's economic interpretation of the Constitution, little has been written about the direct relationship between the Constitution and American economic development. Neither "new" economic historians, many of whom assume that capitalism is driven by imperatives independent of values or ideas, nor legal historians, who as a group have treated judicial opinions independent of the day-to-day concerns of economic actors, have adequately addressed the issue. Charles A. Beard, *An Economic Interpretation of the Constitution of the United States* (New York, 1913).

[2] E. S. Corwin, "The Basic Doctrine of American Constitutional Law," *Michigan Law Review,* 12 (Feb. 1914), 247–76; Richard Loss, ed., *Corwin on the Constitution* (Ithaca, 1981). On constitutionalism see Thomas C. Grey, "Constitutionalism: An Analytic Framework," in *Constitutionalism*, ed. J. Roland Pennock and John W. Chapman (New York, 1979), 189–209; and Carl J. Friedrich, "Constitutions and Constitutionalism," in *International Encyclopedia of the Social Sciences*, ed. David L. Sills (18 vols., New York, 1968), III, 318–26.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.49 - The Great 'Riot Year': Jacksonian Democracy and Patterns of Violence in 1834

Carl E. Prince

ARTICLE	The Great 'Riot Year': Jacksonian Democracy and Patterns of Violence in 1834
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THE GREAT "RIOT YEAR": JACKSONIAN DEMOCRACY AND PATTERNS OF VIOLENCE IN 1834

Carl E. Prince

New Yorkers characterized the tumultuous months of 1834 as the great "riot year."[1] Philip Hone, the New York City patrician and diarist, had reason to apply his barbed pen to the events of that year as disturbances swept the city. New York was not unique. Rioting that reached an intense climax in 1835 and 1836, broke out across America after a generation of relative civil peace. Race riots in 1834 marred the landscape from New Orleans to Philadelphia. Irish labor violence erupted on the construction sites of the Chesapeake and Ohio Canal in rural Maryland, the Chenango Canal in New York State, and the Baltimore and Washington Railroad outside the nation's capital. While severe rioting continued through the next two years, it was the 1834 uprisings that first broke the peace and alarmed a nation.

Anti-Catholic, anti-Irish tensions were manifest both at the Charlestown Convent Riot in Boston and the "anti-foreign" crowd actions in New York City. Small upheavals of an individually minor character, but in fact part of a larger pattern, occurred across America, alongside great economic confronta-

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Mr. Prince is a member of the Department of History at New York University. This paper was delivered on July 20, 1984, as the presidential address of the Society for Historians of the Early American Republic during its sixth annual conference at Indiana University-Purdue University, Indianapolis.

[1] Allan Nevins, ed., *The Diary of Philip Hone, 1828-1851* (2 vols., New York 1927), I, 134.

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tions like the riot that broke out in Baltimore in the wake of the failure of the Bank of Maryland. Election riots in New York and Philadelphia marked America's return to an older tradition of ''politics-out-of-doors.'' Finally, newly organized abolitionist militancy was met by anti-black, anti-reform mobs in Newark, New Jersey, Norwich, Connecticut, Cincinnati, Ohio, and elsewhere across America.

These were only some examples of renewed community violence that washed over the nation after a generation of comparative internal peace in a superficially placid republic. The year 1834 marked the end of that surface tranquility. Hints of what was to come may, in retrospect, be evident in the sporadic civil disorders of the years 1829-1833. But 1834 marked the year when a pattern akin to social chain reaction came to light. At the same time, the events of 1835 must be taken into account. While the violence of 1834 must be taken as of a piece with those events both before and after, it is useful to concentrate on immediate origins as the full pattern emerges; 1834 marked the opening salvos, in this sense, of a new period of civil disorder in Jacksonian America.

For these reasons I propose to turn to those twelve months to see what can be found about why and how it happened. Waves of violence have always characterized the history of this open society. The year 1834 opened only one such epoch, this one associated with what historians still call the era of ''Jacksonian Democracy.'' Other violent epochs included the American revolutionary years from 1763 to 1787; the generations of upheaval following the Civil War; industrial strife that characterized the period from 1894 to 1914; the years after World War I, touched by the ''Red Scare''; post-depression violence in the early 1930s; and the black and youth revolutions of the 1960s.

On the face of it, the violence and destruction inflicted by ugly mobs may not be appetizing fare to a nation that prides itself on its tolerance, opportunity, openness to change, and civility. The events of 1834, however, demonstrate not only a society in stress, but underscore as well the workings of a dynamic political and social process reasserting itself after a relatively calm period of perhaps a generation's duration.

I noted at the outset that Philip Hone commented on 1834 riots. Like many contemporaries, he saw causation in simple

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.50 - Expecting the Impossible? Abolitionist Appeals to the Irish in Antebellum America

John F. Quinn

ARTICLE	Expecting the Impossible? Abolitionist Appeals to the Irish in Antebellum America
JOURNAL	The New England Quarterly 82, no. 4 (2009)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 667-668
JSTOR	https://www.jstor.org/stable/25652054

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Expecting the Impossible? Abolitionist Appeals to the Irish in Antebellum America

JOHN F. QUINN

IN the 1840s, Irish nationalist leader Daniel O'Connell repeatedly pressed Irish Americans to join the antislavery effort in their new land, but time and again, they resisted his appeals. Much as they might agree with him in the abstract, they said, slavery was protected in the United States Constitution, and as new immigrants, they were not about to appear disloyal by questioning the nation's founding document. Perhaps more to the point, they explained, many of the movement's most ardent advocates were also staunchly anti-Catholic. In 1843, a group of O'Connell's supporters in Cincinnati, Ohio, warned him that "the Roman Catholic Church has no bitterer enemies than the abolitionists in America." To expect the Irish to ally with them was to "expect an impossibility."[1]

A number of historians of Irish America and American Catholicism have accepted the Cincinnatians' argument in their explorations of the divide between Irishmen and abolitionists in the antebellum North. For example, Lawrence McCaffrey, author of an influential history of Irish America, has asserted that the "antislavery movement . . . discouraged Irish support of black freedom. Quite often leading abolitionists, particularly the clergymen, were at the same time passionate enemies

The author would like to thank Philip Gleason, Marvin O'Connell, Marguerite Quinn, Richard Blackett, Angela Murphy, Susan Hester, Daniel Titus, Linda Smith Rhoads, and the anonymous reviewers of the *New England Quarterly* for their help. A version of this paper was presented in 2008 at the biannual meeting of The Historical Society.

[1]Quoted in *Freeman's Journal,* 31 August 1843.

The New England Quarterly, vol. LXXXII, no. 4 (December 2009). © 2009 by The New England Quarterly. All rights reserved.

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of Irish Catholics."[2] Although it is true that some antislavery leaders, such as Lyman Beecher and Theodore Parker, were nativists, most were not. Abolitionist stalwarts William Lloyd Garrison, Wendell Phillips, Frederick Douglass, John G. Whittier, Lewis and Arthur Tappan, and James G. Birney were initially quite sympathetic to Irish immigrants and respectful of their religion.[3] In fact, on several occasions in the late 1830s and early 1840s, the abolitionists reached out to the Irish immigrant community, but the Irish rebuffed them each time. The abolitionists' failure to enlist the support of the Irish American community can be attributed to a complex mix of factors: unrealistic expectations on the part of the abolitionists, the immigrants' economic fears and conflicting political loyalties, and the influence of the American Catholic bishops. In the eye of the storm were two men of passionate conviction, both viewed as "liberators," who ultimately found themselves in conflict when Irish Americans chose to reject O'Connell's requests and maintain their beneficial relationships with proslavery forces, most notably the Democratic Party.

The Irish "Liberator"

During America's colonial and Revolutionary eras, Irish Catholics never amounted to more than one percent of the population, but by 1815 or so, they began arriving in large numbers. After Napoleon was defeated and peace was finally

[2]Lawrence McCaffrey, *The Irish Diaspora in America* (Washington, D.C.: Catholic University of America Press, 1984), p. 69. Similar perspectives are offered by Charles Morris, *American Catholic* (New York: Times Books, 1997), p. 79; John McGreevy, *Catholicism and American Freedom* (New York: Norton, 2003), pp. 49–56, and "Catholicism and Abolition: A Historical (and Theological) Problem," in *Figures in the Carpet: Finding the Human Person in the American Past*, ed. Wilfred M. McClay (Grand Rapids, Mich.: Eerdmans, 2006), pp. 418–22; and George Potter, *To the Golden Door* (Boston: Little, Brown & Co., 1960), pp. 374–76.

[3]Some historians have noted that Garrison and his associates were well disposed toward the Irish. See Kevin Kenny, *The American Irish: A History* (Harlow, Eng.: Longman, 2000), p. 85; Douglas C. Riach, "Ireland and the Campaign against American Slavery" (Ph.D. diss., Edinburgh University, 1975), pp. 204–5; Gilbert Osofsky, "Abolitionists, Irish Immigrants and the Dilemmas of Romantic Nationalism," *American Historical Review* 80 (1975): 890; James Brewer Stewart, *Wendell Phillips: Liberty's Hero* (Baton Rouge: Louisiana State University Press, 1986), pp. 109–12.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.51 - Tradition, Modernity, and the American Industrial Worker: Reflections and Critique

Daniel T. Rodgers

ARTICLE	Tradition, Modernity, and the American Industrial Worker: Reflections and Critique
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EXCERPT	Original journal pages 655-656
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Journal of Interdisciplinary History, VII:4 (Spring 1977), 655–681.

Daniel T. Rodgers

Tradition, Modernity, and the American Industrial Worker: Reflections and Critique

Much of the current writing on labor history begins in complaint. The field, it is said, suffers from fossilization; its techniques are old-fashioned, its guiding questions archaic, and its institutional preoccupations downright myopic. There is a measure of truth to these charges, but it is a rapidly diminishing measure. Evident signs of change abound: a wholesale embrace of statistical techniques with often iconoclastic results; an egalitarian effort to recover working-class history from the bottom up and, in consequence, a flight from the study of trade unions or, at least, of conservative ones; and a new interest in the complex web of social and cultural relations too often overlooked by earlier generations of economics-trained scholars.

Labor history has been driven before the winds of the present in less obvious ways as well. One change, unheralded but far-reaching, has been the impact of the internationalization of the industrial revolution. It is a commonplace, though a momentous one, that the non-Western world has experienced a massive upheaval in economic habits in the twentieth century. As the factory and the supermarket, the ethics of Samuel Smiles, and the precepts of Henry Ford burst the boundaries of the West, the study of industrialization shifted as well, from past to present and from history to sociology. The result has been the emergence of new models and new vocabularies which, in turn, have begun to recast the axioms of Western labor history.

The mediators between the non-Western present and the Western past were a corps of industrial sociologists and social theorists who turned to the study of international industrialization after 1945, and their contributions ran in separate but complementary directions. The first was to heighten interest in the strains experienced by the first generation of workers to encounter industrialization head on. As Luddites, as Chartists, or as Wobblies, these uprooted workers have always occupied a conspicuous place

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in Western social history. But the concerns of the industrial sociologists who took up the study of non-Western work forces were less political than managerial, and they were above all interested in the more pervasive, work-place tied issue that they called labor commitment—the process by which new industrial employees adjusted deeply set rural loyalties and work habits to the disrupting demands of factory labor. It was a difficult process, the first studies suggested. In the early stages of industrialization, the labor force remained mentally rooted in the ways of the past; stability and efficiency were rare, the lure of wage incentives weak, and turnover and absenteeism high. Beneath the exterior of the industrializing community, as Kerr and his associates summarized the existing studies in 1960, there "is always latent protest, seething and simmering."[1]

Over the long run, however, Kerr and others predicted a steady increase in the commitment of new workers. In their confidence in the "logic of industrialization" their conclusions meshed with those of a group of more theoretical students of international development who began to describe the fundamental process at work in the non-Western world as something that they called "modernization." The term has since acquired an ample train of imprecisions and confusions. Yet the roots of the idea belong to the long-standing sociological vision of comprehending change by dichotomizing the processes of history. From Henry Sumner Maine's effort to show how the age of status gives way to the age of contract, the bipolar habit of mind has had a firm hold on the sociological imagination, and the modernization hypothesis is its latest and most sophisticated recrudescence.[2]

Essentially the modernization hypothesis proposes to understand the larger processes of industrialization as the irreversible transition from one ideal social type, "traditional" society, to its mirror opposite, "modernity." Traditional society, on the one

1 Clark Kerr, *et al., Industrialism and Industrial Man: The Problems of Labor and Management in Economic Growth* (Cambridge, Mass., 1960), 202, 166–181, 202–210; Wilbert E. Moore, *Industrialization and Labor: Social Aspects of Economic Development* (Ithaca, 1951); Wilbert E. Moore and Arnold S. Feldman (eds.), *Labor Commitment and Social Change in Developing Areas* (New York, 1960); Charles A. Myers, *Labor Problems in the Industrialization of India* (Cambridge, Mass., 1958), 36–54; Walter Elkan, *Migrants and Proletarians: Urban Labor in the Economic Development of Uganda* (London, 1960), 97–110.

2 For a perceptive treatment of this theme, see Philip Abrams, "The Sense of the Past and the Origins of Sociology," *Past & Present,* 55 (1972), 18–32.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.52 - The Pursuit of Whiteness: Property, Terror, and Expansion, 1790-1860

David R. Roediger

ARTICLE	The Pursuit of Whiteness: Property, Terror, and Expansion, 1790-1860
JOURNAL	Journal of the Early Republic 19, no. 4 (1999)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 579-580
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THE PURSUIT OF WHITENESS: PROPERTY, TERROR, AND EXPANSION, 1790-1860

David R. Roediger

Paul Gilroy, holding forth acerbically in the collection *Black British Cultural Studies*, warns that attempts to write in an interdisciplinary way about identity "can send the aspirant practitioners of cultural studies scuttling back toward the quieter sanctuaries of their old disciplinary affiliations, where the problems and potential pleasures of thinking through identity are less formidable and engaging." Behavior after the scuttling, he adds, follows disciplinary lines: "Anthropologists utter sighs of relief, psychologists rub their hands together in glee, philosophers relax [and] literary critics look blank and perplexed. Historians remain silent."[1]

In the particular case of the study of white identity and privilege in the United States, historians have been less silent than Gilroy's model implies. The major review essays on what has lamentably been named "whiteness studies" consistently place social history at the center of a burgeoning multidisciplinary literature, citing the work of Alexander Saxton, Theodore Allen, and Noel Ignatiev, among others.[2] Most ambitious accounts of white

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David Roediger chairs the Program in American Studies and teaches history at University of Minnesota. His recent books include a new edition of *The Wages of Whiteness* (Verso); the edited collection *Black on White: Black Writers on What It Means to Be White* (Schocken); and as editor of Covington Hall's *Labor Struggles in the Deep South* (Kerr).

[1] Paul Gilroy, "Black British Cultural Studies and the Pitfalls of Identity," in *Black British Cultural Studies: A Reader*, ed. Houston A. Baker, Jr., Manthia Diawara, and Ruth H. Lindeborg (Chicago, 1996), 224. Thank you to Steven Garabedian for research assistance and to John Howe and Jean O'Brien for important suggestions.

[2] Alexander Saxton, *The Rise and Fall of the White Republic: Class Politics and Mass Culture in Nineteenth-Century America* (New York, 1990); Theodore W. Allen, *The Invention of the White Race:* Vol. I: *Racial Oppression and Social Control* (London, UK, 1994); Allen, *The Invention of the White Race,* Vol. II: *The Origins of Racial Oppression in Anglo-America* (London, UK, 1997); Noel Ignatiev, *How the Irish Became White* (New York, 1995); David R. Roediger, *The Wages of Whiteness: Race and the Making of the*

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identity by non-historians (in terms of formal departmental affiliations), including those of Karen Brodkin, Susan Gubar, Eric Lott, and Michael Rogin, frame their material historically. Moreover, I will argue, a historical literature on American Indians and white identity, too often "lost," anticipated many of the insights of more recent work and deserves rereading in the light of cultural studies.[3]

Nonetheless tensions surround the place of history in investigations of white identity. Much cultural studies work in the area lacks historical grounding and ignores or misconceives the emphasis on class relations common among historians of whiteness. Conversely, not a few historians disdain cultural studies approaches, and even inquiries into race and cultural representation more generally, as ethereal and frivolous. One goal of this essay, therefore, is to expose an audience of historians to critical insights from those not formally or entirely in the history business. Implicit throughout, this goal is forwarded explicitly in a prelude bringing together the writings of the legal analyst and critical race theorist Cheryl Harris and the American Studies scholar Saidiya Hartman around the themes of

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American Working Class (London, UK, 1991). See also Michael Goldfield, *The Color of Politics: Race and the Mainsprings of American Politics* (New York, 1997), 74-112. Among the review essays, see esp., David Stowe, "Uncolored People: The Rise of Whiteness Studies," *Lingua Franca*, 4 (Sept.-Oct. 1996), 68-77; George Lipsitz, "Swing Low Sweet Cadillac: White Supremacy, Antiblack Racism and the New Historicism," *American Literary History*, 7 (Winter 1995), 700-25; and Judith Levine, "The Heart of Whiteness," *Voice of Literary Supplement* (Sept. 1994), 11-16. The term "whiteness studies" is a misguided one as it wrenches the critical study of white identity from its necessary embeddedness in the consideration of cultural and social relations among races. Would anyone say that James Baldwin and Toni Morrison, the two leading students of whiteness in my lifetime, engage in "whiteness studies"?

[3] Karen Brodkin, "How Did Jews Become White Folks?" in *Race*, ed. Roger Sanjek and Steven Gregory (New Brunswick, NJ, 1996), 78-102; Eric Lott, *Love and Theft: Blackface Minstrelsy and the American Working Class* (New York, 1993); Michael Rogin, *Blackface, White Noise: Jewish Immigrants in the Hollywood Melting Pot* (Berkeley, 1996); Susan Gubar, *Racechanges: White Skin, Black Face in American Culture* (New York, 1997); Richard Drinnon, *Facing West: The Metaphysics of Indian-Hating and Empire-Building* (New York, 1980); Michael Paul Rogin, *Fathers and Children: Andrew Jackson and the Subjection of the American Indian* (New York, 1975); Reginald Horsman, *Race and Manifest Destiny: The Origins of American Racial Anglo-Saxonism* (Cambridge, MA, 1981); Richard Slotkin, *The Fatal Environment: The Myth of the Frontier in the Age of Industrialization, 1800-1890* (New York, 1985); Ronald Takaki, *Iron Cages: Race and Culture in Nineteenth-Century America* (New York, 1990). See also Robert F. Berkhofer, Jr., *The White Man's Indian: Images of the American Indian from Columbus to the Present* (New York, 1979); and Roy Harvey Pearce, *The Savages of America: A Study of the Indian and the Idea of Civilization* (Baltimore, 1953).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.53 - Blackface Minstrelsy and Jacksonian Ideology

Alexander Saxton

ARTICLE	Blackface Minstrelsy and Jacksonian Ideology
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BLACKFACE MINSTRELSY AND JACKSONIAN IDEOLOGY

ALEXANDER SAXTON
University of California at Los Angeles

BLACKFACE MINSTRELSY, ACCORDING TO THE PREFACE TO ONE OF E. P. Christy's countless "plantation songsters," marked the advent of a national American music. "After our countrymen had . . . confuted the stale cant of our European detractors that nothing original could emanate from Americans—the next cry was, that we had no NATIVE MUSIC; . . . until our countrymen found a triumphant vindicating APOLLO in the genius of E. P. Christy, who . . . was the first to catch our *native airs* as they floated wildly, or hummed in the balmy breezes of the sunny south." The verbs *floated* and *hummed* referred of course to the fact that the original "native airs" had been appropriated from music and dance of African slaves by white professional entertainers, including (among many others) E. P. Christy. A more realistic account explained later in the same preface that the minstrels had possessed skills which enabled them "to harmonize and SCORE systematically the original NEGRO SOLOS." From these somewhat discordant beginnings, the preface rose to a crescendo of national triumph. "The air of our broad, blest land, and even that of Europe, became vocal with the thousand native melodies."[1]

"If I could have the nigger show back," Mark Twain wrote in his autobiography, ". . . I should have but little further use for opera . . . I remember the first negro musical show I ever saw. It must have been in the early forties. It was a new institution. In our village of Hannibal . . . it burst upon us as a glad and stunning surprise."[2] During the decade recalled by Mark Twain, blackface minstrelsy became the most popular form of enter-

[1]Edwin P. Christy, *Christy's Plantation Melodies No. 4* (Philadelphia: Fisher, 1854), pp. v–vii.
[2]Mark Twain, *The Autobiography of Mark Twain,* ed. Charles Neider (New York: Washington Square Press, 1961), p. 64.

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tainment in the United States.[3] Its spread coincided with the rise of mass political parties and mass circulation newspapers. All three manifested in part at least the urban culture of Jacksonian America. Hannibal, Missouri, for example, which in Mark Twain's childhood was a rural slaveholding community, could hardly have found fragments of African music or caricatures of black slaves particularly surprising. What made the first minstrel show a "glad surprise" was that it provided a window into the complex culture developing in the new cities. For approximately half a century after Mark Twain's experience at Hannibal, minstrel shows dominated the nation's public entertainment, and at their latter end merged through variety and vaudeville into the modern era of film.[4] Clearly blackface minstrelsy has comprised an important element of the "American experience." What follows is an exploration of the ideological significance of that element.

Underlying the choice of the adjective *ideological* are several starting assumptions which can be set forth, hypothetically, as follows: Minstrel shows expressed class identification and hostility; they conveyed ethnic satire as well as social and political commentary of wide-ranging, sometimes radical character; they often contained explicitly sexual, homosexual and pornographic messages. Taken as a whole, the genre provided a kind of underground theater where the blackface "convention" rendered permissible topics which would have been taboo on the legitimate stage or in the press. Spontaneity and ad-libbing favored a flexible approach to different audiences and regions, changing moods and times. This combination of adaptiveness and liberty of subject matter explains in part the popularity and staying power of minstrelsy as mass entertainment. It was linked from its earliest beginnings to Jacksonian democracy. The rise of the first mass party in America and the dominance of the minstrel show as mass entertainment appear to have been interrelated and mutually reinforcing sequences. Finally, the "convention" of blackface was by no means separate from minstrelsy's social content or neutral in regard to it. On the contrary it saturated that content. For a study of the ideology of minstrel shows, the interpenetration of form and content is relentlessly at the crux of the matter.

[3]T. Allston Brown, "The Origins of Minstrelsy," in Charles H. Day, *Fun in Black or Sketches of Minstrel Life* (New York: DeWitt, 1874), pp. 5–10.

[4]Hans Nathan, *Dan Emmett and the Rise of Early Minstrelsy* (Norman, Okla.: Univ. of Oklahoma Press, 1962); Nathan Huggins, *Harlem Renaissance* (New York: Oxford Univ. Press, 1971), pp. 244–301; Robert G. Toll, "Behind the Grinning Mask: Blackface Minstrelsy in Nineteenth Century America," Diss. Univ. of California, Berkeley 1971. Toll's study, soon to be published, provides a nearly definitive survey. Two older but still useful works are: Carl Wittke, *Tambo and Bones: A History of the American Minstrel Stage* (Durham, N.C.: Duke Univ. Press, 1930) and Dailey Paskman and Sigmund Spaeth, *"Gentlemen Be Seated!" A Parade of the Old Time Minstrels* (Garden City, N.Y.: Doubleday, 1928).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.54 - The Small-Producer Tradition and the Moral Origins of Artisan Radicalism in Philadelphia 1720-1810

Ronald Schultz

ARTICLE	The Small-Producer Tradition and the Moral Origins of Artisan Radicalism in Philadelphia 1720-1810
JOURNAL	Past & Present, no. 127 (1990)
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THE SMALL-PRODUCER TRADITION AND THE MORAL ORIGINS OF ARTISAN RADICALISM IN PHILADELPHIA 1720-1810

The figure of the artisan has recently claimed a prominent place on the American historical stage. Following pathways marked by E. P. Thompson, Eric Hobsbawm and a host of other English and European social historians, American scholars have spent the past decade recovering the lives of American artisans and documenting their contribution to the making of eighteenth- and nineteenth-century American society.[1] As a result of these investigations, the American artisan now stands beside his transatlantic counterparts as a pivotal character in the social and political drama of early industrialization and working-class formation.

At the heart of this drama lay a common experience of economic change and social transformation that touched both sides of the Atlantic working world. In England, France and North America as well, the heaviest burden of industrial development fell onto the shoulders of independent craftsmen as nascent industries rose on the broken remnants of the traditional craft economy and forced a precipitate decline of the artisan way of life.[2] Yet while all Atlantic

[1] The emergence of the American artisan is the subject of a large and growing literature. For a survey of many of the most important recent works, see Sean Wilentz, "Artisan Origins of the American Working Class", *Internat. Labor and Working-Class Hist.*, no. 19 (1981), pp. 1-22. This should be supplemented by Sean Wilentz, *Chants Democratic: New York City and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788-1850* (New York, 1984); Howard B. Rock, *Artisans of the New Republic: The Tradesmen of New York City in the Age of Jefferson* (New York, 1984); Steven J. Ross, *Workers on the Edge: Work, Leisure, and Politics in Industrializing Cincinnati, 1788-1890* (New York, 1985); Billy G. Smith, *The "Lower Sort": Philadelphia's Laboring People, 1750-1800* (Ithaca, 1990). The story of colonial artisans in America's northern seaport cities is told in Gary B. Nash, *The Urban Crucible: Social Change, Political Consciousness, and the Origins of the American Revolution* (Cambridge, Mass., 1979).

[2] This is the thesis of E. P. Thompson, *The Making of the English Working Class* (New York, 1963). In the quarter-century since its publication, there has been widespread agreement with Thompson's conclusion. Among others, see for England, John Rule, *The Experience of Labour in Eighteenth-Century Industry* (London, 1981); Iorwerth Prothero, *Artisans and Politics in Early Nineteenth-Century London: John Gast and his Times* (London, 1979); for France, William H. Sewell, Jr., *Work and Revolution in France: The Language of Labor from the Old Regime to 1848* (New York, 1980); Robert J. Bezucha, *The Lyon Uprising of 1834: Social and Political Conflict in a*

(cont. on p. 85)

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artisans shared the experience of proletarianization, American artisans met the challenge of social dislocation in ways that were uniquely their own. Poised at the receding edge of an eighteenth-century world of deferential politics and independent craft production, and about to be propelled into the nineteenth-century world of mass parties and capitalist manufacturing, American artisans took the measure of advancing industrial society and rejected the prospect of dependency it offered. Harking back to traditional artisan values, growing numbers of American mechanics chose to resist the life of degrading submission they saw unfolding before them and instead dedicated their energies to preserving the fleeting independence of the past. In this quest for an alternative to proletarianization, the American artisan became one of the central opposition figures of the age.

This search for alternatives to industrial and personal dependence led artisans along two distinct but related paths. One focused on the concerns of everyday life and livelihood, and led to the creation of trade societies soon after the American Revolution. The other looked toward the wider world of public life and took artisans into increasingly powerful political coalitions and, eventually, the party politics of the early nineteenth century.[3] Seldom completely separate, by the turn of the nineteenth century these two paths aligned to set the institutional agenda of activist artisans throughout America.

What brought these public and private worlds together and guided the nation's emerging working-class movements was a moral vision of a producers' republic which craftsmen drew from the pre-industrial past and refashioned for service against an industrial future. Compounded of ancient craft traditions, post-Revolutionary republicanism and anti-Calvinist religion, this vision of America as a future community of associated independent producers served as the moral foundation of the artisan's emergence into the industrial world.

While artisan republicanism has attracted considerable scholarly attention during the past decade, and the study of popular religion has recently come into its own, much less ink and paper have been devoted to understanding the indigenous traditions of American craftsmen.[4] Despite the fact that several historians have pointed to

(n. 2 cont.)

Nineteenth-Century City (Cambridge, Mass., 1974). For the United States, see above, n. 1.

[3] The politicization of eighteenth- and early nineteenth-century artisans is discussed at length in the works by Nash, Wilentz, Rock and Ross listed in n. 1. Ronald Schultz, *The Republic of Labor: Philadelphia Artisans and the Politics of Class, 1720-1830* (forthcoming), deals with this process in the Quaker City.

[4] The most thorough and sophisticated treatment of artisan republicanism is Wilentz, *Chants Democratic*, ch. 2. Artisan republicanism is also discussed in Eric Foner, *Tom*

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.55 - Varieties of Paternalism: Industrial Structures and the Social Relations of Production in American Textiles

Philip Scranton

ARTICLE	Varieties of Paternalism: Industrial Structures and the Social Relations of Production in American Textiles
JOURNAL	American Quarterly 36, no. 2 (1984)
EXCERPT	Original journal pages 235-236
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VARIETIES OF PATERNALISM: INDUSTRIAL STRUCTURES AND THE SOCIAL RELATIONS OF PRODUCTION IN AMERICAN TEXTILES

PHILIP SCRANTON
Rutgers University, Camden

STUDENTS OF INDUSTRIAL DEVELOPMENT IN NINETEENTH-CENTURY EUROPE AND America have frequently made note of paternalist relationships between masters and workers as one dimension of the social relations of production in emergent capitalist manufacturing.[1] For adherents of modernization approaches, those relationships may represent a way-station along the road to cost-conscious, rational, business practice. For some Marxist historians, they can be seen as an obstacle to workers' realization of their class position and their appreciation of the surpluses being wrung from their labor. For others, paternalism might seem to be an extension of patriarchal family authority from the farm or home/workshop into the factory and mill, a reconstitution of the father's dominion over a set of industrial children.

In my work on the textile trades in nineteenth-century America, principally centered on Philadelphia's industry, and in the literature of the textile manufacture in New England and the South, evidence of factory paternalism abounds. Yet when examined closely, the relationships in place at Lowell or Manchester, those in Philadelphia, and those in the rural North or in the post-Reconstruction Carolinas are strikingly dissimilar. If paternalism is not to become a spongy term, calling forth only imagery of a fuzzy, vaguely friendly form of domination, it may be worth pursuing the elements that constituted various forms of paternalism, to link them to particular constellations of material and cultural contexts, and to speculate as to the logic and character of obligation that surfaced in different settings.

[1]Carolyn Ware, *The Early New England Cotton Manufacture* (1931; rpt. New York: Johnson Reprint, 1966); Norman Ware, *The Industrial Worker, 1840–1860* (1924; rpt. New York: Quadrangle, 1964); Melton McLaurin, *Paternalism and Protest* (Westport, Conn.: Greenwood Press, 1971); Stanley Buder, *Pullman* (New York: Oxford Univ. Press, 1967). For the paternalism of slave society, see Eugene Genovese, *Roll, Jordan, Roll: The World the Slaves Made* (New York: Random House, 1972).

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Capitalist development has hardly been homogeneous. As one of the formats for human interaction within that process, paternalism too has taken several forms. Specifying them will link variations in behavior to the context of structural variations in productive relations, both material and cultural. Establishing the complex of factors that conditioned the three paternalist formats present in the developing textile industry will create a framework for systematic comparison and analysis of the social relations of production in other sectors, other regions, and other eras.

First a fairly basic observation: industrial paternalism, whatever its particular conformations, contributes to the viability of an enterprise. Manufacturing firms must generate products and profits in order to expand and survive in a capitalist economic system. Just as technology and marketing must be so arrayed as to facilitate the realization of a surplus, so too must the social relations of work be fitted to the same end. This assertion by no means reduces paternalism to a cost-calculation in an idealized rational entrepreneur's account books. Instead, it locates the productive relations within that total situation I have elsewhere termed the accumulation matrix,[2] the composite of material and cultural factors that condition a manufacturer's efforts to realize profits and retain a surplus through production and sales. Other sorts of relationships between masters and workers are clearly evident historically (authoritarian, bureaucratic); hence, paternalism is itself but one among a number of formats for the social relations of production.

Of what does paternalism consist in factory capitalism? Under what circumstances does it develop and persist? What accounts for the varied patterns of paternalist relations and for their demise? There are no tidy answers to these basic questions, but a preliminary sketch of factory paternalism may be a first step. To deal with the second and third questions, I shall review three styles of paternalist relationships in the American textile industry, relating each to the material and cultural bases for production upon which they were mounted, hoping thereby to address the problem of variation.

There are three dimensions to the relationships expressed in factory paternalism—context, content, and affect. Contextually, paternalism stands as a transitional form of interaction in the developmental trajectories of industrial capitalism.[3] For the

[2]An accumulation matrix is

> a catalogue of the broad range of social and economic factors that together constitute the total situation for production and profit faced by entrepreneurs. In stressing the interlocks between various factors and the sequential effects of decisions regarding them upon future firm options, the full complexity of the manufacturing environment will be revealed.

For a full exposition concerning these factors, see Philip Scranton, *Proprietary Capitalism: The Textile Manufacture at Philadelphia, 1800–1885* (Cambridge: Cambridge Univ. Press, 1983), 4–6. An analogous notion has recently been put forward by Gordon, Edwards, and Reich, termed "the social structure of accumulation." See David Gordon, Richard Edwards, and Michael Reich, *Segmented Work, Divided Workers* (Cambridge: Cambridge Univ. Press, 1982), 22–26.

[3]This notion indicates the collective outcomes of business projects mounted within an accumulation matrix over time, "trajectory" reflecting the specific sense of the path charted by "a body moving under certain forces" (Eugene Ehrlich et.al., *Oxford American Dictionary* [New York: Oxford Univ.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.56 - The Role of Labor in Early Industrialization: Philadelphia, 1787-1837

Cynthia Shelton

ARTICLE	The Role of Labor in Early Industrialization: Philadelphia, 1787-1837
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THE ROLE OF LABOR IN EARLY INDUSTRIALIZATION: PHILADELPHIA, 1787-1837

Cynthia Shelton

Labor historians have recently begun to examine early industrial capitalist society in the old metropolitan centers of the mid-Atlantic. Focusing on the transition in the worklife, culture, and political consciousness of the urban laboring classes in the early nineteenth century, they have shown the process of industrialization to be distinct from that which occurred in the great shoe and textile districts of New England.[1] Yet we still know little about the laboring men and women who were at the cutting

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Ms. Shelton, a recent Ph.D. degree recipient at the University of California, Los Angeles, is now in that university's Graduate School of Library and Information Science. She wishes to acknowledge the critical readings given this manuscript by Gary B. Nash, Mary Yeager, Sharon Salinger, Steven Hahn, and members of the Los Angeles Labor History Study Group. An earlier form of this article was delivered at the Organization of American Historians conference in Philadelphia in April 1982.

[1] On Philadelphia see Bruce Laurie, *The Working People of Philadelphia, 1800-1850* (Philadelphia 1980), and Sharon V. Salinger, "Artisans, Journeymen, and the Transformation of Labor in Late Eighteenth-Century Philadelphia," *William and Mary Quarterly*, 40 (Jan. 1983), 62-84. See also Sean Wilentz, *Chants Democratic: New York and the Rise of the American Working Class, 1788-1850* (New York 1984); Christine Stansell, "The Origins of the Sweatshop: Women and Early Industrialization in New York City," in Michael H. Frisch and Daniel Walkowitz, eds., *Working Class America: Essays on Labor, Community, and American Society* (Urbana 1983), 78-103; and Susan E. Hirsch, *Roots of the American Working Class: The Industrialization of Crafts in Newark, 1800-1860* (Philadelphia 1978).

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edge of the development of the factory system outside of New England. This essay focuses on the role of Philadelphia's textile laborers in shaping the early development of the factory system of production and, ultimately, the course of early industrialization in the middle Atlantic states.

Before 1850 Philadelphia was a major industrial manufacturing center of textiles, as well as "*the great seat of handloom manufacturing and weaving*." The development of the textile industry in Philadelphia differed significantly from thaandloom manufacturing and weaving." The development of the textile industry in Philadelphia differed significantly from tha, manufactory, and factory production between 1787 and 1837. Not only did Philadelphia's capitalists turn to mechanized production later than their New England counterparts, but the process produced labor conflict that did not appear in New England and elsewhere until a later date.[2]

A key to understanding the early industrial history of Philadelphia is the city's position as an immigrant port, a status not shared by New England's seaports. By 1820, Irish and English handloom weavers and mule spinners had turned Philadelphia into the major center of fine yarn and cloth production. Thereafter, immigrant women and children, disembarking in growing numbers in the 1820s, filled the demand for water-powered machine attendants in the mechanized cotton factories of Manayunk, Philadelphia's counterpart to Lowell and Pawtucket. The poverty, variety of skills, and abundance of these immigrants influenced the timing of mechanization and the emergence of an oppressive system of early factory production. And their transmission of English oppositional thought and practices guaranteed that the process of early industrialization in the mid-Atlantic would be marked by continuing social conflict.

In 1787, three years before Samuel Slater launched the industrial factory system in Rhode Island, the Pennsylvania Society for the Encouragement of Manufactures and the Useful

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[2] Edwin T. Freedley, *Philadelphia and Its Manufactures: A Hand-book Exhibiting the Development, Variety, and Statistics of the Manufacturing Industry of Philadelphia in 1857* (Philadelphia 1858), 233. For an excellent account of the historical development of textile capitalism and business in Philadelphia, see Philip Scranton, *Proprietary Capitalism: The Textile Manufacture at Philadelphia, 1800-1885* (Cambridge, Eng. 1983).

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.57 - Changes in the Organization of Artisan Production in Baltimore, 1790 to 1820

Charles G. Steffen

ARTICLE	Changes in the Organization of Artisan Production in Baltimore, 1790 to 1820
JOURNAL	The William and Mary Quarterly 36, no. 1 (1979)
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Changes in the Organization of Artisan Production in Baltimore, 1790 to 1820

Charles G. Steffen

IN June 1799, Baltimore's journeymen tailors published a plea for higher wages in the Republican newspaper, the *Baltimore American and Daily Advertiser*. Addressing themselves to "an impartial Public," the discontented craftsmen challenged the contention of their employers who insisted that a pay raise was both "un[n]ecessary" and "unjust." They presented detailed information on the master tailor's expenses and profits, showing that while the common price for a suit of clothes was £2 5s., the total expenditure on wages amounted to only £1 4s. 4½d. The resulting exorbitant profits, according to the journeymen, enabled the master tailors "to build superb houses, purchase extensive plantations, and become part owners of good ships. Tho' all the while living in a state of luxury equal to men of the first rank. Reverse the picture," declared the journeymen tailors, "what a melancholy contrast—view a journeyman, in the prime of youth, through intense application to a sedantary [*sic*] employment, almost deprived of eye sight, his constitution impaired, and his circumstances precisely as they were years before."[1]

The address of Baltimore's journeymen tailors illuminates the ordeal of journeymen clothiers in the major urban centers of the new American republic. Beginning in 1794 with the creation of the Federal Society of Journeymen Cordwainers of Philadelphia, journeymen shoemakers, tailors, and printers organized societies to protect their status as highly skilled laborers. These associations utilized a variety of measures to compel master artisans to come to terms with their employees. They presented their case to the public in the newspapers and in broadsides, hoping that an upsurge of community indignation would make the employers more pliable. They established separate journeymen's workshops that competed with the masters' shops. They attempted to organize general boycotts of employers who violated the provisions of journeymen constitutions. As a last resort, they

Mr. Steffen is a member of the Department of History at Murray State University. He is pursuing a study of working class formation in Baltimore in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries. He wishes to thank Alfred F. Young, Frank R. Stafford, and Richard J. Cox for their criticisms of drafts of this article.

[1] *American and Daily Advertiser* (Baltimore), June 8, 1799.

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called for strikes in which all members of a particular craft would participate.[2]

This outburst of organizational activity has attracted the attention of labor historians, but few scholars have examined the structural changes in artisan production that generated the unrest.[3] Indeed, the best analysis of the handicraft system in the late eighteenth and early nineteenth centuries remains that of John R. Commons, published nearly seventy years ago. Concentrating on shoemakers because they were the first craftsmen to break from the traditional handicraft system and because they organized the earliest and most militant journeymen associations, Commons attempted to construct a general model of artisan production prior to the emergence of factory system. The shoemaking craft, according to Commons, passed through three stages of development before the Industrial Revolution; these stages corresponded with the size of the market for manufactured goods. During most of the colonial period the master shoemaker produced for a "custom-order market"; beginning in the Revolutionary years, he also sold his goods in a "retail market"; by the early national era he began to operate in a "wholesale market." With each successive phase, the master shoemaker's social identity shifted from the producer to the merchant class. By the early nineteenth century he had been transformed into a "wholesale merchant-employer," an acquisitive capitalist who expanded the productive capacity of his workshop by hiring more employees and who turned a profit by limiting his workers' wages. At the same time, the journeymen cordwainers, who could no longer reasonably aspire to master status, fell into the ranks of permanent wage workers. It was Commons's contention that the origins of modern industrial classes reached back to the early national period, several decades before the appearance of the factory system.[4]

While Commons provided a useful model for understanding alterations in the handicraft system, he was chiefly concerned with the rise of trade unionism and consequently offered only general impressions of the evolving structure of the artisan shop and the composition of the work force. This

[2] For a general statement of journeymen's activities in this period see John R. Commons *et al.*, *History of Labour in the United States,* I (New York, 1918), 25-165. I deal with Baltimore journeymen at greater length in "Between Revolutions: The Pre-Factory Urban Worker in Baltimore, 1780-1820" (Ph.D. diss., Northwestern University, 1977), chap. 6. The most important journeymen's strike in Baltimore in the early 19th century was that of the shoemakers in 1809.

[3] Alan Dawley has dealt with the alterations in the shoemaking craft in the late 18th and early 19th centuries, but his fine study focuses on the community of Lynn rather than on a major Eastern seaboard city. See Dawley, *Class and Community: The Industrial Revolution in Lynn* (Cambridge, 1977).

[4] John R. Commons, "American Shoemaker, 1648-1895: A Sketch of Industrial Evolution," *Quarterly Journal of Economics,* XXIV (1910), 48-49. For a critique of Commons's model see Dawley, *Class and Community,* 30-32.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.58 - Their Own Work: Two Documents from the Nineteenth-Century Labor Movement

Lise Vogel

ARTICLE	Their Own Work: Two Documents from the Nineteenth-Century Labor Movement
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Their Own Work: Two Documents from the Nineteenth-Century Labor Movement

With an Introduction by Lise Vogel

In 1846, Mehitable Eastman—a young woman leader of the Female Labor Reform Association in Manchester, New Hampshire—made a dramatic speech before a meeting of workers and reformers. Drawing on her experience of eight years as an "operative" (or worker) in the textile mills of northern New England, she exhorted her audience to determined action. "Who can speak of truth upon this subject if the operative cannot, who has dragged out a miserable existence within the prison walls of a factory?" She outlined both the distress of the mill women and their potential power as an organized force:

> Much has been written and spoken in this country in woman's behalf, yet a large class are destined to a servitude as degrading, as unceasing toil can make it. How long can this state of things exist?
>
> Many have already said, "What can the operatives do to change the conditions of industry and reduce the hours of daily labor?" We answer, "What cannot the operatives do?" Our oppressors well know our strength. Ask the capitalist, if you please, what the operatives have done for him. Then he will ask what cannot we do for ourselves.

Eastman stressed the importance of united and disciplined action,

[*Signs: Journal of Women in Culture and Society* 1976, vol. 1, no. 3, pt. 1]
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shared responsibility within the organization, perseverance, and solidarity with a larger movement of the exploited and oppressed.[1]

Mehitable Eastman was but one of a number of women workers who sought to organize in the textile industry in the second quarter of the nineteenth century. They, too, knew the conditions of mill work intimately, and their militance grew out of their lives in the factory towns. Some argued that it took "*years* of actual experience in these mills . . . to gain the real sentiments of operatives":

> It is only by going into the mills, and working there; by submitting to the oppressiveness of overseers and agents; to the close air of both sleeping and working rooms, filled as it is in the latter places, with fibres of cotton which must be inhaled into the lungs with every breath we breathe; by subjugating yourself to the petty dictation, and a thousand of other inconveniences of a boarding house, and by listening, as a victim of those evils, with your fellow operatives, to all their heart-felt complaints of bitter wrongs that you can begin to form an idea of their real situation.[2]

The textile factories in which the female operatives worked were the first large-scale industrial enterprises to be established in the United States. The women who made up perhaps eighty or ninety percent of their labor force were thus the first American factory workers. They were also among the first American women to earn their living by working for wages and to attempt to organize themselves as working women against the oppressions of "the factory system." Their life was never idyllic, but the bleak picture drawn by Eastman and other activists was actually only a part of the story. The thousands of women who worked in the textile mills of northern New England were drawn there by the opportunity—very rare in that period—to be financially and socially independent. Most were young, unmarried, had come to the mill towns from the country, and stayed only a few years. Some were widows, or older single women. To all these women work in the textile factories represented a chance to be self-supporting and to break through the isolation and backwardness of rural life, even if for most it was only for a brief time. As one reminisced years later:

> I found that I enjoyed even the familiar, unremitting clatter of the mill, because it indicated that something was going on. I liked to feel the people around me, even those whom I did not know, as a wave may like to feel the surrounding waves urging it forward, with or against its own will. I felt that I belonged to the world, that there was something for me to do in it, though I had not yet found out what.

1. *Voice of Industry,* September 4, 1846. For more on Eastman, see the author's forthcoming book, *Women of Spirit, Women of Action: Mill Workers of Nineteenth-Century New England.*

2. *Voice of Industry,* April 23, 1847.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.59 - Constitutions, Corporations, and Corruption: American States and Constitutional Change, 1842 to 1852

John Joseph Wallis

ARTICLE	Constitutions, Corporations, and Corruption: American States and Constitutional Change, 1842 to 1852
JOURNAL	The Journal of Economic History 65, no. 1 (2005)
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Constitutions, Corporations, and Corruption: American States and Constitutional Change, 1842 to 1852

JOHN JOSEPH WALLIS

Between 1842 and 1852, eleven states adopted new constitutions, simultaneously creating procedures for issuing government debt and for chartering corporations through general incorporation acts. Why simultaneously? Voters wanted geographically specific infrastructure investments but opposed geographically widespread taxation. States resolved the dilemma by developing several innovative public finance schemes. One, "taxless finance," used borrowed funds and special corporate privileges without raising current taxes. Another scheme, "benefit taxation," coordinated the incidence of taxes with the geographic benefits of investments through the property tax. After the fiscal crisis of the early 1840s, states changed their constitutions to eliminate taxless finance in the future.

Between 1790 and 1860 the United States population moved west over the Appalachians and across the Gulf plains, creating new states as they went. The states, with some federal assistance, constructed a system of finance and transportation to tie the nation together. The states also developed a set of economic institutions that allowed free entry into the corporate form, limited the ability of governments to incur unfunded debts, encouraged generally responsible public finance, and demonstrated that a democratic republic could deliver on a commitment to secure private property rights and the rule of law. These accomplishments are celebrated parts of American economic history. Were they related? Specifically, did state government efforts to provide the physical and commercial infrastructure lead to changes in, or follow from, existing economic and political institutions?

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The development of two specific economic institutions that developed first in the United States—transparent corporate forms with secure stockholder rights and hard budget constraints for governments—followed the collapse of state efforts to promote banks, canals, and railroads.[1] In 1842, eight states and the Territory of Florida were in default on their debts and three other states were in perilous financial condition. The simultaneous adoption of new methods for chartering corporations and regulating the issue of government debt offers a unique opportunity to explain why American economic and political institutions changed so rapidly and dramatically. Between 1842 and 1852, 11 states wrote new constitutions. Ten of these contained provisions that legislatures adopt new procedures for authorizing government borrowing and eight of the ten states required state legislatures to pass general incorporation laws. No existing economic history links the two reforms, yet there was a strong relationship underlying their simultaneous adoption. The importance of corporations and debt issue for the public finance of state governments, working through the alternative ways of financing canals and banks used by states in the 1820s and 1830s, is the link connecting the two reforms. When state finances collapsed, states looked to their own histories of borrowing and spending to understand how they got into their predicaments.

The uniform adoption of democratic and republican institutions of government and the widespread adoption of near universal white male suffrage by the 1820s created political pressure on state governments to promote economic growth through investments in banks and canals. These pressures were particularly strong wherever large amounts of undeveloped land stood to appreciate in value from better transportation and financial infrastructure. But democracy posed another problem for the building of canals and banks: geographic competition. When, for example, New York contemplated the Erie canal, the primary opposition came from farmers along the Hudson and on Long Island who gained nothing from a canal benefiting upstate land owners. Because tax liabilities for the canal were spread throughout the state, most counties expected to be worse off if the canal were built: they gained nothing and paid higher taxes.

[1] The specific institutions of transparent and secure corporate forms and hard budget constraints for governments are the subject of an active and growing literature in the empirical study of economic growth. The general importance of institutions is the subject of Rodrik, Subramanian, and Trebbi, "Institutions"; Acemoglu, Johnson, and Robinson, "Colonial Origins" and "Reversal." On connections between legal systems, financial development, and economic growth see Beck and Levine, "Legal Institutions." For the importance of hard budget constraints Qian and Weingast, "Federalism"; Inman, "Transfers"; and Rodden and Eskeland, *Fiscal Decentralization*.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.60 - Promotional Wizardry: Rhetoric and Railroad Origins, 1820-1860

James A. Ward

ARTICLE	Promotional Wizardry: Rhetoric and Railroad Origins, 1820-1860
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PROMOTIONAL WIZARDRY: RHETORIC AND RAILROAD ORIGINS, 1820-1860

James A. Ward

Railroads permeate American culture. Old train depots on the National Register of Historic Places now serve fancy dinners, steam excursions are packed with enthusiastic throngs, railway books sell well, railroad organizations flourish, trains magazines crowd newsstand shelves, model trains chug across countless cellar empires, and even railroad stamps find eager collectors. The popularity of railroads illustrates the substantial contributions they have made to national life. They created our time zones, infused our language with countless phrases such as ''on time'' and ''highball,'' enriched our country's music with unforgettable melodies such as ''The Chattanooga Choo-Choo,'' ''The Wabash Cannonball,'' and the immortal ''Casey Jones,'' created unique environments along our rail right-of-ways, raised public architecture to new heights with ''union'' stations, provided jobs for generations of unskilled immigrants, and used their corporate power and wealth to change American democracy.

Yet historians have evinced little interest in railway origins, and those who have dealt in any depth with the topic usually concluded that the rails grew out of ferocious trade rivalries among Atlantic port cities. An examination of the contemporary railroad promotional literature, however, reveals that urban competition was only one tile in the rhetorical mosaic railroad boosters carefully designed to convince fellow countrymen to embrace the new transport system. Further, evidence shows that urban rivalries were not even the most important motif in their presentations. Enthusiasts who publicized

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James A. Ward is a member of the department of history at the University of Tennessee, Chattanooga. He is the author of a number of works on American railway history, including *Railroads and the Character of America, 1820-1887* (1986).

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their views in the trade press, newspapers, magazines, books, technical reports, and letters to editors shared a multitude of rhetorical approaches calculated to graft railways to broad, commonly held political and cultural assumptions.

Railroad enthusiasts preferred language fraught with symbolism to bond their readers emotionally to the new industry. Their constant references to the fabled West, for example, stirred public passions for railways as a means to tap the unbounded wealth they believed was hidden in the woods. At quite another level, these appeals hinted at a chance for adventure, pushing back the limits of the unknown, and the pleasant surprises that awaited those ambitious enough to spike iron rails into the wilderness. The conquering technology of steam, promoters promised, would also use its manifest power and speed to hasten the nation's destiny across the continent. The enthusiasts' public rhetoric was, like the country's attitude towards its own future, always upbeat and optimistic—even in the face of a shortage of construction funds and a multitude of geographic obstacles that had to be overcome. Rails, they claimed, would create their own wealth and business, raise everyone's land values, lessen sectional and urban rivalries, and benefit all classes. At the same time the promoters' rhetoric promised not only individual pecuniary returns, but the more indirect monetary returns that would benefit society. Tax revenues would increase when home property values rose, all cities would prosper as rail hubs, and the whole citizenry would be propelled upwards towards a higher level of general prosperity.

Boosters hammered at the notion that the public weal, railroad companies, and personal welfare were inextricably joined by link and pin couplers. Rather than elevating their new industry above common concerns, they preached the gospel of railways in a language that was comforting—and ironic. In an age moving rapidly towards a virulent individualism, railway promoters pitched their projects with rhetoric that promised to knit the nation together through communities of interest, interwoven to enhance the country's power, wealth, and unity. The boosters argued that their projects were absolutely vital to America's general interests and, in fact, asserted that every mile of rail laid was a patriotic manifestation. With such rhetoric, enthusiasts injected railways deep into the American psyche and in so doing created a new business that almost immediately became a boom industry.

Nevertheless, generations of historians have sought more narrow, specific causes for origins of railways. Early they fastened on urban trade rivalries to explain the need and initial impetus for their

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.61 - The Enemy Is Us: Democratic Capitalism in the Early Republic

Gordon S. Wood

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THE ENEMY IS US: DEMOCRATIC CAPITALISM IN THE EARLY REPUBLIC

Gordon S. Wood

Of all the ''isms'' that afflict us, capitalism is the worst. According to many scholars, capitalism has been ultimately responsible for much of what ails us, both in the past and in the present, including our race problem, our grossly unequal distribution of wealth, and the general sense of malaise and oppression that academics in particular feel. It is not surprising therefore that scholars should be interested in the origins of such a powerful force, especially one that seems to affect them so personally.

The trouble is we scholars cannot agree on the nature of the beast. Some identify it with a general market economy; others, following Marx, with a particular mode of production, involving a bourgeoisie that owns the means of production and a proletariat that is forced to sell its labor for monetary wages; still others, following Weber, with a system of calculative and secularized rationalism; and still others, with simple hard work and a spirit of development. As has often been pointed out, the way in which scholars define the term ''capitalism'' usually determines the results of their analysis.[1]

The confusion has gotten so great that we now have competing and contradictory studies that show that the first two centuries of early American history were either capitalist from the beginning or never capitalist at all. Stephen Innes has recently argued that the seventeenth-century New England Puritans were ''bearers of a culture

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Gordon S. Wood is University Professor and Professor of History at Brown University. He wishes to thank Naomi Lamoreaux for her helpful comments.

[1] Stephen Innes, *Creating the Commonwealth: The Economic Culture of Puritan New England* (New York, 1995), 328.

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that was already capitalist when they arrived in the New World.''[2] At the same time Michael Merrill has contended that the early nineteenth-century American economy, despite the presence of widespread market exchanges, private property, wage labor, and sophisticated financial instruments, was not yet capitalist. Regardless of their differences, however, both historians share a common aversion to out-and-out possessive individualism and want to show us that in America's past there did exist versions of capitalism, or at least a commercial market economy, that had a human face.[3]

Actually these two seemingly polar positions represent the extremes of a debate historians have been having over the nature of early New England's society and economy, the place where presumably modern American capitalism first arose.[4] From almost the beginning of professional historical scholarship most American historians assumed that nearly all early American farmers, including those in New England, were incipient capitalists, eager to make money and get land and get ahead. Most farmers, it seemed, were involved in trade of various sorts—sending tobacco and wheat to England and Europe, selling fish, foodstuffs, and lumber to the West Indies, and exchanging a wide variety of goods among themselves. For these historians, usually labeled ''liberal'' or ''market'' historians these days, explaining the origins of capitalism in America has never been an issue: America has always been capitalistic.

A quarter century or so ago a group of historians, generally labeled ''social'' or ''moral economy'' historians, began challenging this view of early America as a modern market-oriented capitalistic world. The colonial farmers, particularly the New England farmers, it

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[2] *Ibid.*, 56.

[3] Michael Merrill, ''Putting 'Capitalism' in Its Place: A Review of Recent Literature,'' *William and Mary Quarterly*, 52 (Apr. 1995), 315-26; Merrill, ''The Anti-capitalist Origins of the United States,'' *Review: A Journal of the Fernand Braudel Center*, 13 (Fall 1990), 465-97.

[4] For some reviews of the debate see Robert E. Mutch, ''Colonial America and the Debate about the Transition to Capitalism,'' *Theory and Society*, 9 (Nov. 1980), 847-63; Christopher Clark, ''Economics and Culture: Opening Up the Rural History of the Early American Northeast,'' *American Quarterly*, 43 (June 1991), 279-301; Christopher Clark, ed., ''The Transition to Capitalism in America: A Panel Discussion,'' *The History Teacher*, 27 (May 1994), 263-88; Gordon S. Wood, ''Inventing American Capitalism,'' *New York Review of Books*, June 9, 1994, 44-49.

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CHAPTER 8 | SCHOLARLY ARTICLE

A8.62 - The Transportation Revolution and Antebellum Book Distribution Reconsidered

Ronald J. Zboray

ARTICLE	The Transportation Revolution and Antebellum Book Distribution Reconsidered
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THE TRANSPORTATION REVOLUTION AND ANTEBELLUM BOOK DISTRIBUTION RECONSIDERED

RONALD J. ZBORAY

The Emma Goldman Papers
University of California, Berkeley

THE TRANSPORTATION REVOLUTION HAS GENERALLY BEEN CREDITED WITH nationalizing—some may even say homogenizing—literary life in the antebellum United States. Prior to improvements in modes of transport, book production was highly decentralized, with numerous secondary cities supplying reading matter to their immediate hinterlands. The regional orientation of production inspired by this decentralization was, according to the traditional view, disrupted early in the nineteenth century by the first wave of the transportation revolution. A truly national reading public came into being and with it, presumably, a truly American literature.[1]

While this view certainly does hold a great deal of truth it contains much oversimplification as well. The broad concept of the ''transportation revolution'' obscures the special role the railroad played in changing patterns of literary dissemination in antebellum America. The improvements in road and water transport that characterized the early transportation revolution did little to facilitate the circulation of literature on a national scale. Books continued to move along many of the same avenues and in the same tenuous, seasonal manner as they had in the days of the colonial book peddlers. But it was the railroad that improved the regularity of communications upon which the emergent discount/commission relationship between central publisher and local bookseller depended. Also, the year-round regularity of rail communication permitted a national periodical literature in which publishers could advertise their books.

The geographical scope of such advertising campaigns can be reconstructed to provide some solid evidence for patterns of book distribution. After briefly surveying the distribution problems faced by publishers before the coming of rail, this essay will attempt just such a reconstruction. The advertising records for 1856 of the largest and perhaps most important publisher in antebellum

The author wishes to express his gratitude to Kenneth Siverman, John Tebbel, Thomas H. Bender, Richard Sennett, and Paul R. Baker for reading and commenting upon the material presented here as it appeared in the earlier dissertation. Research for this work was undertaken in part under the Albert S. Boni Fellowship (1983) of the American Antiquarian Society.

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America, Harper and Brothers, will be examined for evidence of the regional distribution of the firm's imprints.

If the case of Harper and Brothers' 1856 ad campaign can be generalized to other publishers, then the regional orientation of book dissemination did not diminish as much as the traditional view would have it. Instead, the coming of rail transformed the regional orientation of literature, so that it conformed to the different levels of rail development in the North, South, and West. With conditions of literary distribution differing in each of the three regions, the very idea of a truly national reading public in antebellum America may itself be an oversimplification.[2]

* * *

The first stages of the transportation revolution saw, rather than an increasing centralization, a further decentralization of literary production outside the major publishing centers of New York, Boston and Philadelphia. Widening the geographical scope of literary production, new magazines appeared for the first time in such places as Richmond, Albany, Mount Pleasant (Ohio), Shelbyville (Kentucky), Cincinnati, Princeton, Providence, Utica, Vandalia, Andover, Rochester, Shellbanks (Virginia), Augusta, St. Louis, Jonesborough (Tennessee), and Bangor—and all were founded between 1815 and 1835.[3] Indeed, the percentage of magazines launched outside the established eastern centers increased, from fifty-nine percent during the prior two decades to sixty-one percent in this twenty-year period.[4] Theoretically, the latter percentage figure should have been much lower because the enormous technological advances in printing generally adopted after 1815 benefited publishing in the three major cities. In addition, those cities, too, benefited from the early transportation improvements. New York, for example, acquired with the opening of the Erie Canal in 1826 a hinterland stretching to the Great Lakes. Yet it is no coincidence that in the year the middle section of that canal was completed (1819), Albany saw its first locally published magazine, *Plough Boy*. Similar transportation improvements preceded the emergence of most other regional literary centers.[5]

Indeed, the decentralization of literary production gained force from the very modes of early transportation improvement. Stagecoach, canal boat, steamboat, and coastal packet dominated transport during the first third of the nineteenth century. While useful for short hauls such as that between minor literary centers and their hinterlands, such modes of transport hardly provided a reliable, tightly scheduled, year-round national transportation system. In the winter, ice and snow effectively closed most of the northern and western waterways and roads. The spring brought ice floes and floods to the rivers and canals and mud to the low-lying roads. Only from May or June to the first snows of November could the system be called truly operable—hardly the conditions for a national periodical literature.[6]

Of course, for book production this state of affairs produced fewer problems.

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